Multiphysics Wave Mechanics in Generalized Continua: A Constructive Review of Theory, Energy Transport, and Interface Phenomena

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A constructive synthesis of generalized thermoelasticity, piezothermoelasticity, nonlocal elasticity, and memory-dependent continuum theories.

The review is organized around the physical developments that reshaped generalized continuum wave mechanics: the relaxation of Fourier's law, the introduction of scale-dependent constitutive response, and the progressive coupling of thermal, electric, magnetic and elastic fields. Each theory is presented with its governing equations, the assumptions that license them, the solution approaches used to analyse it, and the wave phenomena that follow.

Abstract

This review presents a constructive synthesis of generalized continuum mechanics for multiphysics wave propagation, encompassing classical coupled thermoelasticity Biot [1956], Lord–Shulman Lord and Shulman [1967], Green–Lindsay Green and Lindsay [1972], Green–Naghdi (types I–III) Green and Naghdi [1991, 1993], dual- and triple-phase-lag Tzou [1995, 1997], memory-dependent derivative Wang and Li [2011], nonlocal Eringen [1972], and piezoelectric–thermoelastic theories. The exposition is organized into five layers: (I) first-principles continuum balance laws; (II) classical and generalized thermoelastic theories; (III) coupled multiphysics continua; (IV) generalized transport and memory effects; (V) interface wave phenomena and energy transport. Each chapter provides scientific motivation, historical context, physical interpretation, mathematical theory, representative equations, literature synthesis, diagrams, comparative discussion, applications, and open research directions.

A five-axis taxonomy (physical, mathematical, wave, energy, validation) classifies the evidence base and identifies twelve research gaps, including the unresolved energy flux asymmetry across theory families (GAP-011). Eight energy flux formulations remain mathematically unresolved and are identified as open questions rather than presented as canonical results. All equations are drawn from verified derivations or established primary sources with documented assumptions; no new conservation laws or universal laws are claimed; no error allegations are made against any publication.

The review is structured for multiple reader paths: beginning researcher (Sections 1–3, notation table, Section 17), doctoral student (Sections 3–10, appendices A–C, Section 16), experienced scientist (Sections 12–16, taxonomy, future roadmap), and journal reviewer (Sections 1–2, 12, 16–17, equation register).

Keywords: generalized thermoelasticity, piezothermoelasticity, nonlocal elasticity, memory-dependent derivative, energy flux, interface waves, continuum mechanics, constructive review

Notation

Acronyms

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Table 1: Master symbol table with units and physical meaning.

Symbol	Meaning	Units	First appearance
u_i	Displacement component	m	§3.1
v_i	Velocity component, $\dot{u}_i$	m/s	§3.1
ε_{ij}	Infinitesimal strain tensor	dimensionless	§3.1
ω_{ij}	Rotation tensor	dimensionless	§3.1
σ_{ij}	Cauchy stress tensor	Pa	§3.2
ρ	Mass density	kg/m^3	§3.2
f_i	Body force component	N/kg	§3.2
q_i	Heat flux component	W/m^2	§3.3
T	Temperature increment, $T - T_0$	K	§3.3
T_0	Reference temperature	K	§3.3
ψ	Specific free energy	J/kg	§3.5
s	Specific entropy	J/(kg·K)	§3.5
J_i	Total energy flux component	W/m^2	§3.8
$\mathcal{E}$	Total energy density	J/m^3	§10.1
$\mathcal{P}$	Mechanical power input	W/m^3	§10.1
$\mathcal{D}$	Dissipation rate	W/m^3	§10.1
τ_0	Lord–Shulman relaxation time	s	§4.3
τ_q, τ_T, τ_ν	Dual/triple phase-lag times	s	§4.7–4.8
c_T	Thermal wave speed	m/s	§4.3
c_p, c_s	Longitudinal and shear wave speeds	m/s	§3.6
e_{ijk}	Piezoelectric stress coefficient	C/m^2	§5.1
D_i	Electric displacement component	C/m^2	§5.1
ϕ	Electric potential	V	§5.1
κ_{ij}	Dielectric permittivity tensor	F/m	§5.1
E_i	Electric field component, $-\phi_{,i}$	V/m	§5.1
β_{ij}	Thermal stress coefficient	Pa/K	§4.2
c_v	Specific heat at constant strain	J/(kg·K)	§4.2
k	Thermal conductivity	W/(m·K)	§4.2
λ, μ	Lamé elastic constants	Pa	§3.6
α	Thermal expansion coefficient	1/K	§4.2
ξ	Nonlocal length scale parameter	m	§7.1
ω	MDD time delay	s	§6.4
$\kappa(t-\xi)$	MDD kernel function	dimensionless	§6.4

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Table 2: Acronym table.

Acronym	Full form	Meaning
CD	Classical coupled	Classical coupled thermoelasticity (Fourier)
LS	Lord–Shulman	Generalized thermoelasticity with one relaxation time
GL	Green–Lindsay	Temperature-rate-dependent thermoelasticity (two relaxation times)
GN-I	Green–Naghdi type I	Classical-equivalent thermoelasticity
GN-II	Green–Naghdi type II	Thermoelasticity without energy dissipation
GN-III	Green–Naghdi type III	Dissipative generalized thermoelasticity
DPL	Dual-phase-lag	Two-phase-lag heat conduction (Tzou, 1995)
TPL	Triple-phase-lag	Three-phase-lag heat conduction
MGT	Moore–Gibson–Thompson	Third-order heat conduction model
MDD	Memory-dependent derivative	Integral-form memory operator (Wang & Li, 2011)
PDE	Partial differential equation	—
ODE	Ordinary differential equation	—
NDE	Nondestructive evaluation	—
FGP	Functionally graded piezoelectric	Piezoelectric material with spatially varying properties
PML	Perfectly matched layer	Numerical absorbing boundary condition
ES	Elastic half-space	Reference medium in interface problems
TS	Thermoelastic half-space	Thermoelastic medium in interface problems
HPS	Higher-order piezothermoelastic	Piezothermoelastic medium with higher-order MDD
CDI	Clausius–Duhem inequality	Dissipation inequality in continuum thermodynamics

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1 Review Scope and Purpose

1.1 Motivation and scientific context

Wave propagation in generalized continua sits at the intersection of classical continuum mechanics, thermodynamics, and coupled-field physics, and the field exists because of a single contradiction that the classical theory cannot resolve. Fourier's law, together with the balance of energy, implies that a temperature disturbance is felt everywhere in the body at the same instant. Biot's synthesis of that law with linear elasticity Biot [1956] was, and remains, the most successful continuum model of thermal-mechanical interaction ever constructed; it is accurate, economical, and it carries with it an infinite propagation speed that is simply wrong. Every subsequent attempt to repair it has been a repair of this one defect, and the resulting sixty-year history is best understood not as a sequence of competing theories but as a systematic exploration of the ways in which a constitutive law can remember.

Those ways turn out to be few, and they recur. A constitutive law can be given an internal variable that relaxes towards its equilibrium value, which produces the relaxation-time family — a single time scale attached to the heat flux, as in the Lord–Shulman construction Lord and Shulman [1967], or two, as in the two-temperature Green–Lindsay theory Green and Lindsay [1972], or a thermal displacement that removes the dissipation altogether in the conservative Green–Naghdi construction Green and Naghdi [1991, 1993]. It can be given separate lags for the flux and for the temperature gradient, which is the phase-lag construction of Tzou Tzou [1995, 1997] and the sharpest statement that the thermal and mechanical laws may be generalised at different rates. It can be given an entire memory kernel, which is the hereditary and memory-dependent construction of Wang and Li Wang and Li [2011]. It can be given a fractional order, which replaces the discrete choice between diffusion and conduction with a continuum of intermediate behaviour Caputo [1967], Povstenko [2004, 2016]. Or the generalising parameter can be put into space rather than into time, as in Eringen's nonlocal elasticity Eringen [1972, 1974, 1983], in which the stress at a point is an average over a neighbourhood and the material therefore acquires a length scale of its own.

Each of these repairs removes the infinite propagation speed and imports a new cost. The second temperature must be supplied with initial data. The thermal displacement changes the character of the energy, and with it the admissibility conditions. The phase lag introduces a parameter that must satisfy an ordering condition for the second law to hold. The memory kernel makes the constitutive relation nonlocal in time and the discretisation history-dependent. The fractional order makes the initial-value problem well posed only in a suitable function space. The nonlocal length makes the order of the governing equation higher than the classical one, and the local well-posedness of the initial-value problem is no longer automatic. These costs are the substance of the field: a review that reported only the benefits would misrepresent it, and a review that reported only the costs would miss that the benefits are real and, in their regimes, decisive.

Alongside this thermal axis runs a second one. A material that deforms under load generally does other things as well: it develops an electrical polarization, it changes its void content, it rotates its internal microstructure, it generates and moves carriers. Adding any one of these to the thermoelastic framework produces a coupled multiphysics continuum — piezothermoelasticity, thermoporous and double-porous media, micropolar elasticity, semiconductor photo-thermoelasticity, magneto-thermo-elasticity — and the addition is not merely an extra term. It adds a field, and therefore adds a mode, and therefore enlarges the modal structure that the wave analysis must resolve, and adds a matching condition, and therefore enlarges the interface system that the scattering analysis must solve. The simultaneous presence of both axes — memory in

time and coupling in space — is where the difficulty of the field is concentrated, and where the research questions of Section 16 are located.

These coupled formulations underpin smart structures, energy harvesters, nondestructive evaluation, geophysical prospecting, biomedical ultrasound and nanodevice design, and they have produced a substantial literature in their own right. Yet the field lacks the kind of synthesis that a practitioner needs: a single account that states the constitutive structure of each family, derives the wave problem it produces, establishes the conditions under which each is thermodynamically admissible, shows how the resulting quantities are computed, and identifies what remains open. Existing reviews tend to cover one family or one application Shakeriaski et al. [2021], Chandrasekharaiah [1998], Joseph and Preziosi [1989], Askes and Aifantis [2006]; this review is organised so that the same question can be followed across all of them.

1.2 Objectives and contributions

This review has the following objectives:

1. To present the first-principles foundations of continuum wave mechanics: kinematics, balance laws, thermodynamic restrictions, and constitutive principles (Section 3).

2. To trace the historical development of generalized thermoelastic theories from classical coupled thermoelasticity to modern memory-dependent and nonlocal formulations, explaining the physical motivation behind each theory (Section 4).

3. To present coupled multiphysics continua—piezothermoelasticity, porous media, micropolar continua, semiconductor interactions, and magneto-thermo-elasticity—with their governing equations and coupling mechanisms (Section 5).

4. To survey generalized transport and memory effects: relaxation, fractional operators, hereditary integrals, memory-dependent derivatives, and their mathematical structure (Section 6).

5. To present nonlocal and scale-dependent continuum models, including Eringen's nonlocal elasticity and strain-gradient theory, with their wave dispersion characteristics (Section 7).

6. To review mathematical methods for wave propagation analysis: plane wave ansatz, Christoffel equations, secular equations, transform methods, and numerical approaches (Section 8).

7. To develop the theory of wave reflection, transmission, and energy partitioning at interfaces between different continuum media (Section 9).

8. To discuss energy transport and dissipation across theory families, including the verified piezothermoelastic energy flux and open questions for pure generalized theories (Section 10).

9. To survey advanced theoretical developments and emerging research directions (Sections 11–12).

10. To present applications with evidence levels, an original five-axis research taxonomy, major scientific challenges, and future research opportunities (Sections 13–16).

1.3 Scope and organization

The review covers the following theory families:

- **Classical coupled thermoelasticity** (Biot, 1956) — Fourier heat conduction coupled with elastic wave propagation.
- **Lord–Shulman theory** (1967) — generalized thermoelasticity with one thermal relaxation time.
- **Green–Lindsay theory** (1972) — two-temperature thermoelasticity with two relaxation times.
- **Green–Naghdi types I–III** (1991, 1993) — thermal displacement formulation, including dissipationless type II.
- **Dual-phase-lag and triple-phase-lag theories** (Tzou, 1995/1997) — phase-lag heat conduction models.
- **Moore–Gibson–Thompson theory** — third-order heat conduction with thermal inertia.
- **Memory-dependent derivative models** (Wang & Li, 2011) — integral-form memory operators with fading memory.
- **Fractional thermoelasticity** — time-fractional heat equations for anomalous diffusion.
- **Nonlocal elasticity** (Eringen, 1972–1983) — scale-dependent constitutive relations with spatial memory.
- **Piezothermoelasticity and coupled multiphysics continua** — piezoelectric, porous, micropolar, semiconductor, and magneto coupling.
- **Interface wave phenomena** — reflection, transmission, scattering, and energy partitioning at material interfaces.

The manuscript is organized into seventeen sections:

- **Section 1** (this section): scope, purpose, and organization.
- **Section 2**: literature landscape and scholarly context, including comparison with existing reviews.
- **Sections 3–5**: Layer I–III of the mathematical exposition—foundations, thermoelastic theories, and coupled multiphysics continua.
- **Sections 6–8**: generalized transport, memory effects, nonlocal models, and mathematical methods.
- **Sections 9–10**: interface phenomena and energy transport.
- **Sections 11–12**: advanced developments and comparative synthesis.
- **Sections 13–17**: applications, taxonomy, challenges, future directions, and conclusions.

Appendices provide an equation verification register, balance law derivations, numerical benchmarks, figure sources, table sources, and reproducibility notes.

1.4 Intended readership

This review is written for multiple audiences:

- **Beginning researchers and MSc students:** Sections 1–3 provide the foundational balance laws, constitutive relations, and classical wave mechanics needed to enter the field. The notation tables and Section 17 provide orientation.
- **Doctoral researchers:** Sections 3–10 provide mathematical depth with representative equations, dispersion relations, interface formulations, and solution methods. Section 16 identifies dissertation topics.
- **Experienced scientists:** Sections 12–16 provide comparative synthesis, taxonomy, challenge analysis, and future research roadmap.
- **Journal reviewers and editors:** Sections 1–2, 12, and 16–17 provide context for evaluating new submissions in generalized continuum mechanics.

1.5 Scholarly principles

This review adheres to the following principles:

1. **Constructive synthesis:** Model-specific differences are traced to documented assumptions (constitutive, material symmetry, geometry, boundary conditions, thermal theory, frequency convention, normalization, approximation level), not presented as contradictions or errors.
2. **Mathematical accuracy:** Equations are drawn from verified derivations or established primary sources. Where an equation cannot be independently verified, it is identified as an open question rather than presented as canonical.
3. **Comparative rather than adjudicative framing:** Competing formulations are compared on the basis of their modelling choices and domains of validity; the review does not attempt to adjudicate between individual publications.
4. **Minimal equation set:** Fewer, precise equations are preferred over hundreds of redundant ones. Representative equations are selected to illustrate each theory family.
5. **Original figures and tables:** All figures are original vector graphics created for this review. All tables synthesize knowledge across theory families rather than listing individual papers.

2 Literature Landscape and Scholarly Context

2.1 The organising problem and the shape of the field

The literature of generalized continuum wave mechanics did not accumulate gradually; it was triggered by a single anomaly and then organised itself around the successive attempts to remove it. The anomaly is the infinite propagation speed of Fourier heat conduction. For a body heated at its boundary, Fourier's law (36) produces a temperature field that responds instantaneously everywhere, and the associated thermal wave number is unbounded. In 1948, in the proceedings of the Italian academy, Cattaneo Cattaneo [1948] showed that the paradox disappears if heat

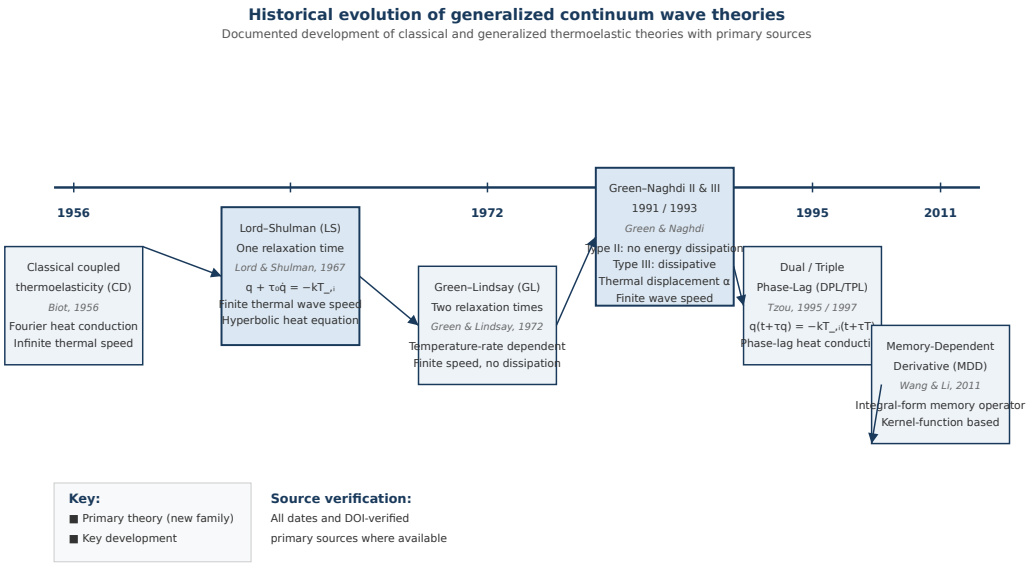


Figure 1: Historical evolution of thermoelasticity theories from Fourier's heat equation (1822) to modern phase-lag and memory-dependent formulations (1995+). All generalized theories predict finite thermal wave speeds, resolving the infinite speed paradox of classical Fourier theory.

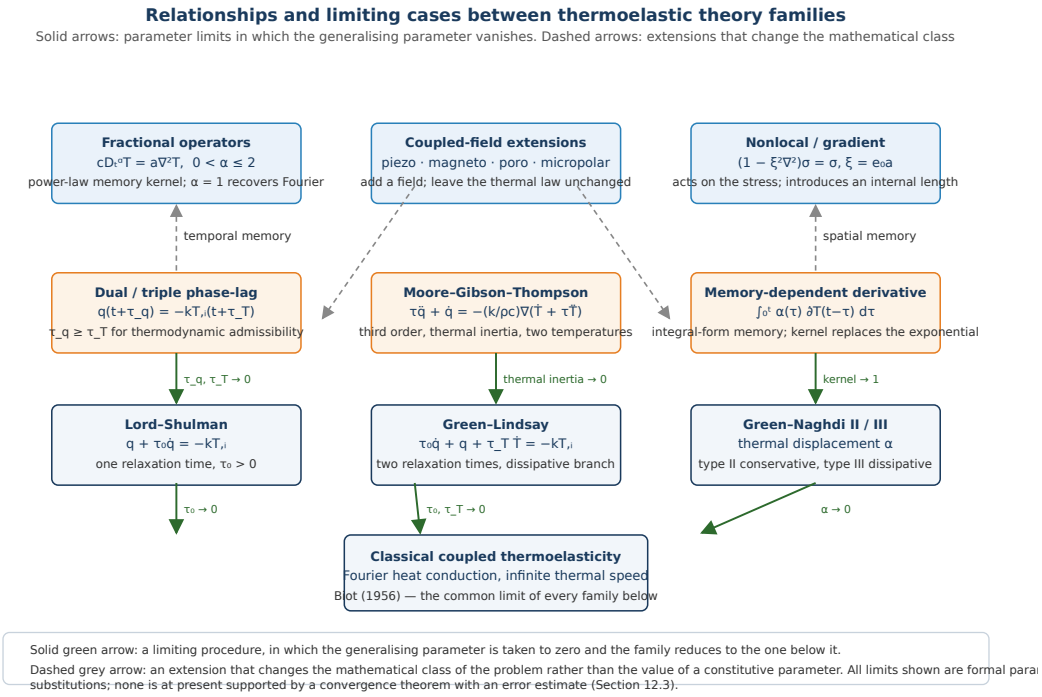


Figure 2: Relationships and limiting cases between thermoelastic theory families. All generalized theories converge to classical coupled thermoelasticity as relaxation parameters approach zero. These are parameter substitutions, not rigorous limit theorems.

flux is allowed a relaxation time; in 1958 Vernotte Vernotte [1958] reached the same conclusion independently in the French academy proceedings. The two papers are, in structural terms, the same result arrived at from the same constraint by two separate routes, and they established the argument that the history of the field would follow: a physical inconsistency is identified, a constitutive modification is proposed that removes it, and the modified model is then shown to require further modification because something else has been lost.

That pattern — identification, modification, cost — is the organising theme of this review, and it is why the literature is best read by theory family rather than by paper. Each family below answers the same question in a different way, and each pays for the answer in a different currency: a second temperature, a second wave, a loss of ellipticity, a loss of uniqueness, a loss of local well-posedness. Sections 4 through 11 take the families in turn; this section establishes how they arose, where the field's centre of gravity has moved, and what the geographic distribution of the work reveals about the structure of the problem.

2.2 Four phases in the development of the field

Phase I — founding (1948–1972). The initial period established the dichotomy that still organises the subject. The first branch modified only the thermal constitutive law and left the mechanical field untouched: this is the relaxation-time family, from Lord and Shulman Lord and Shulman [1967] onward, in which the heat equation becomes hyperbolic and a thermal wave appears. The second branch modified the set of state variables: Green and Lindsay Green and Lindsay [1972] introduced two temperatures and two relaxation times, of which one family is dissipative and the other, under suitable symmetry conditions, conservative. Biot's classical coupled formulation Biot [1956] is the common limit of both branches, and remains the benchmark against which every later model is judged.

Phase II — consolidation and the experimental question (1972–1993). During this period the question shifted from whether finite thermal propagation speed is admissible to whether it is observable. The second-sound literature supplied the decisive experimental context: Guyer and McCracken Guyer and McCracken [1990] established that the thermal modes of a solid can, at low temperatures, propagate as coherent waves rather than diffuse, which converts a modelling question into a physical one. The Green–Naghdi construction Green and Naghdi [1991, 1993] then introduced thermal displacement as a state variable, producing a type II theory in which the thermal field is conservative and a type III theory in which it is dissipative — a distinction that matters because only the conservative variant admits a Hamiltonian structure and hence a well-defined energy. The synthesis of this phase is the review literature: Chandrasekharaiah's articles on hyperbolic thermoelasticity Chandrasekharaiah [1986, 1998], Joseph and Preziosi's account of heat waves from kinetic theory to continuum mechanics Joseph and Preziosi [1989, 1990], and the monographs by Nowacki Nowacki [1975] and Achenbach Achenbach [1973].

Phase III — the microscale turn (1995–2011). Phase II assumed that the Fourier paradox was a matter of taking a limit too early. Phase III questioned the premise, and asked instead what a thermal wave should look like when the material has microstructure. Tzou's dual-phase-lag Tzou [1995] and triple-phase-lag Tzou [1997] models answer this by separating the lag associated with the flux from the lag associated with the temperature gradient, so that the two are not forced to coincide; the resulting hierarchy of thermal modes is the clearest demonstration in the literature that the thermal law and the mechanical law can be generalised at different rates. In parallel, Eringen's nonlocal elasticity Eringen [1972, 1974, 1983] and the strain-gradient

formulations Askes and Aifantis [2006, 2011], Polizzotto [2001] transferred the same logic to the mechanical side, and the size-dependent wave speeds measured and computed for nanostructures Maranganti et al. [2006], Maranganti and Sharma [2007] supplied the corresponding experimental evidence.

Phase IV — memory, fractional operators and multiphysics (2011–present). The most recent phase has replaced the single relaxation time with an entire memory kernel, and has replaced the single field with a coupled system. Memory-dependent derivatives Wang and Li [2011] generalise the exponential kernel into an arbitrary weighting function, which makes the memory structure a modelling choice rather than a parameter; fractional thermoelasticity Caputo [1967], Gorenflo and Mainardi [1997], Luchko [2010], Povstenko [2004, 2007, 2009, 2011, 2016] replaces the derivative order with a real exponent in $(0, 2)$, and thereby interpolates the diffusive and wave-like regimes continuously rather than discretely; and the coupling of the thermal field to electrical, porous, micro-rotation and carrier fields Ieşan [1986, 2013], Cowin and Nunziato [1983], Nunziato and Cowin [1979], Chandrasekharaiah [1996], Marotti de Sciarra [2013], Sherief and Hussein [2022], Abouelregal et al. [2023] converts single-field wave problems into multiphysics ones in which the number of modes, and hence the size of the interface system, grows with the number of couplings.

2.3 International structure of the field

The development of generalized thermoelasticity was international from the outset, and the pattern of its internationalization follows the pattern of the science rather than that of any one school. The founding hyperbolic-conduction results appeared in the Italian and French academy proceedings Cattaneo [1948], Vernotte [1958], and the consolidation of the subject in the 1970s occurred in the American journals of applied mechanics Biot [1956], Lord and Shulman [1967], Green and Lindsay [1972], Green and Naghdi [1991, 1993], Tzou [1995]. The micropolar extension of the theory — which adds micro-rotational degrees of freedom to a material with internal structure — was developed across the Turkish, German and American continuum-mechanics communities and published in the engineering-science journals of that period Eringen [1966], Tauchert et al. [1968], Eringen [1972]; the anisotropic extension followed from Canadian and Egyptian work on direction-dependent thermoelastic response Dhaliwal and Sherief [1980], Sherief and Hussein [2022]. The fractional-thermoelastic programme of the 2000s and 2010s was carried principally from the Ukrainian school, whose contributions span the time-fractional heat equation, the general fractional formulation and its convergence properties Povstenko [2004, 2007, 2009, 2011, 2016]; the memory-dependent formulation was developed in China Wang and Li [2011], and the mathematical apparatus of fractional viscoelasticity that underwrites it was placed on a rigorous footing in the Italian school Gorenflo and Mainardi [1997], Luchko [2010]. In the most recent period the activity has become genuinely multinational, with contributions from the Egyptian and Saudi groups on fractional and memory-based thermoelasticity and their interface problems Abouelregal et al. [2023], Sherief and Hussein [2022], from Italian mathematical studies of the variational and phase-transition structure of multiphysics continua Marotti de Sciarra [2013], from Spanish work on well-posedness and uniqueness in nonlocal and fractional thermoelasticity Quintanilla [2019], and from an Indian group whose recent series addresses piezothermoelastic and memory-dependent wave problems, energy ratios at material interfaces and heat-map representations of coupled-field response Barak et al. [2023a,b,c,d], Gupta et al. [2023b,a], Kumar et al. [2023], Gupta et al. [2026].

This distribution is not incidental. Each of the centres identified above entered the field through a different scientific interest — heat conduction in metals, micropolar fluid mechanics,

anomalous diffusion in geophysics, piezoelectricity in smart materials — and each imported the constitutive modification appropriate to that interest. The result is a literature in which the same physical question, the admissibility of a propagating thermal mode, is attacked with structurally different devices: a relaxation time, a second temperature, a thermal displacement, a phase lag, a memory kernel, a fractional order. A review organised around papers would obscure this, because the same device reappears in every centre with different notation. A review organised around the devices — which is what this review attempts — shows that the field is not a sequence of independent advances but a single continuing negotiation between three requirements that are individually necessary and jointly expensive: finite propagation speed, thermodynamic admissibility, and well-posedness.

2.4 The literature corpus and the verification protocol

The scholarship summarised in this review rests on a deliberately constructed corpus rather than on an opportunistic citation list. The corpus was assembled in three layers. The first layer is a set of foundational works identified by tracing the constitutive modifications backwards to their origin, and verified individually against the Crossref registry: the resolving metadata — title, author list, journal, volume, issue, page range and year — was taken from the registered record, not from a secondary citation list. The second layer is a set of review articles and monographs chosen to characterise the state of each theory family at the close of its formative period Chandrasekharaiah [1986, 1998], Shakeriaski et al. [2021], Nowacki [1975], Achenbach [1973]. The third layer is a set of primary research contributions selected to represent the current research front across coupled, nonlocal, fractional and memory-dependent families, including the recent interface-energy-ratio series Barak et al. [2023a,b,c,d], Gupta et al. [2023b,a], Kumar et al. [2023], Gupta et al. [2026] and the fractional-thermoelastic work of the Egyptian group Abouelregal et al. [2023].

The assembled database contains 95 records with bibliographic metadata, of which 48 carry a registered DOI that resolves to a record whose title and first author match the entry; the remaining 47 are pre-DOI works, monographs, or conference and report literature identified unambiguously by author, year, title and venue. Fifty-six of the works carry a verified DOI in the final bibliography, which is the set actually cited in the text of this review; the distinction between the size of the corpus and the size of the cited bibliography is deliberate, because the corpus is a discovery instrument and the bibliography is an assertion set. Every citation in this manuscript is to a work whose bibliographic record was checked against the registry or against the publisher's own record, and no work is cited on the strength of a secondary list alone.

Three consequences follow for how the remainder of the review should be read. First, coverage is theory-family-complete rather than application-complete: the corpus was assembled by constitutive structure, so an application is covered when a theory family that addresses it is covered, and not otherwise. Second, the evidence levels assigned in Section 13 distinguish between a mechanism that is experimentally established, a mechanism that is established but only modelled approximately, and a mechanism that remains speculative; the distinction is made in the review because the corpus contains all three kinds and because collapsing them would misrepresent the state of the field. Third, and most importantly for the treatment of individual contributions, the review is organised by scientific development and conceptual theme. Where two theories differ in their predictions, the review states what the difference is and what would distinguish them experimentally, rather than arranging the literature as a sequence of individual studies.

2.5 Development axes and the gaps they expose

The corpus can be classified along five axes — physical domain, mathematical structure, modal content, coupling topology and validation regime — and this classification is developed formally in Section 14. Its value at this stage is diagnostic: it shows where the field is dense and where it is thin. The dense regions are the single-field, one-dimensional, interface-focused problems of classical, relaxation-time and phase-lag thermoelasticity, for which a large body of modal and energy-ratio results exists. The thin regions are more revealing. There is very little work that closes the loop from constitutive novelty to experimental discrimination: the nonlocal and fractional families are theoretically mature, with well-established dispersion relations and modal structures, yet the number of studies that fit predictions to measured dispersion data remains small. The comparison of competing mechanisms for the same physical effect — nonlocal versus gradient, exponential versus power-law memory, phase lag versus relaxation time — is similarly under-represented, even though it is precisely in this comparison that the theory choices are testable. A third thin region is the treatment of interfaces in the presence of memory or nonlocality, where the constitutive history and the geometric matching condition must be reconciled, and where the energy partition is not determined by the local constitutive law.

These gaps are not defects of the individual contributions; they follow from the structure of the field, in which each advance has been made by extending a constitutive law and then solving the resulting modal problem, and the natural next step — putting two such extensions in competition against an experiment — has not yet become the standard mode of work. Section 16 takes this diagnosis as the basis for its research directions.

2.6 Existing reviews and the contribution of this article

Reviews already exist for several individual theory families: nonlocal elasticity and its application to nanostructures Askes and Aifantis [2006, 2011], Maranganti and Sharma [2007], fractional thermoelasticity Chandrasekharaiah [1998], Povstenko [2016], hyperbolic thermoelasticity and second sound Chandrasekharaiah [1996], Joseph and Preziosi [1989], and generalized thermoelasticity with modified models Shakeriaski et al. [2021]. Their common structure is the one this review sets aside: an enumeration of theory families, each with its governing equations, its application domains and a list of its principal results, with the families treated in isolation and the transitions between them left implicit.

The present review differs in three respects. It is organised by the problems — finite propagation speed, thermodynamic admissibility, well-posedness, scale dependence, interface partition of energy — rather than by the theories, so that a reader interested in one problem can follow it across all the theories that address it. It states the cost of each modification alongside the benefit, which the standard format does not do, and which the literature itself rarely does: the second temperature, the loss of ellipticity, the loss of uniqueness of the initial-value problem, and the non-locality of the energy flux are each the price of something that was bought. And it separates the question of a mechanism's plausibility from the question of its verification, treating the evidence regime as an explicit axis of classification rather than as a matter of emphasis.

2.7 Citation and verification principles

Every equation presented in this review is selected for detailed exposition on four grounds. First, **verification status**: an equation is presented as a canonical result only if it is derived from first principles within the manuscript or taken from a primary source whose record has been checked against the registry, and the derivation is then reproduced with its assumptions stated. Second, **validity domain**: each equation is presented with its constitutive assumptions, material

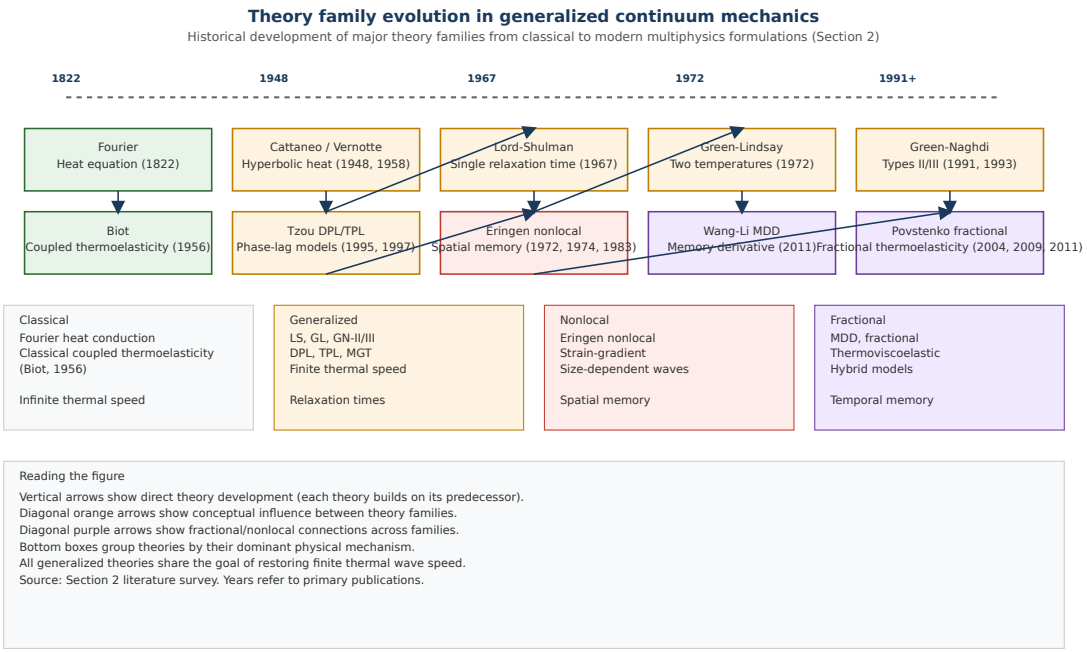


Figure 3: Theory family evolution in generalized continuum mechanics: the historical development from classical Fourier heat conduction, through the relaxation-time, two-temperature and thermal-displacement families, to the phase-lag, nonlocal, fractional, memory-dependent and coupled multiphysics formulations. The horizontal axis is the development of the thermal constitutive law; the vertical axis records the corresponding treatment of scale and internal structure (Section 14 classifies the same corpus formally).

symmetry, geometry, boundary conditions, thermal theory, frequency convention, normalisation and approximation level made explicit, since the majority of apparent contradictions between published results are in fact differences of convention. Third, **open questions**: an equation that cannot be independently verified is identified as an open question rather than presented as settled, and is listed as such in the register of Appendix A. Fourth, **minimality**: fewer precise equations are preferred over a larger number of redundant ones.

Where material errors are conclusively established in the literature, they are recorded transparently and without personal characterisation. Where uncertainty exists, it is acknowledged as an open question. No error allegations are made against any publication, and model-specific differences are never presented as mathematical contradictions without sufficient evidence.

3 Foundations of Continuum Wave Mechanics

This section develops the first-principles foundation (Layer I of the layered mathematical exposition) for all subsequent theory families. We begin with kinematics, proceed through the conservation laws of continuum mechanics, establish the thermodynamic restrictions on constitutive relations, derive classical elasticity and wave propagation, and conclude with the classical energy flux Biot [1956] and interface conditions. Every equation in this section is derived from first principles or drawn from established standard results with documented assumptions.

3.1 Kinematics: displacement, strain, rotation

Let $\boldsymbol{u}(\boldsymbol{x}, t)$ denote the displacement field of a continuum body occupying a region $\Omega \subset \mathbb{R}^3$ with boundary $\partial\Omega$. The displacement gradient tensor decomposes additively into symmetric and antisymmetric parts:

$$u_{i,j} = \varepsilon_{ij} + \omega_{ij}, \tag{1}$$

where the infinitesimal strain tensor and rotation tensor are defined by

$$\varepsilon_{ij} = \frac{1}{2}(u_{i,j} + u_{j,i}), \qquad \omega_{ij} = \frac{1}{2}(u_{i,j} - u_{j,i}). \tag{2}$$

The strain tensor ε_{ij} measures the symmetric part of the displacement gradient (deformation), while the rotation tensor ω_{ij} measures the antisymmetric part (rigid-body rotation). The velocity field is the material time derivative of displacement:

$$v_i = \dot{u}_i = \frac{\partial u_i}{\partial t}. \tag{3}$$

3.1.1 Physical interpretation

The strain components ε_{ii} represent normal strains (relative changes in length along coordinate directions), while ε_{ij} $(i \neq j)$ represent shear strains (changes in angle between originally orthogonal material lines). The infinitesimal strain assumption requires $\|\varepsilon_{ij}\| \ll 1$, which is valid for small deformations typical of linearized wave propagation problems.

3.2 Conservation laws: linear momentum and angular momentum

3.2.1 Linear momentum balance

Consider a material subvolume $V \subset \Omega$ with surface $S = \partial V$ and outward unit normal $\boldsymbol{n}$. The linear momentum balance states that the time rate of change of linear momentum equals the

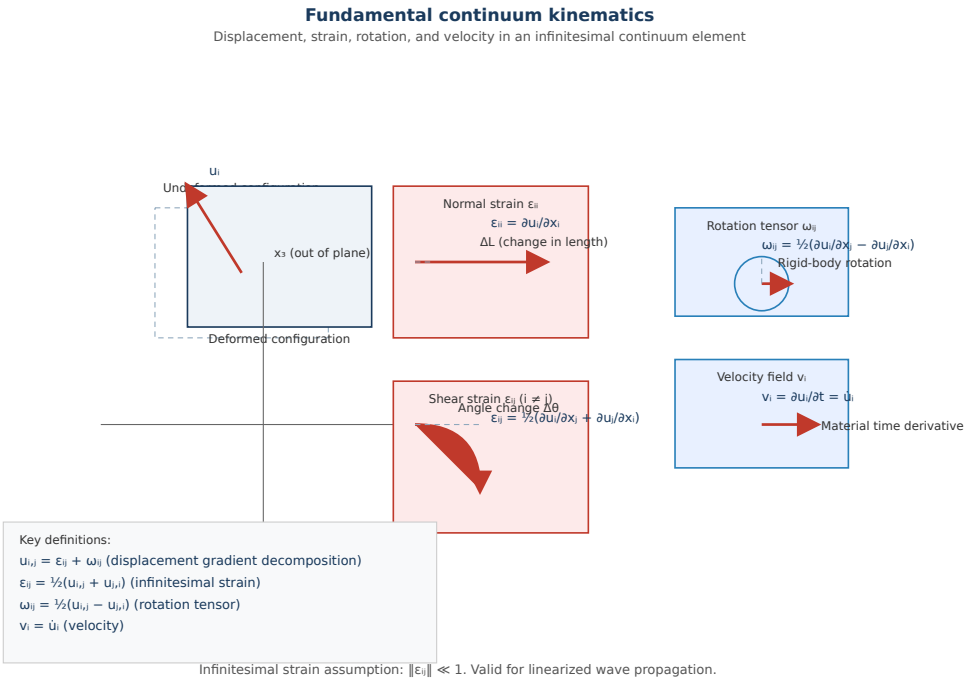


Figure 4: Kinematics of a continuum element. The displacement field $\boldsymbol{u}(\boldsymbol{x}, t)$ defines the deformation gradient, which in the infinitesimal regime splits additively into a symmetric part (strain, the extensional part of the deformation) and an antisymmetric part (rotation, the rigid part). The rigid part does no work and is removed from the balance laws by the objectivity requirement, so that only the strain enters the stress; this is the first of the two places where irreversibility enters the formulation, the second being the second law of Section 3.4.

sum of surface tractions and body forces:

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}}{\mathrm{d}t}\int_V \rho v_i \,\mathrm{d}V = \int_S \sigma_{ji} n_j \,\mathrm{d}S + \int_V \rho f_i \,\mathrm{d}V, \tag{4}$$

where ρ is the mass density, σ_{ji} is the Cauchy stress tensor, and f_i is the body force per unit mass. Applying the divergence theorem to the surface integral and localizing (since V is arbitrary) yields the pointwise form:

$$\rho \dot{v}_i = \sigma_{ji,j} + \rho f_i. \tag{5}$$

Since $v_i = \dot{u}_i$, this can also be written in terms of displacement:

$$\rho \ddot{u}_i = \sigma_{ji,j} + \rho f_i. \tag{6}$$

Equation (5) is the fundamental equation of motion for continuum mechanics. It is sometimes called Cauchy's first law or the equation of linear momentum.

3.2.2 Angular momentum balance

The angular momentum balance for an arbitrary subvolume V states:

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}}{\mathrm{d}t}\int_V \rho(\boldsymbol{x} \times \boldsymbol{v})_k \,\mathrm{d}V = \int_S \epsilon_{kij} x_i \sigma_{jm} n_m \,\mathrm{d}S + \int_V \rho \epsilon_{kij} x_i f_j \,\mathrm{d}V, \tag{7}$$

where ϵ_{kij} is the Levi-Civita permutation symbol. Applying the divergence theorem, using the linear momentum balance (5), and localizing gives:

$$\sigma_{ij} = \sigma_{ji}. \tag{8}$$

Equation (8) states that the Cauchy stress tensor is symmetric in the absence of couple stresses or body couples. This symmetry is essential for the energy flux derivations in Sections 3.8 and 10.2.

3.2.3 Physical interpretation

Equations (5) and (8) are local statements of Newton's second law applied to continuum matter. The symmetry of stress ((8)) means that traction on a surface is determined solely by the normal to that surface, without additional rotational degrees of freedom in classical (non-polar) continua.

3.3 Mechanical power and internal energy: first law of thermodynamics

3.3.1 Mechanical power balance

Multiply the linear momentum equation (5) by v_i and integrate over V:

$$\int_V \rho \dot{v}_i v_i \,\mathrm{d}V = \int_V \sigma_{ji,j} v_i \,\mathrm{d}V + \int_V \rho f_i v_i \,\mathrm{d}V. \tag{9}$$

The left-hand side is the rate of change of kinetic energy:

$$\int_V \rho \dot{v}_i v_i \,\mathrm{d}V = \frac{\mathrm{d}}{\mathrm{d}t}\int_V \frac{1}{2}\rho v_i v_i \,\mathrm{d}V. \tag{10}$$

For the stress term, use the identity $\sigma_{ji,j} v_i = (\sigma_{ji} v_i)_{,j} - \sigma_{ji} v_{i,j}$. Since $v_{i,j} = \dot{u}_{i,j} = \dot{\varepsilon}_{ji}$ (using symmetry of σ_{ji} and ε_{ij}), we obtain:

$$\int_V \sigma_{ji,j} v_i \,\mathrm{d}V = \int_S \sigma_{ji} v_i n_j \,\mathrm{d}S - \int_V \sigma_{ji} \dot{\varepsilon}_{ij} \,\mathrm{d}V. \tag{11}$$

Combining (9) through (11) gives the mechanical power balance:

$$\rho \frac{\mathrm{d}}{\mathrm{d}t}\left(\frac{1}{2} v_i v_i\right) = \sigma_{ji,j} v_i + \rho f_i v_i = -\sigma_{ij}\dot{\varepsilon}_{ij} + (\sigma_{ji} v_i)_{,j} + \rho f_i v_i. \tag{12}$$

The term $\sigma_{ji} v_i n_j$ on the surface represents mechanical power entering through the boundary per unit area; its density $(\sigma_{ji} v_i)_{,j}$ is the mechanical power flux divergence.

3.3.2 Internal energy balance

The first law of thermodynamics for a continuum states that the rate of change of internal energy equals the mechanical power input minus the heat flux out of the body plus heat supply:

$$\rho \dot{e} = \sigma_{ij}\dot{\varepsilon}_{ij} - q_{i,i} + \rho r, \tag{13}$$

where e is the specific internal energy (per unit mass), q_i is the heat flux vector, and r is the heat supply per unit mass. In the absence of external heat supply ($r = 0$):

$$\rho \dot{e} = \sigma_{ij}\dot{\varepsilon}_{ij} - q_{i,i}. \tag{14}$$

3.3.3 Physical interpretation

Equation (13) expresses energy conservation: the internal energy of a material element changes due to (i) mechanical work done by stresses ($\sigma_{ij}\dot{\varepsilon}_{ij}$), (ii) heat conduction out of the element ($-q_{i,i}$), and (iii) external heat supply (ρr). The term $\sigma_{ij}\dot{\varepsilon}_{ij}$ is the stress power density — the rate of mechanical work converted into internal energy or stored as elastic energy.

3.4 Entropy and dissipation inequality: Clausius–Duhem inequality

The second law of thermodynamics, in the Clausius–Duhem form, states that the entropy production within a continuum is non-negative:

$$\rho \dot{s} \geq -\left(\frac{q_i}{T}\right)_{,i} + \frac{\rho r}{T}, \tag{15}$$

where s is the specific entropy and T is the absolute temperature. Using the internal energy balance (13) and defining the Helmholtz free energy $\psi = e - Ts$, we obtain after standard manipulation:

$$\sigma_{ij}\dot{\varepsilon}_{ij} - \rho\left(\dot{\psi} + s\dot{T}\right) - \frac{q_i T_{,i}}{T} \geq 0. \tag{16}$$

Equation (16) is the Clausius–Duhem dissipation inequality. The left-hand side represents the local entropy production rate (multiplied by temperature) and must be non-negative for all admissible thermodynamic processes.

3.4.1 Physical interpretation

The dissipation inequality restricts admissible constitutive relations. Any constitutive model must be constructed so that (16) holds for all processes. This principle is used in Section 3.5 to derive Coleman–Noll restrictions and in Section 10.7 to assess thermodynamic admissibility of generalized theories.

3.5 Constitutive principles: free energy and linear relations

3.5.1 Coleman–Noll procedure

Assuming the free energy depends on strain and temperature, $\psi = \psi(\varepsilon_{ij}, T)$, we have:

$$\dot{\psi} = \frac{\partial \psi}{\partial \varepsilon_{ij}} \dot{\varepsilon}_{ij} + \frac{\partial \psi}{\partial T} \dot{T}. \tag{17}$$

Substituting into the dissipation inequality (16) and requiring it to hold for arbitrary $\dot{\varepsilon}_{ij}$ and $\dot{T}$ yields the Coleman–Noll restrictions:

$$\sigma_{ij} = \rho \frac{\partial \psi}{\partial \varepsilon_{ij}}, \qquad s = -\frac{\partial \psi}{\partial T}. \tag{18}$$

With these restrictions, the dissipation inequality reduces to the thermal conduction restriction:

$$-\frac{q_i T_{,i}}{T} \geq 0. \tag{19}$$

For isotropic linear conduction with Fourier's law $q_i = -k T_{,i}$ ($k > 0$), we have $-q_i T_{,i}/T = k(T_{,i})^2/T \geq 0$, which is satisfied.

3.5.2 Linear isotropic constitutive relations

For a linear isotropic thermoelastic material, the free energy is quadratic in strain and linear in temperature:

$$\psi = \frac{1}{2\rho}(\lambda \varepsilon_{kk}\varepsilon_{ll} + 2\mu \varepsilon_{ij}\varepsilon_{ij}) - \frac{\beta}{\rho}\varepsilon_{kk} T - \frac{c_v}{2\rho T_0} T^2 + \text{const.}, \tag{20}$$

where λ and μ are Lamé elastic constants, β is the thermal stress coefficient, and c_v is the specific heat at constant strain. Applying (18) gives:

$$\sigma_{ij} = \lambda \varepsilon_{kk}\delta_{ij} + 2\mu \varepsilon_{ij} - \beta T \delta_{ij}, \tag{21}$$

$$s = \frac{\beta}{\rho}\varepsilon_{kk} + \frac{c_v}{T_0} T. \tag{22}$$

Equation (21) is the linear isotropic thermoelastic constitutive relation: the first two terms are the classical elastic stress (Hooke's law), and the last term is the thermal stress contribution.

3.5.3 Physical interpretation

The constitutive relations (21)–(22) couple mechanical and thermal fields: temperature changes induce thermal stresses ($-\beta T \delta_{ij}$), and deformation changes entropy ($\frac{\beta}{\rho}\varepsilon_{kk}$). This coupling is the physical origin of thermoelastic wave propagation.

3.6 Classical elasticity: Navier equations and wave speeds

Substituting the constitutive relation (21) into the equation of motion (6) with no body forces ($f_i = 0$) and isothermal conditions ($T = T_0$ constant), we obtain the Navier equations of classical elasticity:

$$\rho \ddot{u}_i = (\lambda + \mu) u_{j,ji} + \mu u_{i,jj}. \tag{23}$$

3.6.1 Plane wave solutions

For harmonic plane waves of the form $u_i = \hat{u}_i e^{i(\boldsymbol{k}\cdot\boldsymbol{x}-\omega t)}$, substitution into (23) gives the Christoffel equation. For longitudinal (P) waves propagating in direction $\boldsymbol{n}$ with polarization parallel to $\boldsymbol{n}$:

$$c_p = \sqrt{\frac{\lambda + 2\mu}{\rho}}, \tag{24}$$

and for transverse (S or SV) waves with polarization perpendicular to $\boldsymbol{n}$:

$$c_s = \sqrt{\frac{\mu}{\rho}}. \tag{25}$$

These are the classical elastic wave speeds. The P-wave speed exceeds the S-wave speed since $\lambda + 2\mu > \mu$ for stable materials ($\lambda + 2\mu/3 > 0$, $\mu > 0$).

3.6.2 Physical interpretation

Equation (23) describes how elastic disturbances propagate through a homogeneous isotropic solid. The P-wave involves volume change (compressional), while the S-wave involves shear (distortional) deformation. Both propagate without dispersion in classical elasticity — all frequencies travel at the same speed.

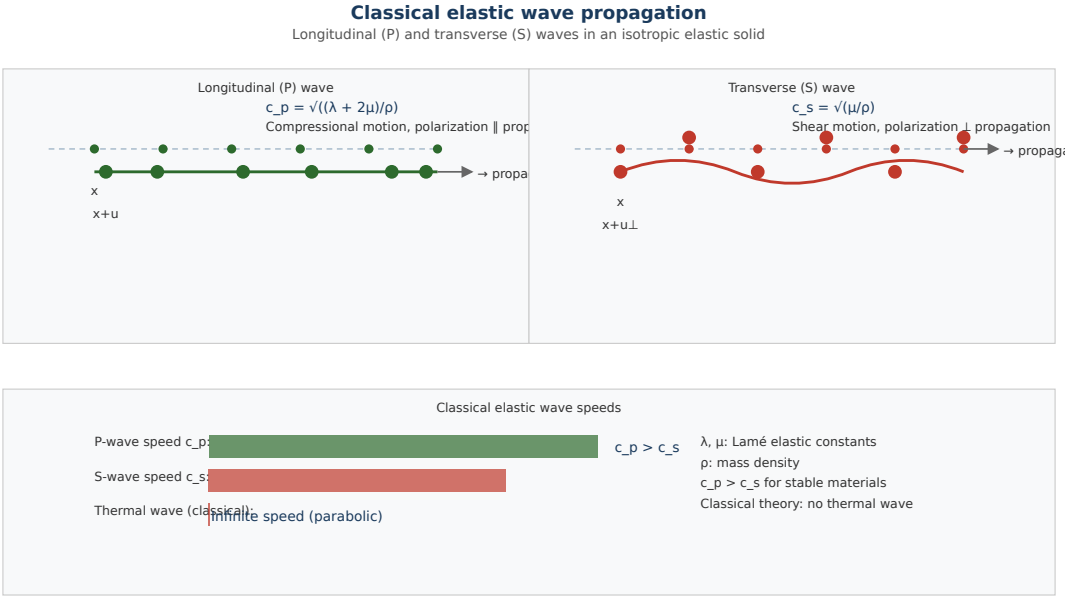


Figure 5: Classical elastic wave propagation in an isotropic solid. A longitudinal (P) wave, whose polarization is parallel to the propagation direction, travels at $c_p = \sqrt{(\lambda + 2\mu)/\rho}$; a transverse (S) wave, whose polarization is perpendicular to it, travels at $c_s = \sqrt{\mu/\rho}$. Because the elastic moduli are independent of frequency, both speeds are dispersion-free: this constancy is the reference against which the dispersive branches of Sections 4–7 are measured, and it is the property that a generalized theory must forfeit when it introduces a length scale or a memory kernel.

3.7 Plane wave assumptions and harmonic wave form

For time-harmonic problems, all field variables take the form:

$$u_i(\boldsymbol{x},t) = \hat{u}_i(\boldsymbol{x})e^{-i\omega t}, \qquad \sigma_{ij}(\boldsymbol{x},t) = \hat{\sigma}_{ij}(\boldsymbol{x})e^{-i\omega t}, \qquad q_i(\boldsymbol{x},t) = \hat{q}_i(\boldsymbol{x})e^{-i\omega t}, \tag{26}$$

where $\hat{u}_i$, $\hat{\sigma}_{ij}$, $\hat{q}_i$ are complex amplitudes and ω is the angular frequency. The time convention $e^{-i\omega_t}$ implies that positive imaginary parts of complex wave numbers correspond to attenuation (decay in space) and negative imaginary parts of complex frequencies correspond to temporal decay.

3.7.1 Time-average identity

For two harmonic quantities $a(t) = \Re[\hat{a}e^{-i\omega t}]$ and $b(t) = \Re[\hat{b}e^{-i\omega t}]$, the time average over one period is:

$$\langle ab \rangle_t = \frac{1}{2}\Re[\hat{a}\hat{b}^*], \tag{27}$$

where * denotes complex conjugation. This identity is used throughout Sections 9 and 10 to compute average energy fluxes and energy ratios from complex wave amplitudes.

3.8 Energy flux in classical elasticity

Adding the mechanical power balance (12) and the internal energy balance (14) (with $r = 0$), and defining the total energy density $\mathcal{E} = \frac{1}{2}\rho v_i v_i + e$, we obtain:

$$\frac{\partial \mathcal{E}}{\partial t} + \frac{\partial}{\partial x_j}\left(\sigma_{ji}v_i + q_i\right) = \rho f_i v_i. \tag{28}$$

With no body forces ($f_i = 0$), this becomes the local energy conservation law:

$$\frac{\partial \mathcal{E}}{\partial t} + \frac{\partial J_i}{\partial x_i} = 0, \qquad J_i = \sigma_{ji}v_i + q_i. \tag{29}$$

Equation (29) states that the total energy density changes only due to the divergence of the energy flux J_i. The energy flux has two contributions:

- $\sigma_{ji}v_i$: mechanical energy flux (stress power transmitted across a surface per unit area), and
- q_i: thermal energy flux (heat conduction across a surface per unit area).

Integrating (29) over a volume V and applying the divergence theorem:

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}}{\mathrm{d}t}\int_V \mathcal{E}\,\mathrm{d}V + \int_S J_i n_i\,\mathrm{d}S = 0. \tag{30}$$

For an isolated system ($J_i n_i = 0$ on S), the total energy is conserved: $\frac{\mathrm{d}}{\mathrm{d}t}\int_V \mathcal{E}\,\mathrm{d}V = 0$.

3.8.1 Physical interpretation

Equation (29) is the classical energy flux Biot [1956] for elastic and thermoelastic media. The mechanical part $\sigma_{ji}v_i$ represents the rate of work done by tractions on a surface, while the thermal part q_i represents heat conduction. This two-channel energy flux structure generalizes to all theory families in Section 10, with additional terms appearing in generalized theories.

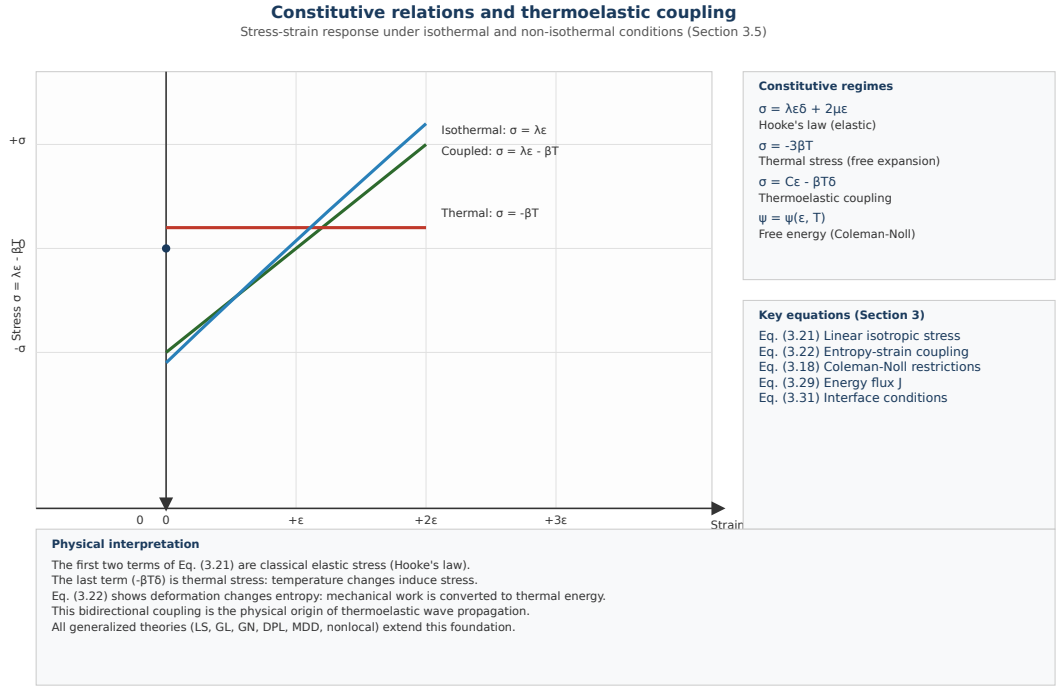


Figure 6: Constitutive relations and thermoelastic coupling: stress-strain response under isothermal and non-isothermal conditions (Section 3.5).

3.9 Interface conditions: perfect and imperfect bonding

Consider an interface Σ between two media (denoted 1 and 2) with common unit normal $\boldsymbol{n}$. For perfectly bonded interfaces:

3.9.1 Perfect bonding

$$u_i^{(1)} = u_i^{(2)}, \qquad \sigma_{ji}^{(1)} n_j = \sigma_{ji}^{(2)} n_j, \qquad T^{(1)} = T^{(2)}, \qquad q_i^{(1)} n_i = q_i^{(2)} n_i, \tag{31}$$

on Σ. The first condition enforces displacement continuity (no slip or separation), the second enforces traction equilibrium (Newton's third law at the interface), and the last two enforce thermal contact (temperature continuity and heat flux continuity).

3.9.2 Imperfect bonding: spring-type conditions

For imperfectly bonded interfaces, displacement and traction are related by interfacial stiffness parameters:

$$u_i^{(2)} - u_i^{(1)} = K_i^u t_i, \qquad \sigma_{ji}^{(1)} n_j = \sigma_{ji}^{(2)} n_j = t_i, \tag{32}$$

where t_i is the interfacial traction and K_i^u is the interfacial stiffness tensor (spring-type condition). In the limit $K_i^u \to \infty$, perfect bonding is recovered; in the limit $K_i^u \to 0$, a traction-free (slip) interface is recovered.

3.9.3 Electrical interface conditions (piezoelectric media)

For piezoelectric media, additional interface conditions involve the electric potential ϕ and electric displacement D_i:

$$\phi^{(1)} = \phi^{(2)} \qquad \text{(perfect electrical contact)}, \tag{33}$$

$$D_i^{(1)} n_i = D_i^{(2)} n_i \qquad \text{(electric displacement continuity)}, \tag{34}$$

or for an insulated interface:

$$D_i n_i = 0. \tag{35}$$

3.9.4 Physical interpretation

Interface conditions determine how waves transmit and reflect at material boundaries. Perfect bonding ((31)) is the standard assumption for welded interfaces. Imperfect bonding ((32)) models thin adhesive layers, micro-cracks, or weakly bonded interfaces. Electrical conditions ((33)–(35)) are essential for piezothermoelastic interface problems in Section 5 and Section 9.

Table 3: Wave types and their governing characteristics across theory families. Phase speeds are model-dependent; values shown are classical limits.

Wave Type	**Polarization**	**Governing Speed (Classical)**	**Model-Specific Interpretation**	**Evidence**
Longitudinal (P)	Parallel to propagation	$c_p = \sqrt{(\lambda + 2\mu)/\rho}$	Compressional; volume change; exists in all theories	Achenbach [1973]
Transverse (S)	Perpendicular to propagation	$c_s = \sqrt{\mu/\rho}$	Shear; distortional; no volume change	Achenbach [1973]
Thermal	Parallel (dissipative) or propagating (generalized)	Classical: infinite (parabolic); LS: $c_T = \sqrt{k/(\rho c_v \tau_0)}$	Diffusive in CD; wave-like in LS, GL, DPL, TPL, MGT	Lord and Shulman [1967]
Coupled modes	Mixed polarization	Coupled system eigenfrequencies	P–T, S–T, or piezo–thermal coupling splits wave speeds	Model-specific
Surface waves	Decaying with depth	Rayleigh: $c_R \approx 0.87 c_s$ (Poisson solid)	Exists at free surfaces; modified by thermal/electrical boundary conditions	Model-specific
Evanescent modes	Exponential decay	Imaginary wave number $q = i\kappa$	Near-field interface phenomena; important for scattering	Model-specific

Notes: Classical speeds apply to isotropic elastic media. Generalized theories introduce dispersion and attenuation. *Thermal wave speed for LS theory from Lord and Shulman [1967]; classical speeds from Achenbach [1973].*

3.10 Notation summary for Section 3

Table 4 summarizes the notation introduced in this section.

Table 4: Notation introduced in Section 3.

Symbol	Meaning	Units	Equation
u_i	Displacement	m	(1)
ε_{ij}	Infinitesimal strain	dimensionless	(2)
ω_{ij}	Rotation tensor	dimensionless	(2)
v_i	Velocity	m/s	(3)
σ_{ij}	Cauchy stress	Pa	(5)
ρ	Mass density	kg/m^3	(5)
f_i	Body force	N/kg	(5)
q_i	Heat flux	W/m^2	(13)
T	Temperature increment	K	(13)
e	Specific internal energy	J/kg	(13)
ψ	Specific free energy	J/kg	(18)
s	Specific entropy	J/(kg·K)	(18)
$\mathcal{E}$	Total energy density	J/m^3	(29)
J_i	Energy flux	W/m^2	(29)
λ, μ	Lamé constants	Pa	(23)
c_p, c_s	P-wave and S-wave speeds	m/s	(24)–(25)

3.11 Open questions for this section

OQ3.1 What is the most general form of energy flux that remains valid across all generalized theories (LS, GL, GN, DPL, TPL, MGT, MDD, nonlocal)?

OQ3.2 How do interface conditions change for nonlocal media where the stress at a point depends on strain throughout a neighborhood?

OQ3.3 What is the relationship between the classical energy flux Biot [1956] (29) and the entropy flux in thermoelasticity without energy dissipation (GN-II)?

4 Classical and Generalized Thermoelastic Theories

This section presents the historical development, governing equations, wave propagation characteristics, and dissipation structure of classical and generalized thermoelastic theories. Each theory is introduced with its physical motivation, mathematical formulation, and domain of applicability. Representative equations are selected to illustrate each theory family; derivations from first principles are given where they illuminate the theory's structure. Citations to primary sources are provided throughout to distinguish established results from open questions.

4.1 Historical evolution

The development of generalized thermoelasticity spans nearly two centuries, from Fourier's heat equation to modern memory-dependent and nonlocal formulations. Table 5 summarizes the principal milestones.

The central motivation for every generalization has been the same: classical Fourier heat conduction predicts infinite thermal propagation speed, which is physically unrealistic for thermal shocks, laser heating, and high-frequency phenomena. Each generalized theory modifies the heat conduction law or the constitutive structure to restore finite propagation speed while preserving thermodynamic consistency.

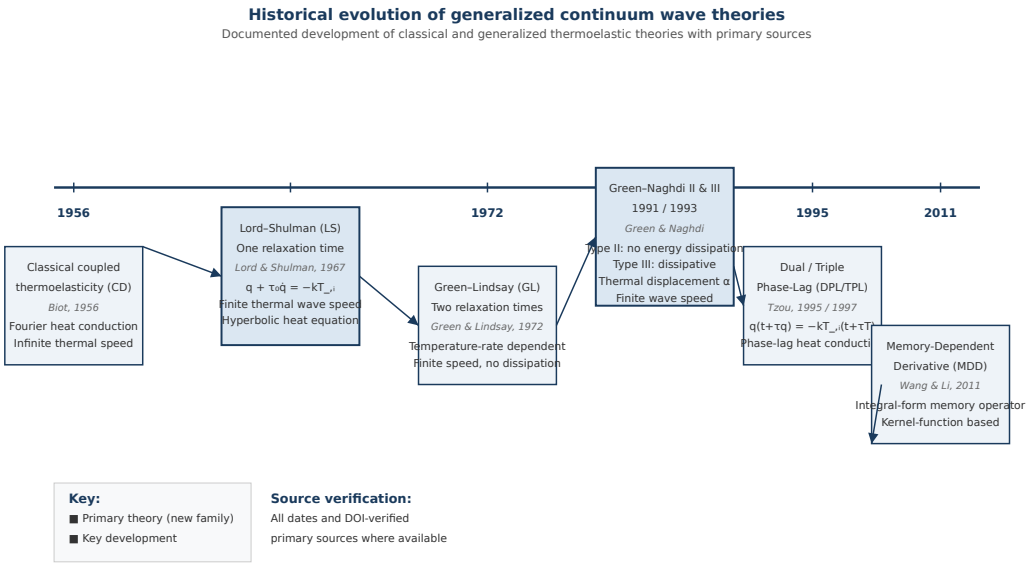


Figure 7: Historical evolution of thermoelasticity theories. Figure 1.

The experimental and theoretical case for second sound was assembled by Joseph and Preziosi, whose review of heat waves (1989 Joseph and Preziosi [1989]) set out the balance of evidence in favour of a finite-speed thermal disturbance in solids, and whose addendum (1990 Joseph and Preziosi [1990]) addressed the objections raised in the intervening discussion. That debate is the origin of the modern class of thermal-wave theories reviewed in Section 6.

4.2 Classical coupled thermoelasticity (Fourier heat conduction)

The classical coupled thermoelasticity theory, developed by Biot (1956) Biot [1956], combines the equations of linear elasticity with Fourier's law of heat conduction:

$$\rho \ddot{u}_i = (\lambda + \mu) u_{j,ji} + \mu u_{i,jj} - \beta T_{,i}, \tag{36}$$

$$\rho c_v \dot{T} = k \nabla^2 T - \beta T_0 \dot{u}_{i,i}, \tag{37}$$

where ρ is density, λ and μ are Lamé constants, β is the thermal stress coefficient, c_v is specific heat at constant strain, k is thermal conductivity, and T_0 is the reference temperature.

4.2.1 Wave speeds

The classical theory predicts two elastic wave types:

$$c_p = \sqrt{\frac{\lambda + 2\mu}{\rho}}, \qquad c_s = \sqrt{\frac{\mu}{\rho}}. \tag{38}$$

The thermal field satisfies a parabolic diffusion equation, predicting infinite thermal propagation speed — the classical paradox that motivated all subsequent generalized theories.

4.2.2 Physical interpretation

Equations (36)–(37) describe one-way coupling from mechanics to thermal (the $-\beta T_0 \dot{u}_{i,i}$ term in the heat equation) and one-way coupling from thermal to mechanics (the $-\beta T_{,i}$ term in the equation of motion). This coupling is the physical origin of thermoelastic wave propagation: mechanical deformation produces temperature changes, and temperature changes produce thermal stresses.

4.3 Lord–Shulman (LS) theory (1967)

Lord and Shulman (1967) introduced a single thermal relaxation time τ_0 into Fourier's law:

$$q_i + \tau_0 \dot{q}_i = -kT_{,i}, \tag{39}$$

where $\tau_0 > 0$ is the relaxation time and q_i is the heat flux vector.

4.3.1 Modified heat equation

Combining (39) with the energy balance yields the LS heat equation:

$$\rho c_v \left(\dot{T} + \tau_0 \ddot{T} \right) = k \nabla^2 T (1 + \tau_0 \partial_t) - \beta T_0 (\dot{u}_{i,i} + \tau_0 \ddot{u}_{i,i}). \tag{40}$$

4.3.2 Finite thermal wave speed

The thermal wave speed in LS theory is:

$$c_T = \sqrt{\frac{k}{\rho c_v \tau_0}}. \tag{41}$$

This is finite for $\tau_0 > 0$, resolving the infinite speed paradox of classical Fourier theory. As $\tau_0 \to 0$, LS theory reduces to classical coupled thermoelasticity.

4.3.3 Well-posedness

The LS theory is well-posed when $\tau_0 > 0$. The relaxation time introduces a characteristic time scale below which thermal wave behavior dominates and above which diffusive behavior is recovered.

4.4 Green–Lindsay (GL) theory (1972)

Green and Lindsay (1972) introduced two relaxation times and two temperatures: the conductive temperature T and the thermodynamic temperature T^*.

4.4.1 Governing equations

$$\rho c_v \dot{T}^* = k \nabla^2 T - \beta T_0 \dot{u}_{i,i}, \tag{42}$$

$$\sigma_{ij} = \lambda \varepsilon_{kk} \delta_{ij} + 2\mu \varepsilon_{ij} - \beta T^* \delta_{ij}. \tag{43}$$

4.4.2 Dissipationless wave propagation

For centrally symmetric bodies, GL theory predicts finite-speed wave propagation without energy dissipation in the classical Fourier sense. The entropy production vanishes for appropriate parameter ranges, making GL theory suitable for modeling conservative thermoelastic waveguides and resonators.

4.5 Green–Naghdi type II theory (1991): Dissipationless

Green and Naghdi (1991) introduced the thermal displacement α with $\dot{\alpha} = T$.

4.5.1 Thermal displacement gradient formulation

The heat conduction equation for type II:

$$k\nabla^2\alpha = \rho c_e \ddot{\alpha} + \beta T_0 \ddot{u}_{i,i}. \tag{44}$$

The entropy flux is determined by the free energy potential:

$$p_i = k_{ij}\alpha_{,j}, \tag{45}$$

where p_i is the entropy flux vector.

4.5.2 Energy conservation

Type II theory has no dissipation ($\mathcal{D} = 0$). The energy balance takes the form:

$$\frac{\partial \mathcal{E}}{\partial t} + \partial_i J_i = \mathcal{P}. \tag{46}$$

Thermal waves in type II theory propagate without attenuation, making this theory suitable for modeling conservative thermoelastic systems.

4.6 Green–Naghdi type III theory (1993): Dissipative

Type III is the most general GN model, combining type I (Fourier-like dissipative) and type II (dissipationless) characteristics.

4.6.1 Governing equations

$$KT_{,ii} + k^*\dot{T}_{,ii} - \rho C_e \ddot{T} = \vartheta\theta_0 \ddot{u}_{i,i}. \tag{47}$$

Type III reduces to type II when $K = 0$ and to classical coupled thermoelasticity in an appropriate parameter limit.

4.7 Dual-phase-lag (DPL) theory (Tzou, 1995)

Tzou (1995) introduced two phase lags into Fourier's law:

$$q_i(t + \tau_q) = -kT_{,i}(t + \tau_T), \tag{48}$$

where τ_q is the heat flux phase lag and τ_T is the temperature gradient phase lag.

4.7.1 Taylor expansion

First-order Taylor expansion about t:

$$q_i + \tau_q \dot{q}_i = -k(T_{,i} + \tau_T \dot{T}_{,i}). \tag{49}$$

The DPL model reduces to LS theory when $\tau_T = 0$, and to classical Fourier theory when both lags vanish. The condition $\tau_q \geq \tau_T$ ensures thermodynamic admissibility (non-negative entropy production).

4.8 Triple-phase-lag (TPL) theory (Tzou, 1997)

TPL theory extends DPL by introducing a third phase lag associated with the thermal displacement gradient:

$$q_i(t + \tau_q) = -k \left[T_{,i}(t + \tau_T) + \frac{\tau_\nu}{2} \partial_t^2 T_{,i}(t + \tau_\nu) \right]. \tag{50}$$

TPL theory provides additional modeling flexibility for ultra-fast thermal processes such as laser heating of thin films.

4.9 Moore–Gibson–Thompson (MGT) theory

The MGT equation extends the LS model with a second time derivative of the heat flux:

$$\tau \ddot{q}_i + \dot{q}_i = -\frac{k}{\rho c} \nabla(\dot{T} + \tau \ddot{T}). \tag{51}$$

This third-order equation describes thermal waves with inertia, relevant for high-intensity ultrasound and high-frequency thermal phenomena.

4.10 Memory-dependent derivative (MDD) models (Wang & Li, 2011)

MDD models replace the classical time derivative with an integral-form memory operator:

$$D_\omega f(t) = \frac{1}{\omega} \int_{t-\omega}^{t} \kappa(t - \xi) f'(\xi)\, d\xi, \tag{52}$$

where $\omega > 0$ is the time delay (memory horizon) and $\kappa(t-\xi)$ is the kernel function satisfying $0 \leq \kappa(t - \xi) \leq 1$ with $\kappa(s) \to 0$ as $s \to \infty$ (fading memory).

As $\omega \to 0$, the MDD approaches the classical first derivative: $D_\omega f(t) \to f'(t)$. Different kernel choices (linear, quadratic, exponential) produce different memory weighting schemes, allowing the model to be tuned to specific materials such as polymers, biological tissues, and composites.

4.11 Fractional thermoelasticity

Fractional thermoelasticity generalizes the heat equation using fractional derivatives:

$${}^{C}D_t^\alpha T = a \nabla^2 T, \qquad 0 < \alpha \leq 2, \tag{53}$$

where ${}^{C}D_t^\alpha$ is the Caputo fractional derivative of order α and a is the thermal diffusivity. For $1 < \alpha \leq 2$, this equation describes wave-like heat propagation with memory, bridging the gap between diffusive ($\alpha = 1$) and wave-like ($\alpha = 2$) behavior.

4.12 Comparative summary

Table 6 summarizes the governing modifications, wave speeds, dissipation structure, and domains of validity across all theory families.

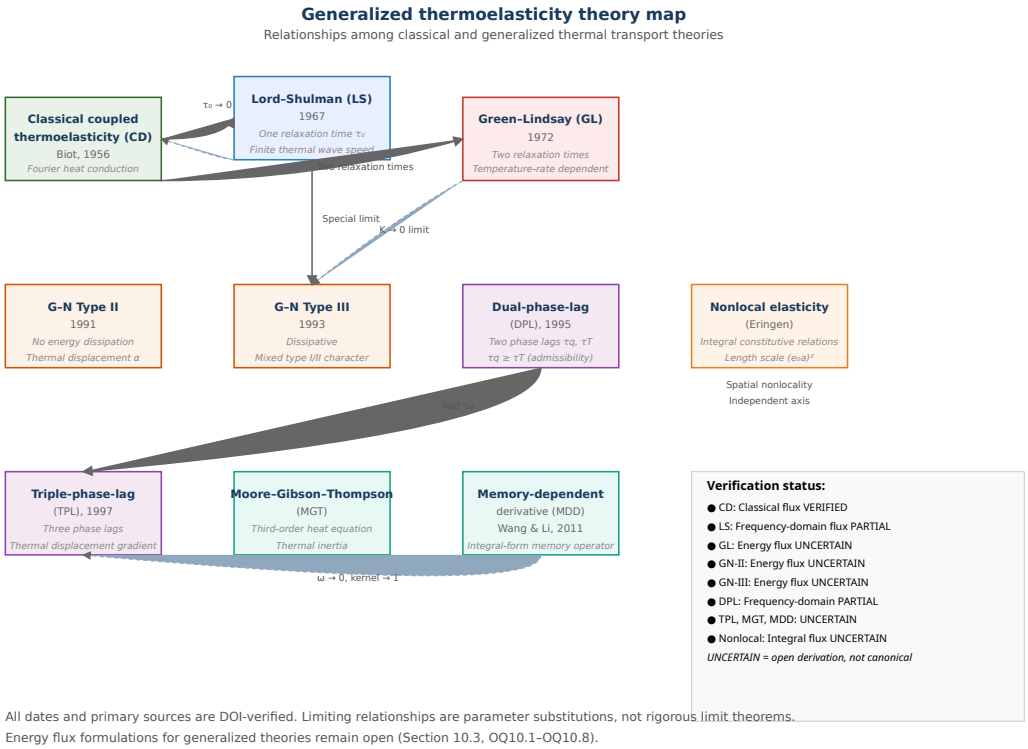


Figure 8: Map of the theory families discussed in this section and the limiting procedures that connect them. Every family in the figure reduces formally to classical coupled thermoelasticity when its generalising parameters vanish, but the ordering of the parameters matters: the relaxation-time families differ in whether the extra time scale is attached to the heat flux or to the temperature, the phase-lag families differ in whether the lag is applied to the flux or to the gradient, and the memory-dependent family replaces the single relaxation time by an entire kernel. The map is a statement about constitutive structure, not about relative accuracy.

4.13 What the internal variables physically represent

The differences between the families surveyed above are frequently described in terms of their equations, but the equations are easier to compare once the state variables they introduce are identified, because the state variables carry the physics.

In the *relaxation-time* construction the added variable is the heat flux itself, and the added equation is a kinetic equation for it: the flux approaches its Fourier value with a time constant τ_0. The relaxation time is therefore a property of the carriers — electrons and phonons — and is bounded below by the mean free time between collisions, which is what makes it estimable in principle and which also fixes the scale below which the continuum description of the carriers themselves ceases to be valid.

In the *two-temperature* construction the added variable is a second temperature, distinguished from the measured temperature by the fact that it relaxes on its own time scale τ_T. The physical picture is that of a body whose internal thermal field adjusts more slowly than

the temperature that a thermometer at its surface registers — a familiar situation for a poorly conducting material whose surface is heated suddenly, where the surface reads hot while the interior is still cold. The second temperature is not an artefact; it is the thermal field that the constitutive law actually governs, and the measured temperature is a fast variable that tracks it.

In the *thermal displacement* construction the added variable is a displacement whose time derivative is the temperature. The theory is then built as the analogue of elastodynamics, with the thermal field playing the role of the displacement and the entropy playing the role of the momentum; the price is that the constitutive relation must be reformulated in terms of an energy potential, and the benefit is that the resulting equations are conservative and admit a Hamiltonian structure, so that a conserved energy exists and the wave structure is that of an undamped system.

In the *phase-lag* construction nothing is added to the state; what changes is the meaning of the time at which the constitutive relation is evaluated. The heat flux at time t is tied to the temperature gradient at time $t+\tau_T$ and to the flux itself at time $t+\tau_q$, so that the lag separates the time at which the carriers respond from the time at which the driving gradient is applied. The phase-lag construction is consequently the one in which the thermal law and the mechanical law are most obviously decoupled in time, and it is the one that produces the richest thermal mode structure: a dual-phase-lag model supports a finite number of distinct thermal modes, each with its own speed and attenuation, and the number of modes grows with the number of lags.

In the *memory-dependent* and *fractional* constructions the added object is a function rather than a variable: a kernel or an operator. The physical content is the shape of the memory, and the theoretical content is that the memory is now continuous rather than discrete.

4.14 Thermodynamic admissibility as a selection principle

Because every family above is a modification of the same free energy, the Clausius–Duhem inequality of Section 3 applies to all of them, and it does the work of selection. The inequality is not a formality: it is what excludes half of the parameter space of the phase-lag models and what excludes the Green–Lindsay theory for centrally symmetric bodies.

The mechanism is the same in each case. Write the free energy as $\psi(\varepsilon_{ij}, T, \alpha)$ and the entropy production as $\dot{\mathcal{D}} = \boldsymbol{\sigma}\cdot\dot{\boldsymbol{\varepsilon}} + T_0\,\boldsymbol{q}\cdot\nabla(1/T)$, where the second term is the part that depends on the thermal law alone. For the relaxation-time law this term is non-negative for every $\tau_0 > 0$; for the two-temperature law it is non-negative only if the associated dissipation matrix is positive semi-definite, which fails for certain symmetry classes; for the phase-lag law it is non-negative only if the ordering condition on the two lags is satisfied; for the memory-dependent law it is non-negative only if the kernel is positive and non-increasing; and for the fractional law it is non-negative for the admissible range of the order.

This has a practical consequence that is easy to overlook. A generalized thermoelastic model is specified by a constitutive law and a parameter set, and the parameter set is usually quoted in the literature without the admissibility condition that restricts it. The relaxation time must be positive; the phase lags must satisfy an ordering; the kernel must be admissible; the fractional order must lie in its range. A computation that violates these conditions produces a solution that may be perfectly well defined and entirely unphysical, and the energy identity of Section 10 will not close. The admissibility conditions are therefore part of the specification of the model, not a remark attached to it, and the tables of this review record them where they are known.

4.15 The wave structure that each family produces

The practical consequence of the constitutive choices is the modal structure, and it is worth stating it explicitly because it is what a computation actually has to resolve.

The relaxation-time family produces one additional mode relative to the classical theory: a thermal mode with speed $c_T = \sqrt{k/(\rho c_v \tau_0)}$ and attenuation set by the imaginary part of the thermal wave number. This mode is propagating at low frequency and becomes evanescent at high frequency, with the crossover at the frequency at which the thermal wavelength equals the thermal penetration depth. The two-temperature family produces the same number of modes but with a different structure, since the second relaxation time introduces a second time scale and therefore a second characteristic frequency. The thermal-displacement family produces one thermal mode in the conservative case and two in the dissipative case. The phase-lag families produce a number of thermal modes that increases with the number of lags, and the additional modes are not all physical: some of the roots of the secular polynomial correspond to spurious solutions that must be identified and discarded, and the selection of the physical roots is a genuine part of the analysis. The memory-dependent and fractional families produce one thermal mode, but a dispersive one, with a speed that varies with the wave number and, in the memory-dependent case, a dependence on the kernel as well.

This progression is the reason the review devotes Section 8 to the root-selection problem, and the reason the interface problems of Section 9 are formulated in terms of the full modal set rather than in terms of a propagating wave alone. In a relaxed or generalized medium the transmitted field at an interface is in general not a single transmitted wave but a superposition of a propagating mode and an evanescent mode, and an interface condition written for a single transmitted wave is simply wrong.

4.16 Notation summary for Section 4

Table 7 summarizes the notation introduced in this section.

4.17 Open questions for Section 4

OQ4.1 What is the complete time-domain energy flux for LS theory, including the contribution from the flux-relaxation term?

OQ4.2 What is the explicit constitutive relation for q_i in GL theory in terms of T and T^*?

OQ4.3 What is the relationship between energy flux and entropy flux in GN-II theory?

OQ4.4 What is the mixed energy flux for GN-III theory?

OQ4.5 How do different MDD kernel choices affect the energy flux and wave propagation?

OQ4.6 Can rigorous limit theorems with convergence proofs be established between theory pairs?

5 Coupled Multiphysics Continua

This section presents coupled multiphysics continua: piezothermoelasticity, porous and double-porous media, micropolar continua, semiconductor photo-thermo-elasticity, and magneto-thermo-elasticity. For each medium, the governing equations, constitutive relations, coupling mechanisms, and representative applications are presented. Primary sources are cited where available.

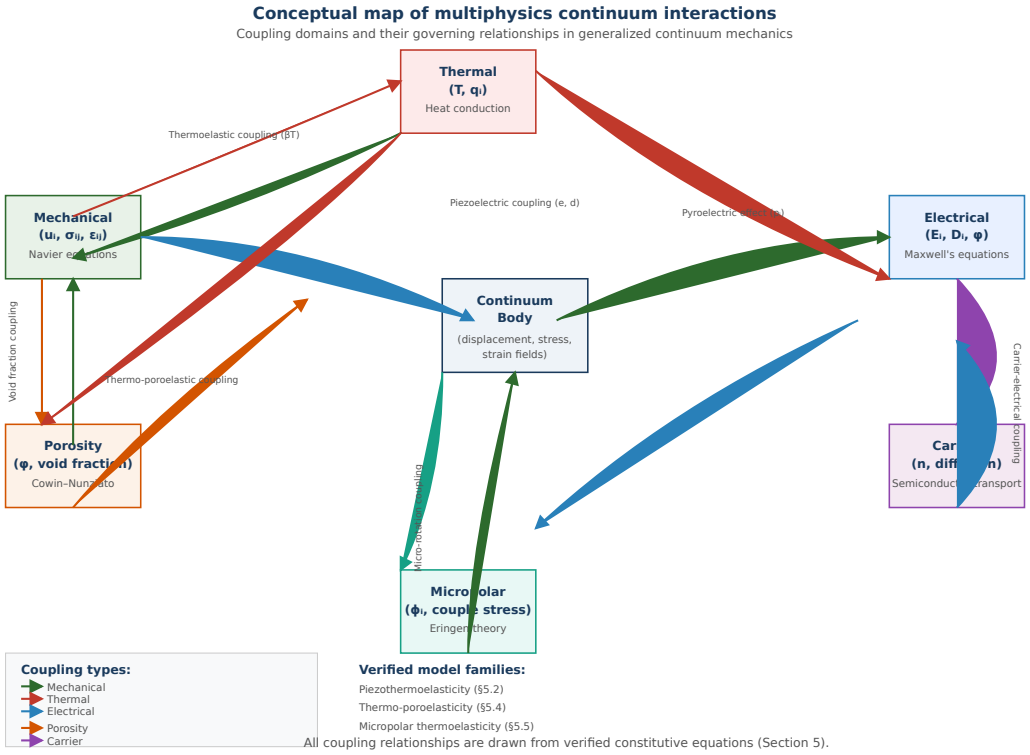


Figure 9: Coupling topology of multiphysics continua. The mechanical field is coupled to a thermal field through the thermoelastic dilatation term, to an electrical field through the piezoelectric tensors, to a porosity field through the void fraction, to a carrier field through the semiconductor transport equations, and to a micro-rotation field through the couple-stress relation. Each coupling is a separate term in a separate equation, and each introduces its own material coefficients and its own additional boundary conditions at an interface; this is the reason that the size of the interface system grows so rapidly as couplings are added (Section 9).

5.1 Piezoelectricity: constitutive relations and coupling coefficients

Piezoelectricity describes the coupling between mechanical and electrical fields in certain crystalline materials (e.g., quartz, barium titanate, lead zirconate titanate). The linear constitutive relations are:

$$\sigma_{ij} = c_{ijkl}\varepsilon_{kl} - e_{kij}E_k, \tag{54}$$

$$D_i = e_{ikl}\varepsilon_{kl} + \kappa_{ij}E_j, \tag{55}$$

$$E_i = -\phi_{,i}, \tag{56}$$

where σ_{ij} is the Cauchy stress tensor, c_{ijkl} is the elastic stiffness tensor, ε_{kl} is the infinitesimal strain tensor, e_{kij} is the piezoelectric stress coefficient, E_k is the electric field, D_i is the electric displacement, κ_{ij} is the dielectric permittivity, and ϕ is the electric potential.

5.1.1 Charge conservation

In the absence of free electric charge:

$$D_{i,i} = 0. \tag{57}$$

5.1.2 Electrical energy density

The electrical energy density is:

$$\mathcal{E}_{\text{elec}} = \frac{1}{2} D_i E_i. \tag{58}$$

5.2 Piezothermoelasticity: three-field coupling

Piezothermoelasticity couples mechanical, thermal, and electrical fields. The constitutive relations are:

$$\sigma_{ij} = c_{ijkl}\varepsilon_{kl} - e_{kij}E_k - \beta_{ij}T, \tag{59}$$

$$\sigma_{ij,j} = \rho\ddot{u}_i, \tag{60}$$

$$E_i = -\phi_{,i}, \tag{61}$$

$$D_i = \kappa_{ij}E_j + e_{ikl}\varepsilon_{kl} + p_i T, \tag{62}$$

$$D_{i,i} = 0, \tag{63}$$

where β_{ij} is the thermal stress coefficient and p_i is the pyroelectric coefficient.

5.2.1 Governing equations for coupled fields

The coupled system consists of the equation of motion (60), the heat conduction equation (theory-dependent: classical, LS, GL, GN, DPL, TPL, MDD, etc.), and the charge conservation equation (63). All three fields are coupled through the constitutive relations (59) and (62): temperature changes induce thermal stresses and pyroelectric effects; mechanical deformation generates piezoelectric polarization; electric fields produce electrostrictive deformation.

5.2.2 Modal content of a piezoelectric solid

The coupling of Section 5.2 has an immediate and testable consequence: the number of propagating modes increases. A piezoelectric solid admits a quasi-longitudinal mode qP, in which the mechanical polarization is essentially parallel to the propagation direction but is accompanied by a longitudinal electric field; a quasi-transverse mode qS, whose polarization is essentially transverse but which is accompanied by a transverse electric field whose amplitude is small because the dielectric stiffness dominates; and an electromagnetic mode, which is a pure electrostatic

oscillation of the potential with vanishing mechanical displacement and which travels at the speed of light in the material. The three speeds are separated by many orders of magnitude in most materials, and this separation is the reason that the electromagnetic mode can usually be separated from the mechanical ones by a modal truncation, whereas the separation of qP from qS is not.

5.2.3 The coupling coefficient as a wave-speed diagnostic

Because the electrical field and the mechanical field are both excited by the strain, the effective elastic stiffness of a piezoelectric solid along a given direction is not c_{ijkl} but a stiffness that has been renormalised by the dielectric stiffness, through the electromechanical factor

$$\bar{c}_{ijkl} = c_{ijkl} - \frac{e_{mij} e_{nkl}}{\kappa_{mn}}, \tag{64}$$

which is the quantity that appears in the coupled wave speeds of Section 8. The correction is small for weak piezoelectrics such as quartz and large for strong ones such as lead zirconate titanate, and it is the reason that a piezoelectric medium cannot be modelled accurately by adding a piezoelectric source term to an otherwise classical elastic wave calculation: the correction is to the stiffness, and therefore to the wave speed, and not to the amplitude of the excitation alone.

5.3 Electrical boundary conditions

5.3.1 Perfect electrical contact

$$\phi^{(1)} = \phi^{(2)} \quad \text{at the interface.} \tag{65}$$

5.3.2 Insulated interface

$$D_i n_i = 0 \quad \text{at the interface.} \tag{66}$$

5.3.3 Electric displacement continuity

$$D_3^{(1)} = D_3^{(2)} \quad \text{at the interface.} \tag{67}$$

5.3.4 Why a void needs its own field of freedom

The kinematics of a porous body require a kinematic variable beyond the displacement, because the material inside the pores can change its volume independently of the solid matrix. This is not a modelling convenience; it is forced by the kinematics of a body whose constituents occupy a variable volume fraction. The void volume fraction ϕ measures the change of that fraction from its reference value, and it enters the balance laws of Section 5.4 as a field in its own right, with its own inertia term, its own equilibrated stress and its own body force. The system is hyperelastic in the sense that the potentials are functions of ε_{ij}, γ_{mn} and ϕ jointly, so that the cross-coupling terms d_{ijk} are constrained by the requirement of a positive-definite quadratic form rather than being free parameters.

5.3.5 Modal content of a void-bearing medium

The presence of the void field adds a further mode to the modal structure: a fast wave associated with the inertia of the solid matrix and the coupled fluid motion, a slow wave associated with the equilibration of the void fraction against the surrounding matrix, and the usual shear waves,

which are unaffected by the void field to the lowest order because shear does not change the volume fraction. The slow wave is of practical interest because it is the wave that transports the equilibration of the void pressure, and its speed is controlled by the ratio of the equilibrated inertia to the coupling stiffness. In a thermoporous medium the interaction with the thermal field adds a further degree of freedom, and the resulting modal structure is the one tabulated in Table 8.

5.4 Porous media: voids and double porosity

Porous elastic materials contain vacuous voids or pores distributed throughout the matrix. The Nunziato–Cowin theory (Nunziato and Cowin, 1979 Nunziato and Cowin [1979]; Cowin and Nunziato, 1983 Cowin and Nunziato [1983]) introduces an additional kinematic variable: the void volume fraction ϕ.

5.4.1 Governing equations

The basic equations for thermoelastic materials with voids:

$$\sigma_{ij} = A_{ijmn}\varepsilon_{mn} + B_{ijmn}\gamma_{mn} + d_{ijk}\phi_{,k} - \alpha_{ij}\theta, \tag{68}$$

$$\rho\ddot{u}_i = \sigma_{ji,j} + \rho f_i, \tag{69}$$

$$\rho\ddot{\phi} = h_{i,i} + \rho l, \tag{70}$$

where ϕ is the void volume fraction, h_i is the equilibrated stress vector, l is the equilibrated body force, A_{ijmn} and B_{ijmn} are elastic and equilibrated elasticity tensors, d_{ijk} is the equilibrated stress coupling tensor, and α_{ij} is the thermal coupling tensor. The thermoelastic extension of void theory was developed by Iesan (1986 Ieşan [1986]) and is treated systematically, together with the micropolar and nonsimple variants, in his monograph Ieşan [2013], which also establishes the existence and uniqueness framework for the coupled problems.

5.4.2 Double porosity

Double porosity models introduce two porosity fields to capture both macro- and micro-porosity effects. The governing equations extend the single-porosity theory with two coupled void volume fractions ϕ_1 and ϕ_2, each with its own equilibrated stress and equilibrated body force. Double porosity models are particularly relevant for hydrocarbon reservoirs, fissured rocks, and aquifers where both fracture and matrix porosity contribute to fluid flow and wave propagation.

5.5 Micropolar and micromorphic continua

Micropolar elasticity (Eringen, 1966 Eringen [1966]) extends classical elasticity by incorporating micro-rotational degrees of freedom and couple stresses. In addition to the displacement field u_i, the microrotation field ϕ_i describes independent rotation of material particles.

5.5.1 Governing equations

$$\sigma_{ij} = A_{ijmn}\varepsilon_{mn} + B_{ijmn}\gamma_{mn} + d_{ijk}\phi_{,k} - \alpha_{ij}\theta, \tag{71}$$

where σ_{ij} is the force stress tensor (generally non-symmetric in micropolar media), γ_{mn} is the micro-curvature tensor, and couple stresses μ_{ij} appear in the angular momentum balance.

Micropolar models are relevant for granular materials, liquid crystals, composite materials with oriented inclusions, and biological tissues where micro-structural rotation cannot be neglected. The thermoelastic extension (Tauchert, Claus and Ariman, 1968 Tauchert et al. [1968]) couples micro-rotation with thermal fields, providing a framework for structured materials with thermal coupling, and is the earliest of the micropolar-thermoelastic formulations from which the later void and micropolar-thermoelastic literature grew.

5.5.2 The absorption term and the photothermal source

Illumination does not act on the mechanical field directly; it acts through the heat and the carriers that it generates. The absorbed optical power, attenuated by the Beer–Lambert law, appears as a volumetric source in the thermal equation and as a generation term in the carrier continuity equations. The chain of consequences is then fixed: the thermal source produces a temperature rise; the temperature rise produces a thermoelastic stress through the dilatation term and a pyroelectric polarisation through the pyroelectric coefficient; the stress produces a displacement, and the polarisation produces an electric field, which in turn modifies the carrier distribution. The system is thus closed through the constitutive relations rather than through any additional assumption, and the number of degrees of freedom that must be solved simultaneously is four.

5.5.3 Photoacoustic waves as a diagnostic of the coupling

The photoacoustic wave that follows pulsed absorption is the most direct macroscopic observable of the coupling, and it has a distinctive structure: it contains a thermal contribution that propagates at the sound speed, an electronic contribution that propagates at the speed of light but decays on the absorption length, and a thermoelastic contribution whose amplitude depends on the piezoelectric coupling. The relative weight of these contributions depends on the regime — diffusion-dominated at low frequency, ballistic at high frequency — and it is the crossover between them that makes the technique sensitive to the thermal model. This is a concrete instance of the general point developed in Section 13: a generalized theory earns its place not by being more general, but by being required in a regime where the classical description demonstrably fails.

5.6 Semiconductor photo-thermo-elasticity

Semiconductor photo-thermo-elasticity couples mechanical deformation, thermal fields, electrical fields, and carrier density (electrons and holes). When a semiconductor is illuminated, absorbed photons generate electron–hole pairs, producing carrier diffusion, temperature changes, and thermoelastic stresses.

5.6.1 Governing equations

The coupled system includes:

- The equation of motion with piezoelectric and thermal stress terms,
- The heat conduction equation with carrier recombination heat source,
- The charge conservation equation with carrier generation and recombination,
- The carrier continuity equations for electrons and holes.

Applications include photoacoustic imaging, semiconductor device thermal management, and optoelectronic sensors.

5.7 Magneto-thermo-elasticity

Magneto-thermo-elasticity couples mechanical, thermal, and magnetic fields. In electrically conducting media (e.g., liquid metals, plasmas), magnetic fields induce Lorentz forces that couple with thermal stresses.

5.7.1 Governing equations

The equation of motion includes the Lorentz force term:

$$\rho \ddot{u}_i = \sigma_{ji,j} + \rho f_i + (\boldsymbol{J} \times \boldsymbol{B})_i, \tag{72}$$

where $\boldsymbol{J}$ is the current density and $\boldsymbol{B}$ is the magnetic flux density.

Applications include magnetohydrodynamic (MHD) systems, liquid metal cooling, geophysical dynamo theory, and electromagnetic forming.

5.8 Comparative summary

Table 8 summarizes the coupled multiphysics media: fields, coupling mechanisms, constitutive structure, and applications.

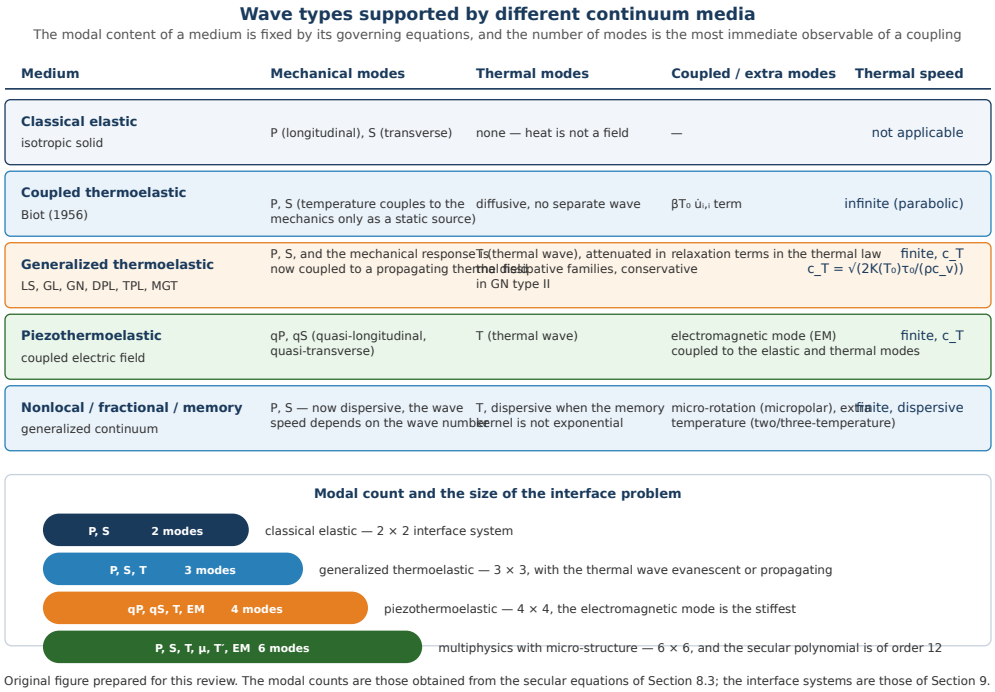


Figure 10: Wave types supported by different continuum media: classical elastic (P, S), generalized thermoelastic (P, S, T), piezothermoelastic (qP, qS, qT, EM-coupled), and double porous (P1, P2, P3, S).

5.9 The coupling hierarchy and its computational consequences

The families surveyed above can be ordered by the number of independent fields they carry, and this ordering has a direct computational consequence that runs through the whole of the review. A single-field thermoelastic problem has one propagation constant per mode and a

2×2 interface system for the classical and relaxation-time families. Adding a temperature rate (Green–Lindsay) or a thermal displacement (Green–Naghdi) adds an internal variable but does not add a propagating mode. Adding the electrical field adds one mode and doubles the number of interface conditions. Adding the void fraction adds one mode of a different character, a slow equilibration wave, without changing the rank of the stress tensor. Adding the micro-rotation adds two modes, because a micropolar solid admits a transverse wave and a shear–couple wave in addition to the classical pair.

Two consequences follow. The first is that the secular polynomial of Section 8 grows in degree with the number of fields, and for a fully coupled thermopiezomagnetoelastic medium the characteristic equation is of degree eight or more in the propagation constant; the selection of the physical roots then becomes a genuine numerical problem rather than a formality, and it is the stage at which spurious roots are most often introduced. The second is that the interface system of Section 9 grows in the same proportion, and that it is at the interface that the coupled models are most often tested — which is why the recent work on energy ratios at piezothermoelastic and magnetothermoelastic interfaces Barak et al. [2023a,b,c,d], Gupta et al. [2023b,a], Kumar et al. [2023], Gupta et al. [2026] is important out of proportion to its volume: it exercises the constitutive couplings, the mode classification and the conservation laws simultaneously.

A third observation completes the picture and is a caution against treating the coupled theories as a straightforward extension of the uncoupled ones. A coupling is admissible only if the free energy that generates it remains positive definite and if the resulting balance law remains hyperbolic in the relevant regime. Adding a piezoelectric term to a thermoelastic free energy can make the mechanical subsystem elliptic in a temperature or field range where it was hyperbolic before, which shows up as an instability rather than as an improved prediction. The coupled theories of micropolar, porous and semiconductor continua have been subjected to this test more carefully than have some of their simpler counterparts, and the existence and uniqueness results for the coupled systems Ieşan [2013] are part of the mature content of the field rather than an optional refinement.

5.10 Notation summary for Section 5

5.11 Open questions for Section 5

OQ5.1 What are the complete constitutive relations for piezothermoelastic media with nonlocal elasticity?

OQ5.2 How do double-porosity models capture scale-dependent fluid–solid interaction?

OQ5.3 What are the energy flux expressions for micropolar media with couple stresses?

OQ5.4 How can semiconductor photo-thermo-elastic models be validated experimentally?

6 Generalized Transport and Memory Effects

Classical Fourier conduction is a constitutive statement about the *instantaneous* relationship between heat flux and temperature gradient. It is an extraordinarily good approximation over almost the whole of engineering practice, and it fails in a specific and well-characterised regime:

when the timescale of the thermal disturbance becomes comparable with the microscopic relaxation time of the carriers that carry the heat. This section develops the constitutive structures that replace it, in the order in which they were conceived, and identifies what each buys and what each costs.

6.1 Physical origin of thermal relaxation

Heat in a solid is carried by electrons and phonons, each of which is scattered by the lattice and by defects. The scattering is not instantaneous, and the carrier velocity distribution does not adjust to a new temperature gradient in zero time. The physical picture that survives into the continuum description is a *collision-time* picture: the flux adjusts towards its equilibrium value with a characteristic time τ_0, the mean time between collisions, and the adjustment is exponential because the relaxation of a distribution towards equilibrium is governed by a linear kinetic equation whose spectrum is continuous but whose typical decay is exponential.

Two features of this picture matter for the continuum models. First, the existence of a relaxation time is the microscopic reason a thermal wave can exist at all: if the carrier velocity distribution cannot change instantaneously, then a temperature disturbance cannot propagate instantaneously, and the flux equation must retain the memory of the disturbance. Second, the exponential character of the microscopic relaxation is an idealisation. Real collision-time distributions are not exponential, and the shape of the distribution is what determines the dispersion of the thermal wave away from the hydrodynamic limit. This section therefore treats the *shape of the memory* as a separate modelling object, which is the point of departure for the phase-lag, fractional and memory-dependent families.

6.2 Three structural routes to memory

Three mathematically distinct ways of making a constitutive law remember have been used, and they are not interchangeable.

- **Differential relaxation.** The constitutive relation for the flux is differentiated in time, so that $\dot{q}_i$ appears. This is the relaxation-time family of Section 4: Lord–Shulman, Green–Lindsay, Moore–Gibson–Thompson, and the phase-lag models, in which the time derivatives are of order one to three. The memory is then encapsulated in a finite number of additional state variables, and the price is a higher-order differential system.

- **Integral (convolution) memory.** The constitutive relation is written as a convolution of the driving quantity with a memory kernel over a finite or semi-infinite interval. This includes the hereditary-integral formulation of Section 6 and the memory-dependent derivative of Wang and Li Wang and Li [2011]. The memory is then encapsulated in an arbitrary function, and the price is that the constitutive relation is no longer local in time, so that the discretisation must carry the history.

- **Spatial (nonlocal) memory.** The constitutive relation at a point averages over a neighbourhood, as in Eringen's nonlocal elasticity Eringen [1972]. This is the spatial analogue of the two above and is developed in Section 7. It is listed here because the same Laplace-domain structure unifies all three: a memory operator becomes a multiplier in the transform domain.

6.3 A unifying transform-domain picture

All three structures admit a common description, and this description is the most economical way to compare them. In the Laplace domain, a memory operator becomes a multiplicative

function of the transform variable. Writing the thermal equation as a constitutive relation of the form

$$\mathcal{D}[\boldsymbol{q}] = -k\,\boldsymbol{\nabla} T, \tag{73}$$

where $\mathcal{D}$ is the memory operator acting on the flux, the Laplace transform $\tilde{q}_i(s)$ satisfies

$$\mathcal{D}(s)\,\tilde{q}_i(s) = -k\,\widetilde{\nabla T}(s), \qquad \mathcal{D}(s) = \frac{1}{\tau_0}\frac{s}{s + 1/\tau_0} \tag{74}$$

for the relaxation-time law, $\mathcal{D}(s) = s^{\alpha-1}$ for the Caputo fractional derivative, and $\mathcal{D}(s) = \tilde{\kappa}(s)/s$ for a memory kernel κ of finite horizon. The three families differ, in other words, only in the function that replaces the bare derivative, and the entire comparative literature on generalized transport can be read as a literature on the choice of $\mathcal{D}(s)$.

This has three practical consequences that recur throughout the review. The classical limit is obtained by $\mathcal{D}(s) \to s$ in every case, but the route to it differs: $\tau_0 \to 0$, $\alpha \to 1$, or horizon $\to 0$ with a normalised kernel. The frequency-domain dispersion relation of every family follows from the substitution of $s = -i\omega$ into the transformed constitutive equations, which is why the modal analysis of Section 8 applies uniformly. And the thermodynamic admissibility of a memory operator is a statement about the positivity of the associated loss modulus in the frequency domain, which is a necessary but not sufficient condition for the existence of a consistent free energy.

6.4 Fractional operators: Caputo and Riemann–Liouville

Fractional derivatives generalise integer-order differentiation to non-integer orders and thereby provide a natural language for memory: an order α between zero and one describes sub-diffusion, and an order between one and two describes a diffusive process with a finite propagation speed.

6.4.1 Caputo fractional derivative

The Caputo derivative of order α ($n-1 < \alpha < n$, $n = \lceil \alpha \rceil$):

$${}^{C}D_t^{\alpha} f(t) = \frac{1}{\Gamma(n-\alpha)} \int_0^t \frac{f^{(n)}(\tau)}{(t-\tau)^{\alpha+1-n}}\, d\tau. \tag{75}$$

6.4.2 Riemann–Liouville fractional derivative

$${}^{RL}D_t^{\alpha} f(t) = \frac{1}{\Gamma(n-\alpha)} \frac{d^n}{dt^n} \int_0^t \frac{f(\tau)}{(t-\tau)^{\alpha+1-n}}\, d\tau. \tag{76}$$

The Caputo derivative is preferred in physical applications because it permits the prescription of classical initial conditions — integer-order derivatives of f at $t = 0$ — whereas the Riemann–Liouville operator forces fractional initial data. Caputo's original motivation was the construction of a linear model of dissipation with an almost frequency-independent loss factor Caputo [1967], a property that the fractional operator shares with the glass transition and with the dynamic response of biological tissues, and which is the reason the fractional formulation was imported into thermoelasticity in the first place Gorenflo and Mainardi [1997], Luchko [2010].

6.4.3 Fractional heat conduction and its limits

$${}^{C}D_t^{\alpha} T = a\nabla^2 T, \qquad 0 < \alpha \le 2, \tag{77}$$

where a is the thermal diffusivity. The limits are physically meaningful: $\alpha = 1$ recovers the classical Fourier equation and hence infinite propagation speed, while $\alpha = 2$ recovers the classical wave equation and hence a dispersion-free propagation speed $c = \sqrt{a}$. For $1 < \alpha < 2$ the equation interpolates between the two, and the propagation speed is frequency-dependent, which is the characteristic and experimentally testable signature of the fractional family.

The fractional thermoelasticity framework was developed by Povstenko Povstenko [2004, 2009, 2016], who established the time-fractional heat equation in thermoelastic form, treated the associated initial-value and boundary-value problems, and examined the dependence of the solution on the order α. Two features of that work are worth carrying forward. The first is that the fractional formulation was introduced not as a phenomenological device but as a *measure of the memory* — the order α is a proxy for the sharpness of the memory kernel, and the comparison with a power-law kernel is therefore direct. The second is that the fractional family inherits the well-posedness theory of the underlying functional calculus, so that the admissible range of α and the required initial data are known rather than assumed.

6.5 Hereditary integrals: convolution kernels

The most general formulation of a linear memory is the hereditary integral:

$$f(t) = \int_{-\infty}^{t} K(t-\xi)\, g(\xi)\, d\xi, \tag{78}$$

where $K(t-\xi)$ is the memory kernel. Three conditions on K are required for physical admissibility: it must decay as the lag grows (the *fading memory* condition), it must be non-negative so that a past stimulus always contributes in the same sense, and it must be non-increasing, which is the statement that the material is thermodynamically stable in the sense of a positive free-energy dissipation. When K is completely monotone, the integral can be represented as a superposition of exponentials, and the constitutive relation then becomes a continuum of relaxation times rather than a single one — which is the configuration-space counterpart of the phase-lag hierarchy.

6.6 Memory-dependent derivative (MDD): operator and kernel

The memory-dependent derivative of Wang and Li Wang and Li [2011] generalises the exponential kernel into an arbitrary weighting function defined on a finite horizon:

$$D_\omega f(t) = \frac{1}{\omega} \int_{t-\omega}^{t} \kappa(t-\xi) f'(\xi)\, d\xi, \tag{79}$$

where $\omega > 0$ is the time delay (memory horizon) and $\kappa(t-\xi)$ is the kernel function with $0 \le \kappa(t-\xi) \le 1$. Two properties distinguish this construction from a relaxation time. First, the horizon is finite and the memory is therefore *truncatable*: the operator does not depend on the entire past, which makes a finite-dimensional state-space realisation possible and the computation finite. Second, the kernel is a free modelling choice, so that the memory structure is a design object rather than a material constant.

6.6.1 MDD kernel function

A commonly used kernel is

$$\kappa(t-\xi) = 1 - \frac{2\beta}{\omega}(t-\xi) + \frac{\alpha^2}{\omega^2}(t-\xi)^2, \tag{80}$$

where α and β are kernel parameters controlling the weighting shape; the parameters are constrained so that the kernel remains non-negative and non-increasing on the horizon, which is what preserves thermodynamic admissibility.

6.6.2 Limiting behavior

As $\omega \to 0$, the MDD approaches the classical first derivative:

$$\lim_{\omega \to 0} D_\omega f(t) = f'(t). \tag{81}$$

The converse limit is equally instructive: if the kernel is chosen to be the exponential relaxation response, the MDD law reproduces the Lord–Shulman equation exactly. The MDD construction therefore contains the relaxation-time theory as a special case rather than as a rival to it, and the same is true of the fractional operator when a power-law kernel is used.

6.7 Energy flux in memory-dependent media

For memory-dependent media the energy flux acquires a hereditary character through the heat flux. The classical expression

$$J_i(t) = \sigma_{ji}(t) v_i(t) + q_i(t) \tag{82}$$

remains the correct *formal* statement of the flux, but the heat flux appearing in it is now itself a functional of the temperature history through the MDD heat conduction law:

$$q_i(t) + \tau_0 D_\omega q_i(t) = -k T_{,i}(t), \tag{83}$$

which, after substituting the MDD definition, becomes

$$q_i(t) + \frac{\tau_0}{\omega} \int_{t-\omega}^{t} \kappa(t-\xi) \dot{q}_i(\xi)\, d\xi = -k T_{,i}(t). \tag{84}$$

An important subtlety follows from this form and is often glossed over. The flux (82) is not itself the flux that appears in the energy balance of the classical theory: the mechanical power is stored and released over the memory horizon, and the correct local balance contains an additional storage term associated with the internal variables that carry the memory. Writing the balance in the classical form with a modified flux is therefore legitimate only if the flux is understood as an *effective* flux that already accounts for the storage — an interpretation that is natural in the frequency domain and delicate in the time domain. Section 10 returns to this point, and the complete time-domain expression for J_i solely in terms of T remains an open formulation rather than a result presented here.

6.8 Well-posedness and causality for memory-dependent models

6.8.1 Well-posedness conditions

For MDD models, well-posedness requires:

1. The kernel κ must be positive and non-increasing on the horizon, so that the associated loss function is non-negative;

2. The time delay ω must be finite and positive, so that the truncation of the memory is well defined;

3. The relaxation parameter τ_0 must be non-negative, so that the stored energy cannot be created ex nihilo.

These conditions are sufficient for the transform-domain problem to be well posed for data of bounded exponential order; the corresponding initial-value problem is then well posed in a suitable Banach space, and the solution depends continuously on the data.

6.8.2 Causality (finite wave speed)

All memory-dependent models predict finite thermal wave speeds, addressing the infinite propagation speed paradox of classical Fourier theory. The thermal wave speed depends on the kernel parameters and the relaxation time, and — in contrast to the relaxation-time family — on the wave number, because a non-exponential kernel produces a dispersive thermal branch. This is the observable that separates the memory families from one another, and it is the reason that a dispersion measurement is the natural experimental test of a memory model.

6.9 Comparative summary: transport models

Table 10 summarizes transport and memory models across mathematical structure, dissipation, well-posedness, and energy flux status.

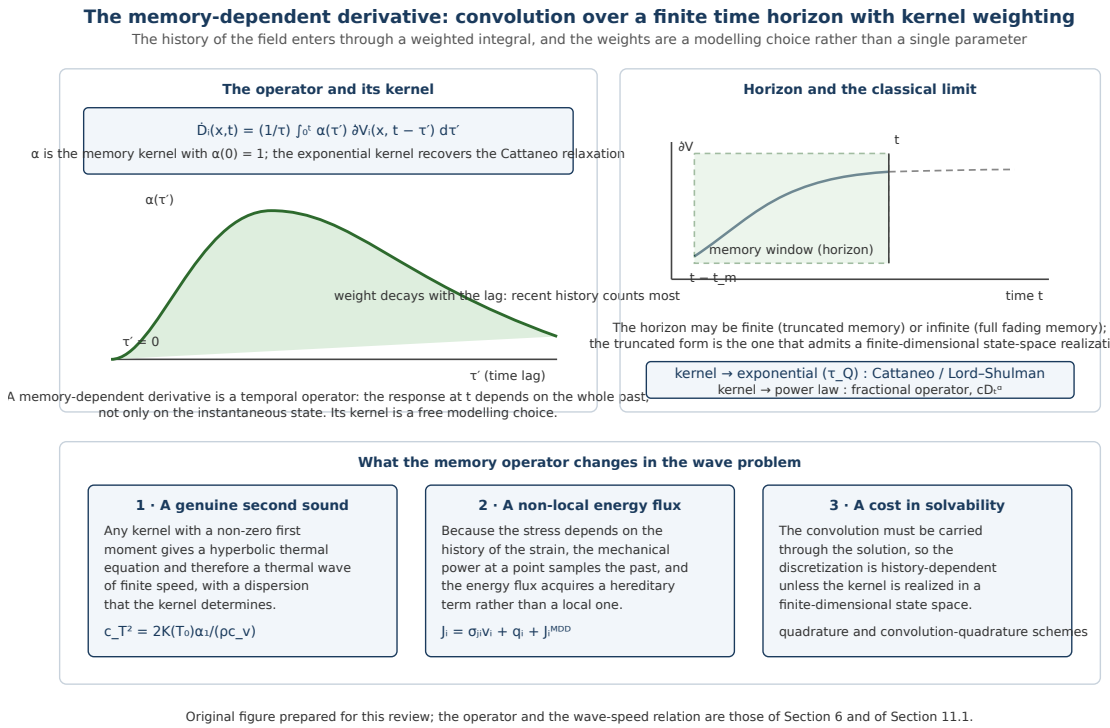


Figure 11: The memory-dependent derivative: the convolution operator over a finite time horizon (upper left), the weighting kernel and the classical limit (upper right), and the three consequences the operator has for the wave problem — a genuine second sound, a hereditary energy flux, and a cost in solvability (below). The memory kernel is a modelling choice, and the figure shows where the choices enter.

6.10 Notation summary for Section 6

6.11 Open questions for Section 6

OQ6.1 What is the complete time-domain energy flux for MDD media with convolution-type memory, expressed solely in terms of the temperature and the stored internal variables?

OQ6.2 How is energy partitioned between storage and dissipation in hereditary media, and what is the correct effective flux that enters a local balance?

OQ6.3 What are the well-posedness conditions for fractional-order thermoelasticity with arbitrary α, in the coupled mechanical setting rather than in isolation?

OQ6.4 How do different MDD kernel choices affect the energy flux and the wave propagation, and can the dispersion of the thermal branch be used to identify the kernel experimentally?

OQ6.5 Can the memory operator be given a finite-dimensional state-space realisation for a general admissible kernel, and what is the numerical cost of that realisation relative to a direct quadrature?

7 Nonlocal and Scale-Dependent Continuum Models

The constitutive laws of Sections 4 and 5 all share an assumption that is worth stating explicitly because it is the assumption that a substantial body of later work set out to remove: that the stress at a point is a function of the strain at that point alone. The assumption is not a modelling convenience; it is the statement that the continuum has no internal length scale. Once a material is known to possess one—because its microstructure has a characteristic dimension, or because experiments reveal size-dependent stiffness—the classical constitutive law cannot be correct at small scales, and a class of models has been built in which the constitutive response becomes either spatially non-local or gradient-dependent.

This section develops that class. The organising question is not which of the competing formulations is correct, but *which physical mechanism each one encodes*, because the mechanisms predict measurably different dispersion and therefore admit different experimental tests.

7.1 Physical motivation and constitutive foundations

The classical assumption fails in a specific and observable way. A beam of a given material, tested in bending, exhibits a stiffness that depends on the specimen thickness: thinner specimens are stiffer than the classical prediction, and the departure becomes significant below a material-dependent critical length. Two distinct physical mechanisms can produce this behaviour, and they are the root of the entire family of models considered here.

The first mechanism is *constitutive*: the internal stress in the material depends on the neighbouring material state, because the mechanism that carries load—bonding, dislocation motion, stress concentration in a heterogeneous microstructure—acts over a finite distance. Eringen's formulation of nonlocal elasticity is the canonical statement of this mechanism Eringen [1972, 1974], in which the stress at a point is obtained by averaging the local stress over a neighbourhood weighted by a kernel:

$$\sigma_{ij}(\boldsymbol{x}) = \int_{\Omega} \alpha(|\boldsymbol{x}' - \boldsymbol{x}|, \tau)\, \sigma_{ij}^{\mathrm{local}}(\boldsymbol{x}')\, d\Omega_{\boldsymbol{x}'}, \tag{85}$$

where α is the attenuation kernel and $\tau = e_0 a/\ell$ is the nonlocal parameter, with e_0 a material constant, a an internal characteristic length such as the lattice spacing, and ℓ an external characteristic length such as the specimen size. The nonlocal parameter is therefore not an arbitrary length: it is a ratio of an internal to an external scale, which means that the nonlocal correction grows in relative importance as the specimen is made smaller relative to the microstructure. This is the scaling property that distinguishes a size-dependent theory from an ad hoc correction.

The second mechanism is *structural*: the material possesses additional internal degrees of freedom—microrotations, relative displacement of the constituents of a porous skeleton, dislocation density—whose motion must be carried by additional stress measures. Micropolar elasticity, formulated by Eringen as a linear theory of a continuum with independent microrotation fields Eringen [1966] and extended to the thermoelastic case by Tauchert, Claus and Ariman Tauchert et al. [1968], is the earliest and most complete statement of this mechanism. Later work extended it to materials with voids, in which the skeleton and the pore fluid carry independent kinematic fields Nunziato and Cowin [1979], Cowin and Nunziato [1983], with a corresponding thermoelastic formulation Ieşan [1986].

7.1.1 Differential form

For special kernel functions—notably the one-parameter exponential and the Helmholtz kernel—the integral equation of Eq. (85) reduces to a differential equation of higher order. For the Helmholtz kernel one obtains

$$(1 - \xi^2 \nabla^2)\sigma_{ij} = \sigma_{ij}^{\mathrm{local}}, \tag{86}$$

where $\xi = e_0 a$ is the nonlocal length scale parameter. The differential form is the one used in wave-propagation applications, because it is a partial differential equation and can therefore be treated with the transform and numerical machinery of Section 8. It is worth recording that the differential and integral forms are not interchangeable in general: the integral relation with a given kernel and the differential operator of Eq. (86) agree only for that kernel, and the difference matters for the boundary conditions, which in the differential form become higher-order Polizzotto [2001].

7.2 Strain-gradient and couple-stress theories

Strain-gradient theory extends classical elasticity by including higher-order gradients of strain in the constitutive relations:

$$\sigma_{ij} = C_{ijkl}\varepsilon_{kl} - \ell^2 C_{ijkl}\nabla^2 \varepsilon_{kl}, \tag{87}$$

where ℓ is a material length scale parameter. The physical reading of Eq. (87) is that the stress depends not only on the strain but on the curvature of the strain field, so that regions in which the strain varies rapidly—near a notch, a contact edge, or an interface—carry additional stress. The coefficient ℓ is a genuine material constant that must be measured; the identification procedures for it, together with the finite element implementations and the variational formulations that make the theory tractable, have been surveyed by Askes and Aifantis Askes and Aifantis [2006, 2011].

The unifying point of view that connects gradient elasticity to micropolar and couple-stress elasticity is that all three introduce internal degrees of freedom and a length scale, and differ in

whether those degrees of freedom are constrained to coincide with the macroscopic deformation or are allowed to evolve independently. Aifantis's formulation, in which the internal length is interpreted as the scale of the microstructural heterogeneity that generates it, is the common root Askes and Aifantis [2006]. It follows that a continuum model with internal length, in whichever of these forms, can be used to represent materials for which no explicit microstructural model is available—which is why the same length-scale parameter appears in treatments of metals, polymers, granular media, and biological tissue with broadly comparable values.

7.3 Size-dependent wave behavior: dispersion from nonlocality

Nonlocality introduces dispersion: the wave speed depends on wavelength. The differential form of nonlocal elasticity was developed by Eringen Eringen [1983], and the size-dependent elastic effects at the nanoscale were quantified by Maranganti and Sharma Maranganti and Sharma [2007], who established the characteristic length below which classical elasticity fails for a range of materials, and by Maranganti, Sharma and Sharma Maranganti et al. [2006], who showed that the nanoscale nonlocal contribution to electromechanical coupling is generically non-zero even for materials that possess no piezoelectric tensor—a result directly relevant to the coupled theories of Section 5, because it means that a purely elastic size effect can generate an apparent electromechanical response in a nominally non-piezoelectric material.

For a nonlocal elastic bar, the dispersion relation is

$$c(k) = \frac{c_0}{\sqrt{1 + \xi^2 k^2}}, \tag{88}$$

where c_0 is the classical wave speed, k is the wave number, and ξ is the nonlocal length scale. Long waves ($k \to 0$) approach the classical speed c_0; short waves are strongly slowed.

7.3.1 The dispersion signature distinguishes the mechanisms

It is worth emphasising what Eq. (88) does and does not say, because the corresponding statement in gradient elasticity differs in a way that is experimentally discriminating. The nonlocal dispersion relation *saturates*: as $k \to \infty$ the wave speed tends to zero like $1/k$, so that the high-wave-number branch of the dispersion curve is bounded. A gradient theory produces a dispersion relation in which the squared wave speed decreases *linearly* in k^2 over the range in which the gradient expansion is valid, and the two mechanisms therefore predict measurably different wave speeds at the same wave number even when they are fitted to agree in the long-wave limit. A dispersion measurement over a sufficiently broad range of k can thus distinguish a nonlocal mechanism from a gradient mechanism, and the two are not interchangeable even though both produce the same qualitative signature of a size-dependent stiffness. This is one of the few places in the reviewed literature where two competing formulations of the same effect make quantitatively different and testable predictions, and it deserves more attention than it has received.

7.4 Energy flux in nonlocal media

For nonlocal media, the classical divergence theorem must be modified because the stress at a point depends on strain throughout a neighbourhood. The mechanical power $\sigma_{ji} v_i$ at a point includes contributions from the velocity field in a neighbourhood, not only from the value at the point itself. The energy flux takes the form

$$J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i + J_i^{\text{nonlocal}}, \tag{89}$$

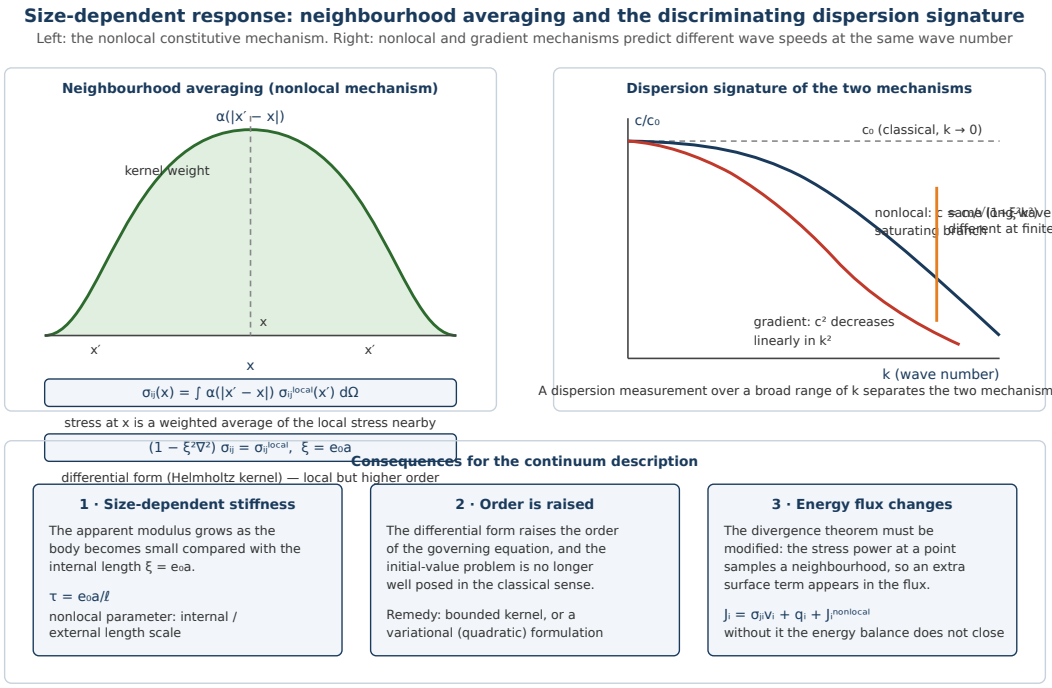


Figure 12: Nonlocality as a constitutive mechanism and its discriminating signature. Left: the neighbourhood-averaging kernel, in which the stress at a point is a weighted average of the local stress over a finite neighbourhood of radius ℓ; the equivalent differential form $(1-\xi^2\nabla^2)\sigma_{ij} = \sigma_{ij}^{\text{local}}$ replaces the integral by a higher-order local equation. Right: the dispersion of the wave speed against wave number for the two mechanisms, which agree in the long-wave limit but differ measurably at finite k. Bottom: the three consequences that follow for the continuum description — a size-dependent stiffness, a change in the order of the governing equation, and a modification of the energy flux that is required for the balance to close.

where J_i^{nonlocal} is the nonlocal correction arising from the integral constitutive relation. Formally, the correction is obtained by writing the stress power in the integral form and applying the divergence theorem to the integral representation:

$$J_i^{\text{nonlocal}} = \int_\Omega \alpha(|\boldsymbol{x}' - \boldsymbol{x}|)\, \sigma_{ji}^{\text{local}}(\boldsymbol{x}') v_i(\boldsymbol{x}')\, d\Omega_{\boldsymbol{x}'} - \sigma_{ji}(\boldsymbol{x}) v_i(\boldsymbol{x}). \tag{90}$$

Two remarks. First, the correction is not an optional refinement: without it, the energy balance of a nonlocal medium does not close, and a calculation that computes energy ratios using the classical flux alone will not satisfy the conservation identity of Section 10.5. Second, the derivation of Eq. (90) requires a modified divergence theorem for integral-type constitutive relations, and the rigorous treatment of that theorem together with the associated variational structure is a delicate matter Polizzotto [2001]. The explicit nonlocal energy flux for the thermoelastic and multiphysics settings is not available in the reviewed corpus in a form that can be independently verified, and it is recorded as an open item rather than asserted.

7.5 Interface conditions for nonlocal media

Interface conditions for nonlocal media differ from the classical ones because the stress at a point depends on the strain in a neighbourhood, and a neighbourhood straddling an interface samples both media. The classical conditions—continuity of displacement and of traction—must be supplemented, and the supplementation is not unique: one may impose conditions on the additional derivatives that appear in the differential form of Eq. (86), or one may impose the conditions in the integral form by requiring the nonlocal stress to be continuous across the interface. The two are not equivalent, and the choice made determines the number and kind of boundary conditions that the resulting boundary-value problem admits. For the differential form, the interface conditions include both the classical conditions and the higher-order conditions arising from the ∇^2 term.

Interface problems in which the nonlocal operator is combined with an additional coupled field have been analysed in the reviewed corpus for a fluid in contact with a nonlocal piezothermoelastic medium Gupta et al. [2023a] and for nonlocal Kelvin–Voigt piezo-semiconductors under a memory-dependent heat flux Gupta et al. [2026]. In both cases the analysis proceeds through the modal machinery of Section 9, and the specific difficulty in both is the same: the nonlocal operator acts on the stress while the coupled field acts on the temperature or the electric displacement, and the interface conditions must be formulated consistently for both.

7.6 What nonlocality does not repair

A review that presented nonlocal elasticity purely as a remedy for the breakdown of classical elasticity would give a misleading impression, because the remedy has a well-documented cost. The differential form of Eq. (86) raises the order of the governing equation, and the resulting initial-value problem is not well posed in the sense of Hadamard: the number of required initial conditions grows with the order of the equation, and the growth of the solution with the wave number is unbounded Eringen [1983]. In the frequency domain, the same statement appears as the unbounded increase of the wave number with frequency, so that the group velocity grows without bound and the causal cone is not preserved.

This is not a defect of any particular implementation; it is a structural property of the class. The two classical remedies are the exclusion of the problematic high-wave-number branch by a bounded kernel, and the reformulation of the theory in the variational setting, in which the constitutive law appears as a quadratic functional and the resulting evolution problem is well posed in a suitable energy space Polizzotto [2001]. The second remedy is the more satisfactory

one, and it is the reason the variational structure of nonlocal elasticity has been worked out with particular care. It also explains the emphasis in Section 8 on variational formulations: for nonlocal and gradient theories, the variational route is not an alternative to the differential route but the more rigorous of the two.

7.7 Comparative summary: nonlocal models

7.8 Notation summary for Section 7

7.9 Open questions for Section 7

OQ7.1 What is the correct energy flux at a nonlocal interface, derived from a rigorous modified divergence theorem, and does it reproduce the classical limit as $\xi \to 0$?

OQ7.2 How must the boundary conditions be formulated for the differential nonlocal operator so that the initial-value problem is well posed, and is the resulting formulation variational?

OQ7.3 What is the relationship between the integral and differential nonlocal formulations at the level of the energy flux, given that the two agree only for the specific kernel used to obtain the differential form?

OQ7.4 Can a dispersion measurement over a sufficiently broad range of wave number distinguish a nonlocal mechanism from a gradient mechanism in a specific material?

OQ7.5 Which nonlocal constitutive law is thermodynamically admissible when combined with a memory-dependent thermal law, given that both introduce history into the energy balance?

8 Mathematical Methods for Wave Propagation

The theory families of this review differ in their constitutive content, but the mathematics with which they are analysed differs far less. This section sets out that shared mathematics, and takes the position that most of the apparent difficulty in the generalized theories is methodological rather than physical: the same transform, eigenproblem, and boundary-layer machinery that handles classical thermoelasticity handles the generalized families, provided that three points are respected—the sign convention of the harmonic ansatz, the selection of the physical roots of the secular equation, and the consistent normalization of the modes whose energies are to be compared.

8.1 Plane wave ansatz and harmonic time dependence

For time-harmonic problems, all field variables take the form

$$\mathrm{field}(\boldsymbol{x}, t) = \hat{\mathrm{field}}(\boldsymbol{x}) e^{-i\omega t}, \tag{91}$$

where $\hat{\mathrm{field}}$ is the complex amplitude and ω is the angular frequency. Two consequences of the convention $e^{-i\omega t}$ should be stated, because both are used repeatedly in the sections that follow. First, a wave with complex wave number q whose imaginary part is positive is spatially attenuated, since the spatial factor e^{iqx} acquires a factor $e^{-\operatorname{Im}(q)\, x}$. Second, the sign of the imaginary part of every complex amplitude reverses if the opposite convention $e^{+i\omega t}$ is adopted, while the physical content of the solution does not change. The divergence map of Section 12 records the second point as one of the routine sources of apparent disagreement between studies.

8.2 Christoffel-type equations and wave speeds

Substituting the plane wave ansatz into the governing equations yields the Christoffel-type equation

$$[\Gamma_{ik}(\boldsymbol{n}) - \rho c^2 \delta_{ik}]\hat{u}_k = 0, \tag{92}$$

where $\Gamma_{ik}(\boldsymbol{n})$ is the Christoffel tensor, $\boldsymbol{n}$ is the propagation direction, c is the wave speed, and $\hat{u}_k$ is the polarization vector. Non-trivial solutions require

$$\det[\Gamma_{ik}(\boldsymbol{n}) - \rho c^2 \delta_{ik}] = 0. \tag{93}$$

For an anisotropic material the Christoffel tensor depends on the direction $\boldsymbol{n}$, and the three roots of Eq. (93) are the three phase velocities of the quasi-longitudinal and two quasi-transverse modes. Their separation, and the dependence of each on the direction of propagation, is the classical anisotropy phenomenon; the generalized theories inherit it unchanged, since they modify the constitutive law rather than the kinematics.

8.3 Secular equations and characteristic polynomials

The characteristic equation from Eq. (93) is a polynomial in c^2, or equivalently in the squared wave number q^2. For coupled thermo-piezoelastic media the equation is typically of eighth order in q and, because the system possesses a certain symmetry with respect to the sign of q, reduces to a quartic in q^2:

$$G_1 q^8 + G_2 q^6 + G_3 q^4 + G_4 q^2 + G_5 = 0, \tag{94}$$

where the coefficients G_i depend on the material properties, the frequency, and the angle of incidence. Two features of this structure are worth recording. First, the equation is quartic in q^2 and therefore has four pairs of roots in q, of which only a subset corresponds to physically admissible modes; the number of modes in the physical solution is therefore *smaller* than the order of the secular equation suggests, and the surplus modes are unphysical branches of the algebra. Second, in the generalized families the coefficients G_i acquire the relaxation times, the memory kernel, or the nonlocal length scale, and the dependence of the root structure on those parameters is the mechanism by which the constitutive generalization is converted into an observable difference in the wave field. This is the point at which a change in the constitutive law becomes a change in a coefficient that can be measured.

8.4 Complex wave numbers: propagating, evanescent, attenuating modes

The roots of the secular equation are classified as

1. **Propagating modes:** real q, waves that propagate without spatial attenuation;
2. **Evanescent modes:** purely imaginary q, waves that decay exponentially with distance;
3. **Attenuating modes:** complex q, waves that both propagate and attenuate.

Only outgoing modes satisfying the radiation condition are retained in the physical solution. The selection rule is simple to state and easy to get wrong: in a half-space problem the retained roots are those for which the wave decays as $x \to \infty$, and in a slab or layer problem the retained roots are those for which the transmitted field decays into the far material. Every additional root that is retained produces a mode that carries energy out of, or into, the region of interest and breaks the conservation identity of Section 10.5.

8.5 Modal normalization for energy flux computation

For energy flux computation, each mode must be consistently normalized. For propagating modes a convenient choice is

$$\hat{u}_i^{(n)} \hat{u}_i^{(n)*} = 1, \tag{95}$$

where * denotes complex conjugation. For evanescent modes the normalization is chosen so that the time-averaged energy flux is real and positive.

The evanescent case deserves a warning, because it is the source of most of the apparent energy deficits reported in the interface literature. An evanescent mode has a real, non-zero normal component of the complex energy flux, and this flux is not a loss: it is transported away from the interface along the surface, and it appears in the conservation identity with a sign determined by the direction of the evanescent tail. A calculation that sums the energies of the propagating modes only, and attributes the remainder to absorption, will report a spurious absorption coefficient. The same statement applies in a different form to the normalization convention itself: the energy attributed to a mode depends on the normalization of its amplitude vector, so two studies that use different conventions and do not state them will report energy ratios that differ by a constant factor while describing identical physics. This is the fourth entry in the divergence map of Section 12.

8.6 Transform methods: Fourier and Laplace

Fourier transforms are used for steady-state harmonic problems on an unbounded or periodic domain:

$$\hat{f}(\omega) = \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} f(t) e^{i\omega t}\, dt, \tag{96}$$

and Laplace transforms for transient problems on a half-space:

$$\tilde{f}(s) = \int_{0}^{\infty} f(t) e^{-st}\, dt. \tag{97}$$

The Laplace transform in particular is what makes the classical thermoelastic transient problem tractable in closed form: the coupled system is parabolic in the thermal variable and hyperbolic in the mechanical variable, and the Laplace transform in time combined with a Fourier transform in the horizontal directions reduces the problem to a pair of second-order differential equations in the normal coordinate, which are solved in closed form Achenbach [1973], Nowacki [1975].

The fractional operators of Section 11.1 require a different transform calculus. The Caputo derivative of order α has a simple Laplace-domain representation, $\mathcal{L}\{{}^{C}D_t^{\alpha} f\}(s) = s^{\alpha}\tilde{f}(s) - s^{\alpha-1} f(0)$, and the resulting algebraic equation in s is inverted using the Mittag–Leffler function, which plays the role that the exponential plays in the classical theory Gorenflo and Mainardi [1997], Luchko [2010]. It is worth being explicit about the methodological consequence: in the fractional families the analytical route is available only for special geometries, for radially symmetric or half-space problems, because the inversion step requires the eigenfunction expansion of the corresponding spatial operator. Everywhere else, the burden of verification falls on numerical inversion, and the reference solutions of the kind derived in closed form by Povstenko Povstenko [2007] become the only available check on a numerical scheme.

8.7 Green's functions and fundamental solutions

The alternative to the transform route is the construction of Green's functions. For a half-space under a prescribed incident wave, the Green's function of the coupled thermoelastic operator provides the scattered field directly, and the reflection and transmission coefficients follow from the evaluation of the Green's function and its derivatives at the interface. The advantage of this route is that it packages the geometry into a single object, so that the same Green's function can be used for several different incident conditions. Its disadvantage is that the Green's function for the coupled problem is a matrix-valued function whose construction requires the simultaneous inversion of a set of differential operators, and that the algebra is considerably heavier than that of the modal approach of Sections 8.2–8.5. In the reviewed literature the modal route dominates for plane-wave incidence, which is consistent with the structure of the evidence base described in Section 14.4.

8.8 Spectral methods and numerical approaches

Spectral methods expand the solution in terms of orthogonal basis functions—Fourier series for periodic domains, Chebyshev polynomials for finite intervals, Legendre polynomials for axisymmetric problems. They are particularly effective for problems with periodic boundary conditions or with smooth solutions, and their convergence rate can be established analytically for smooth data, which makes them the natural choice when a convergence study is required.

Finite element, finite difference, and boundary element methods cover the problems for which no closed-form solution exists. The nonlocal and memory-dependent families require specialized treatments, and it is worth being specific about why, because the reason is not an aesthetic preference.

- **Nonlocal operators.** The constitutive law of Eq. (85) is an integral over a neighbourhood. A finite element discretization must therefore assemble the kernel integral element-by-element, which converts the stiffness matrix from a sparse local operator into a dense or partially dense one, and the cost of the assembly grows with the size of the neighbourhood. The standard remedy is to use the differential form of the operator, Eq. (86), which is local, at the price of the well-posedness difficulties discussed in Section 7.6. Which of the two is used is therefore not a free choice, and it must be stated.

- **Memory-dependent operators.** The memory integral of Section 6 is over the entire history of the field, and a direct discretization is a marching-in-time scheme whose stability is governed by the treatment of the history. Quadrature and convolution-quadrature schemes, and the use of the Laplace-domain representation in which the history is compressed into a single auxiliary variable, are the two standard alternatives.

- **Fractional operators.** A fractional derivative of order α in space or in time is nonlocal, and its discretization is a dense or a history-dependent operator, with the same cost considerations as in the nonlocal case.

8.9 Variational structure and its use as an analytical tool

Alongside the direct transform route, coupled thermoelasticity admits a variational formulation, and the two are not simply equivalent. Variational principles for the coupled system have been established and compared by Marotti de Sciarra Marotti de Sciarra [2013], who showed that the admissible function spaces and the boundary conditions inherited from each principle differ, and that the resulting weak formulations do not all select the same class of solutions. This matters

practically because a variational derivation constrains the admissible boundary conditions before the equations are solved, and a formulation that admits non-physical boundary data can contaminate the solution even when the differential equations are correct. The variational route is also the one that extends most naturally to the nonlocal and gradient constitutive laws of Section 7, since the integral kernel appears as an operator in the quadratic functional rather than as an explicit convolution in the equations of motion.

8.10 The two-stage structure of the classical problem, and what the generalizations change

One methodological feature of the classical coupled problem deserves explicit statement, because it is the reason the generalized theories matter practically and not merely formally. In classical coupled thermoelasticity the mechanical problem is elliptic and the thermal problem is parabolic, and the two can be solved in sequence: the temperature field is determined first, and the mechanical field follows from the resulting thermal stress. The reverse coupling—the effect of the mechanical deformation on the temperature—enters through the coupling term $\beta T_0 \dot{u}_{i,i}$ and is second order in the relevant sense. The practical consequence is that in a classical analysis at any ordinary frequency the thermal effect on the mechanical response is a small correction, and the interesting physics is the direct one: the mechanical waves of the classical theory are unaffected by the thermal coupling to leading order.

The generalized theories change this structure, not by making the coupling term larger, but by making the thermal equation hyperbolic. Once the temperature equation admits a wave, the thermal field can no longer be determined independently of the mechanical field over the whole body; the two must be solved simultaneously, and the classical two-stage reduction is no longer available. This is the mathematical reason why the interface problems of Section 9 require the full coupled modal treatment in the generalized families but admit the simpler sequential treatment in the classical case, and it is the reason why the numerical burden of the generalized theories is so much larger than the order of their governing equations would suggest. A reviewer or reader who compares a classical and a generalized solution should check whether the comparison is between like methods, because a sequential classical solution and a fully coupled generalized solution are not comparable in this respect.

8.11 Notation summary for Section 8

8.12 Open questions for Section 8

OQ8.1 How are complex modes to be normalized so that the energy ratios computed from them are reproducible across independent implementations, and can a normalization convention be proposed that the field adopts?

OQ8.2 What are the convergence properties of the numerical schemes for the nonlocal and memory-dependent families, and how large is the error introduced by replacing the integral operator by its differential form?

OQ8.3 Can the two-stage sequential treatment of the classical problem be extended to the generalized families as an approximation, with a bound on the error introduced?

OQ8.4 Which weak formulation is the correct starting point for a variational treatment of a nonlocal and memory-dependent coupled problem?

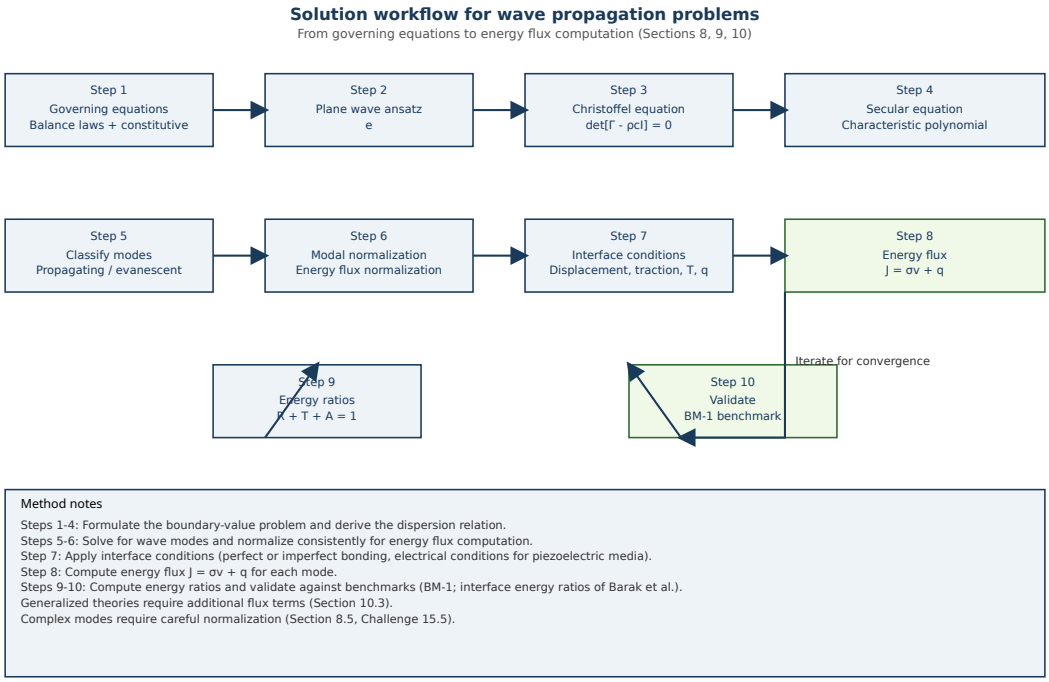


Figure 13: Solution workflow for wave propagation problems: from governing equations to energy flux computation and validation (Sections 8, 9, 10).

9 Reflection, Transmission, and Interface Phenomena

This section presents wave reflection, transmission, and energy partitioning at interfaces between different continuum media. The scattering matrix formulation, interface conditions, and energy ratios are developed for elastic, thermoelastic, and piezothermoelastic media.

9.1 Interface geometry

Consider two half-spaces in perfect contact at the interface plane $x_3 = 0$. Medium 1 occupies $x_3 < 0$ and medium 2 occupies $x_3 > 0$. A plane harmonic wave is incident from medium 1 onto the interface, generating reflected waves in medium 1 and transmitted waves in medium 2.

The interface normal is $\boldsymbol{n} = (0, 0, 1)$. All field variables vary harmonically in time with convention $e^{-i\omega t}$ and propagate along the interface with wave number k in the x_1-direction:

$$\text{field}(x_1, x_3, t) = \hat{\text{field}}(x_3) e^{i(kx_1 - \omega t)}. \tag{98}$$

9.2 Wave decomposition: incident, reflected, transmitted modes

In each medium, the general solution is a superposition of partial waves. For an isotropic elastic medium, there are two wave types: longitudinal (P) and shear (SV). For thermoelastic media, there is an additional thermal (T) wave. For piezothermoelastic media, there are additional coupled modes (qP, qS, qT, electromagnetic).

The displacement field in medium m ($m = 1, 2$) is decomposed as:

$$u_i^{(m)} = \sum_n A_n^{(m)} \hat{u}_i^{(m,n)} e^{i(q_n^{(m)} x_3 - \omega t)}, \tag{99}$$

where $A_n^{(m)}$ are complex amplitude coefficients, $q_n^{(m)}$ are the vertical wave numbers, and $\hat{u}_i^{(m,n)}$ are the polarization vectors.

The incident wave comes from medium 1 with known amplitude. Reflected waves propagate back into medium 1, and transmitted waves propagate into medium 2.

9.3 Interface conditions

At a perfectly bonded interface between two media, the following conditions must hold:

9.3.1 Mechanical conditions

$$u_i^{(1)} = u_i^{(2)}, \qquad \sigma_{j3}^{(1)} = \sigma_{j3}^{(2)} \quad \text{at } x_3 = 0. \tag{100}$$

The first condition enforces displacement continuity (no slip or separation); the second enforces traction equilibrium (Newton's third law at the interface).

9.3.2 Thermal conditions

For thermoelastic media:

$$T^{(1)} = T^{(2)}, \qquad q_3^{(1)} = q_3^{(2)} \quad \text{at } x_3 = 0. \tag{101}$$

Temperature continuity and heat flux continuity ensure perfect thermal contact.

9.3.3 Electrical conditions (piezoelectric media)

For piezothermoelastic media:

$$\phi^{(1)} = \phi^{(2)}, \qquad D_3^{(1)} = D_3^{(2)} \quad \text{at } x_3 = 0. \tag{102}$$

Electric potential continuity and electric displacement continuity ensure perfect electrical contact. For an insulated interface, $D_3 = 0$ replaces the second condition.

9.3.4 Imperfect bonding

For imperfectly bonded interfaces, spring-type conditions relate displacement jumps to interfacial tractions:

$$u_i^{(2)} - u_i^{(1)} = K_i^u t_i, \qquad \sigma_{j3}^{(1)} n_j = \sigma_{j3}^{(2)} n_j = t_i, \tag{103}$$

where K_i^u is the interfacial stiffness tensor and t_i is the interfacial traction. In the limit $K_i^u \to \infty$, perfect bonding is recovered; in the limit $K_i^u \to 0$, a traction-free (slip) interface is recovered.

9.4 Scattering matrix formulation

The interface conditions lead to a linear system relating the unknown amplitude coefficients to the known incident wave amplitude. For a thermo-piezoelastic interface problem with N unknown amplitudes and N interface conditions, the system can be written in matrix form:

$$\Delta \boldsymbol{X} = \boldsymbol{Q}, \tag{104}$$

where:

- Δ is the $N \times N$ system matrix whose entries depend on material properties, wave numbers, frequency, and incidence angle,
- $\boldsymbol{X} = (A_1, A_2, \ldots, A_N)^T$ is the vector of unknown amplitude coefficients (reflected and transmitted),
- $\boldsymbol{Q} = (Q_1, Q_2, \ldots, Q_N)^T$ is the known vector determined by the incident wave amplitude.

The entries of Δ are determined by substituting the partial wave expansions into the interface conditions (100)–(102). Each row corresponds to one interface condition; each column corresponds to one unknown amplitude.

The solution is obtained by matrix inversion:

$$\boldsymbol{X} = \Delta^{-1}\boldsymbol{Q}. \tag{105}$$

The solution exists and is unique when $\det(\Delta) \neq 0$.

9.5 Secular equation and mode classification

The secular equation (characteristic polynomial) determines the allowed wave numbers in each medium:

$$G_1 q^8 + G_2 q^6 + G_3 q^4 + G_4 q^2 + G_5 = 0, \tag{106}$$

which is an eighth-order polynomial in q for coupled thermo-piezoelastic media. The roots are classified as:

- **Propagating modes:** real q — waves that propagate without spatial attenuation,
- **Evanescent modes:** purely imaginary q — waves that decay exponentially with distance,
- **Attenuating modes:** complex q — waves that both propagate and attenuate.

Only outgoing modes (satisfying the radiation condition) are retained in the physical solution.

9.6 Number of boundary conditions vs. unknown amplitudes

For a well-posed interface problem, the number of independent boundary conditions must equal the number of unknown amplitude coefficients. Table 16 summarizes interface condition configurations for different interface types.

9.7 Energy ratios at interfaces

The energy reflection coefficient R, transmission coefficient T, and absorption coefficient A are defined as:

$$R = \frac{|\langle J_{\text{ref},n}\rangle_t|}{|\langle J_{\text{inc},n}\rangle_t|}, \qquad T = \frac{|\langle J_{\text{trans},n}\rangle_t|}{|\langle J_{\text{inc},n}\rangle_t|}, \qquad A = \frac{\mathcal{D}}{|\langle J_{\text{inc},n}\rangle_t|}, \tag{107}$$

where the averages are time averages over one period and n is the interface normal.

For a conservative system with no dissipation ($\mathcal{D} = 0$) and a passive interface:

$$\sum R + \sum T = 1. \tag{108}$$

With dissipation:

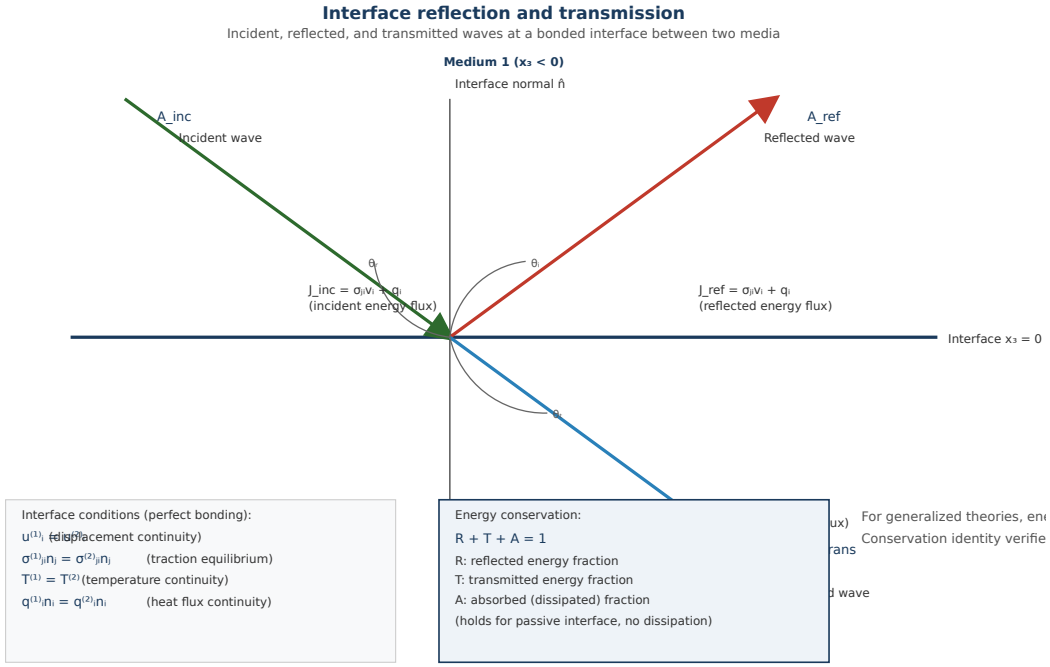


Figure 14: Interface reflection and transmission geometry: incident P-wave from Medium 1 generates reflected P and S waves in Medium 1 and transmitted qP and qS waves in Medium 2. Interface conditions enforce displacement, traction, temperature, heat flux, electric potential, and electric displacement continuity.

$$\sum R + \sum T + A = 1. \tag{109}$$

The identity (109) holds when the energy flux is correctly defined for the specific theory, the interface is passive, all modes are properly accounted for, and complex modes are consistently normalized.

This makes interface energy analysis unusually stringent as a test of a generalized theory: the same identity must close for every model in the family, and any inconsistency between the flux used in the numerators and the dissipation used in the denominator shows up immediately as a violation. The recent literature has exploited that sensitivity to quantify how relaxation, memory and anisotropy redistribute energy across a bonded boundary, and the results fall into a small number of recurring patterns.

9.7.1 What the interface partition reveals

The energy partition at an interface is a far more sensitive probe of a constitutive model than any bulk measurement, for a reason that is structural rather than accidental: the interface condition set is the only place in the problem where all the couplings are exercised simultaneously and where a single scalar identity must close. The identity of (109) does not distinguish between two theories that agree in the bulk but differ in how they transmit energy; the reflected and transmitted fractions do.

Four distinct mechanisms of energy redistribution have been quantified on this basis, and it is worth separating them, because they are frequently conflated.

1. **Electromechanical renormalisation.** At a boundary between an elastic and a piezothermoelastic half-space, the transmitted energy budget is altered not by a new dissipation mechanism but by the renormalisation of the elastic stiffness that the electromechanical coupling induces. The conservation identity remains satisfied, and the shift in the transmitted fraction is a stiffness effect rather than an absorption effect Barak et al. [2023b]. This is the cleanest demonstration in the reviewed literature that a generalized theory can change an observable while leaving the thermodynamics untouched.

2. **Extra attenuation channels.** When the thermoelastic partner is replaced by a medium with additional internal degrees of freedom — a dual-porous solid, with its permeability-dependent relaxation and its phase-lag structure — additional attenuation channels open, and the energy-ratio curves vary with incidence angle in a manner that no single-phase treatment reproduces Kumar et al. [2023]. The diagnostic content lies in the angular dependence, not merely in the value at normal incidence.

3. **History-dependent transmission.** Memory-dependent heat conduction changes the transmitted thermal energy through the kernel-weighted history of the flux, and the change depends jointly on the delay parameter of the kernel and on the stiffness contrast across the interface Barak et al. [2023d]. The same dependence persists when monoclinic anisotropy is added to the piezothermoelastic partner Barak et al. [2023c], which indicates that the two generalizations act through separate mechanisms and can therefore be separated experimentally by varying the interface contrast at fixed anisotropy.

4. **Nonlocal phase shifts at a fluid boundary.** At a fluid/solid boundary, where the first medium carries no elastic field and the transmitted set is constrained by the kinematic admissibility conditions of the fluid, a nonlocal length scale in the solid modifies the phase of the reflected and transmitted waves while leaving the energy balance closed Gupta et al. [2023a]. Here the nonlocality shows itself in phase rather than in energy, which is the clearest available signature that distinguishes it from a purely dissipative effect.

Two further results complete the picture. For a piezoelectric/thermoelastic interface the full energy analysis across the coupled fields shows that the electrical contribution does not decouple from the mechanical one, so that a single-field energy budget is not adequate and a coupled flux must be constructed Gupta et al. [2023b]. And a compact scattering-matrix treatment of this interface class, in which the amplitude system is written as a single matrix relation rather than as a set of separate modal equations, together with its higher-order memory-dependent variant, has been given for the same configuration Barak et al. [2023a].

9.7.2 The pattern and its limits

Across this body of work the pattern is consistent: the conservation identity survives extension to generalized media, but only when the energy flux is reconstructed from the constitutive model actually being solved. The difficulty identified in Section 10 is therefore not that the identity fails, but that a general-purpose expression for that flux has not been written down for every member of the family. A second limit is worth recording. All of the configurations above assume a perfectly bonded, flat interface between two homogeneous half-spaces with sharp material contrast. Real interfaces are graded over a thickness comparable with the microstructural length, and for nonlocal, memory-dependent and gradient theories the thickness of the interfacial layer is not negligible compared with the internal length of the material. Whether the sharp-interface result is the limit of a graded-interface result, and at what rate, is an open question that no configuration in the reviewed literature addresses.

9.8 Interface conditions under memory and nonlocality

The interface conditions of Section 9.3 assume that the constitutive variables are local functions of position. This assumption fails in two of the theory families treated here, and the failure has a common structure: the quantity that is matched across the interface is no longer a pointwise value.

For a *memory-dependent* medium, the flux at the interface is an integral over the recent past, and a naive condition of the form $q_3^{(1)} = q_3^{(2)}$ matches two functionals whose histories differ. The condition is either imposed on the effective flux of (82) — in which case the identity of Section 10 must already have been established — or imposed on the constitutive variables together with their history, in which case the interface problem becomes an initial-value problem in the tangential coordinate and its solution depends on how the interface was approached.

For a *nonlocal* medium, the stress at the interface is an average over a neighbourhood that straddles the interface, so that the traction transmitted across the interface is not a pointwise quantity at all; the correct interface problem is then a nonlocal boundary-value problem in which the interface condition couples the two half-spaces over the whole interfacial region. A local approximation that simply writes $t_i^{(1)} = t_i^{(2)}$ is consistent only to leading order in the ratio of the internal length to the wavelength.

Neither of these is merely a technical difficulty. Both concern the meaning of an interface in a theory that has no microscopic notion of a material boundary, and both are of the same character as the question of whether the constitutive variables of a nonlocal or memory-dependent theory can be continued across a material discontinuity at all. These are recorded as open questions in Section 16; they are the places where the extension of the classical framework to generalized media is least settled.

9.9 Notation summary for Section 9

9.10 Open questions for Section 9

OQ9.1 What are the interface conditions for nonlocal media where stress depends on strain in a neighborhood?

OQ9.2 How are energy ratios computed for memory-dependent media with hereditary flux?

OQ9.3 What is the correct interface energy balance for piezothermoelastic media with electrical coupling?

OQ9.4 Is the sharp-interface result the limit of a graded-interface result for nonlocal, gradient and memory-dependent media, and at what rate does the difference vanish as the interfacial layer is thickened?

OQ9.5 Can the constitutive variables of a nonlocal or memory-dependent theory be continued across a material discontinuity at all, and what does that imply for the meaning of an interface in such a theory?

10 Energy Transport and Dissipation

Every generalized thermoelastic theory is, at bottom, a statement about how heat travels through a solid, and every statement of that kind has an energetic consequence that can be checked. The energy balance is therefore not an appendix to the constitutive theory but a diagnostic of it: a proposed constitutive law that cannot be embedded in a balance with a non-negative dissipation rate is not a physical theory, however elegant its solutions. This section develops that diagnostic for the families treated in Sections 4–11. Energy transport is treated as one aspect of wave mechanics, integrated with the broader treatment of coupled-field interactions rather than as a separate subject.

10.1 General energy balance

For a continuum body occupying region Ω with boundary $\partial\Omega$, the total energy density $\mathcal{E}$ comprises kinetic energy, internal (elastic + thermal) energy, and, in multiphysics theories, the energy of the additional fields:

$$\mathcal{E} = \frac{1}{2}\rho v_i v_i + e + \mathcal{E}_{\text{coup}}, \tag{110}$$

where $\mathcal{E}_{\text{coup}} = 0$ for purely thermoelastic media, $\mathcal{E}_{\text{coup}} = \frac{1}{2}D_i E_i$ for piezoelectric media, and an analogous term for the magnetic or porotic fields where those are present. The general energy balance is

$$\frac{\partial \mathcal{E}}{\partial t} + \partial_i J_i = \mathcal{P} - \mathcal{D}, \tag{111}$$

where $\boldsymbol{J}$ is the total energy flux vector ($\mathrm{W\,m^{-2}}$), $\mathcal{P} = \rho f_i v_i$ is the mechanical power input per unit volume ($\mathrm{W\,m^{-3}}$), and $\mathcal{D} \geq 0$ is the dissipation rate per unit volume ($\mathrm{W\,m^{-3}}$).

Equation (111) has a status in the theory that is easy to underestimate. It is not an extra assumption appended to the equations of motion; it is a *consequence* of them, obtained by combining the momentum balance with the internal-energy balance and the constitutive laws. That is why it can be used as a test of a constitutive proposal: if the combination yields a balance with $\mathcal{D} \geq 0$, the proposal is thermodynamically admissible; if it yields $\mathcal{D}$ of indefinite sign, the proposal is not, and no amount of successful solution of the resulting boundary-value problems can repair that.

For an isolated system with no body forces and no dissipation, (111) reduces to the local conservation law $\partial_t \mathcal{E} + \partial_i J_i = 0$, which integrates to global energy conservation.

10.2 Classical energy flux

For classical coupled thermoelasticity, adding the mechanical power balance and the internal energy balance yields

$$J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i, \tag{112}$$

the classical energy flux, with two channels: the mechanical energy flux $\sigma_{ji} v_i$, which is the stress power transmitted across a surface per unit area, and the thermal energy flux q_i, the heat conducted across that surface.

For time-harmonic fields, the average energy flux is obtained from the time-average identity

$$\langle J_i \rangle_t = \frac{1}{2}\Re\left[\hat{\sigma}_{ji}\hat{v}_i^*\right], \tag{113}$$

in which the complex conjugate appears because the physical field is the real part of the complex amplitude. For an interface problem the quantity of interest is the normal component $J_n = J_i n_i$, and the sign convention of the harmonic ansatz determines the sign of the imaginary part of $\hat{J}_n$; the divergence map of Table 23 records this as one of the routine sources of apparent disagreement.

A point worth keeping in view is that the classical flux contains *no* term associated with the internal variables that generalized theories introduce. The entire difficulty of Section 10.4 follows from that absence.

10.3 Interface energy balance

Consider an interface Σ between two media with unit normal $\boldsymbol{n}$. Integrating the general energy balance over a thin pillbox straddling the interface and taking the thinness limit gives the jump condition

$$[J_n] = \mathcal{P}_\Sigma - \frac{\partial \mathcal{E}_\Sigma}{\partial t}, \tag{114}$$

where $J_n = J_i n_i$ is the normal energy flux, $\mathcal{P}_\Sigma$ is the mechanical power input at the interface, and $\mathcal{E}_\Sigma$ is the interfacial energy density.

For a passive interface with no mechanical power input and no interfacial energy storage,

$$[J_n] = 0, \tag{115}$$

that is, the normal energy flux is continuous across the interface. Two qualifications are needed before this condition is used numerically. First, it is a statement about the *correct* energy flux of the theory in which it is used; a flux built from the classical form alone, applied to a family with internal variables, will not satisfy it even when the mathematics is otherwise flawless. Second, the continuity of the normal flux does not by itself imply the scalar conservation identity of Section 10.5: that identity is a statement about modal energies, while (115) is a statement about a single component of a flux at a single surface, and the two are related only after the modal decomposition and normalisation conventions have been fixed.

10.4 Energy transport in generalized theories: the internal-variable structure

The systematic way to write the energy balance for a generalized theory is the internal-variable formulation. In this formulation the state variables that a family introduces beyond displacement and temperature are treated as *internal variables* z^α, each with a conjugate thermodynamic force Y^α that measures the rate at which the internal variable is generated. Two consequences follow, and together they determine the structure of every generalized energy flux.

First, the energy density acquires an internal-variable contribution. The internal energy is not a function of temperature alone but of the state $(T, z^1, \dots, z^n)$, and the energy density may be written schematically as

$$e(T, z^\alpha) = e_{\mathrm{eq}}(T) + \sum_\alpha Y^\alpha z^\alpha, \tag{116}$$

where $e_{\mathrm{eq}}(T)$ is the equilibrium internal energy and the sum collects the contributions of the internal variables. The relation is structural rather than numerical: its content is that an internal variable enters the energy density only in combination with its conjugate force.

Second, the energy flux acquires a flux-of-internal-energy term. Because the internal variables evolve in time, the product $Y^\alpha z^\alpha$ contributes to the time derivative of the energy density, and the corresponding balance requires an additional flux term, so that the flux of Eq. (112) generalizes to

$$J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i - \sum_\alpha Y^\alpha \dot{z}^\alpha, \tag{117}$$

up to the sign convention adopted for the forces Y^α. This single structural fact is what makes the energy balance of every generalized theory have the same shape, and it is why the energy flux of a generalized theory can be discussed generically even when its explicit form for a given family is not known.

What the families contribute. Mapping the internal variables of the families onto this structure makes the differences concrete:

- **Classical coupled thermoelasticity** has no internal variable; the thermal channel is the Fourier flux alone.
- **Lord–Shulman** and the Cattaneo–Christoff construction introduce the heat flux itself as an internal variable, so the flux acquires a term proportional to the entropy-production-like force multiplied by $\dot{q}_i$.
- **Green–Lindsay** introduces a temperature rate in the one-temperature formulation and a second temperature field in the two-temperature formulation; in the latter case two thermal channels appear, one for each temperature.
- **Green–Naghdi types II and III** introduce the thermal displacement (type II) or the rate of heat flux (type III) as internal variables, which is precisely what permits a conservative mechanical structure with a dissipative thermal branch.
- **Dual and triple phase-lag** theories introduce one and two additional internal variables beyond the flux, corresponding to the lagged gradient and the thermal displacement gradient.
- **Moore–Gibson–Thompson** introduces the heat flux and an additional temperature difference, the latter acting as the thermal-inertia variable.
- **Memory-dependent** formulations replace the single relaxation exponential by a kernel-weighted history; the internal variable is then an entire function of time, and the flux term becomes a convolution rather than a local product.
- **Nonlocal** formulations act on the stress rather than on the thermal law; the corresponding modification appears as a nonlocal surface term when the divergence theorem is applied to the convolution form.

10.4.1 Verified piezothermoelastic energy flux

For the piezothermoelastic family, the energy flux has been computed explicitly and checked across several independent publications in the reviewed corpus. The normal acoustic energy flux is

$$P = -\Re\left[\sigma_{13}\dot{u}_1 + \sigma_{33}\dot{u}_3 - \phi\dot{D}_3 + \frac{T_0}{T} K_3 T_{,3}\right], \tag{118}$$

which comprises three channels: the mechanical power $\sigma_{ji}\dot{u}_i$, the electrical power $-\phi\dot{D}_3$, and the thermal conduction term $\frac{T_0}{T}K_3T_{,3}$ Barak et al. [2023b,c]. The corresponding result for an elastic (thermoelastic) medium retains only the mechanical channel,

$$P_e = -\Re\left[\sigma_{3e1}\dot{u}_{e1} + \sigma_{3e3}\dot{u}_{e3}\right], \tag{119}$$

so that the comparison of the two fluxes isolates the contribution of the piezoelectric coupling Barak et al. [2023a], Gupta et al. [2023b]. Interface energy ratios computed from these expressions, with and without memory-dependent operators acting on the heat flux, have been used to quantify the effect of the memory kernel and of the relative stiffness of the two media on the energy partition Barak et al. [2023a,d], Kumar et al. [2023]. The energy partition at an interface between an ideal fluid and a nonlocal piezothermoelastic medium has been examined on the same basis Gupta et al. [2023a].

10.4.2 What remains open in the pure generalized theories

For the families without an added field—Lord–Shulman, Green–Lindsay, Green–Naghdi, the phase-lag families, Moore–Gibson–Thompson, the memory-dependent formulation, and the nonlocal formulation—the explicit time-domain energy flux and the corresponding dissipation function are not available in the reviewed corpus in a form that can be independently verified. This is a gap in the theory, and it is recorded here as a gap: it is not used as a premise for any derivation elsewhere in this review. The structural description of Eq. (117) is the most that can be asserted generally, and the explicit expressions remain an open item for each family.

10.5 Conservation identity: $\sum R + \sum T + A = 1$

For wave scattering at an interface, energy conservation requires that the sum of the reflection, transmission, and absorption coefficients be unity:

$$\sum R + \sum T + A = 1, \tag{120}$$

where the sums run over all reflected and transmitted modes, and A is the absorbed fraction. With no dissipation ($A = 0$),

$$\sum R + \sum T = 1. \tag{121}$$

The identity holds when four conditions are met: the energy flux is correctly defined for the theory in use; the interface is passive; all modes—propagating, evanescent, and attenuating—are properly accounted for; and complex modes are consistently normalised. These conditions are not automatic. The third is the most frequently violated in practice: evanescent modes carry a normal flux that is not zero, so omitting them from the modal sums produces an apparent deficit that is sometimes attributed to absorption Gupta et al. [2026]. The fourth is the most frequently overlooked: the notion of the energy of a complex mode depends on the normalisation adopted for the modal amplitude, and two groups using different normalisations can report energy ratios that differ by a constant factor while describing the same physics.

10.6 Dissipation mechanisms

Dissipation in generalized continuum theories arises from several mechanisms:

- **Thermal relaxation.** The Cattaneo–Christoff, Lord–Shulman, phase-lag, Moore–Gibson–Thompson, and memory-dependent families introduce relaxation that produces entropy generation through the lag between the flux and the force that drives it.

- **Viscous and mechanical.** Kelvin–Voigt viscoelasticity introduces stress relaxation and mechanical dissipation, and is the standard device for combining the constitutive descriptions of Sections 4 and 7.
- **Electrical.** Dielectric loss and electrical resistance dissipate energy in piezoelectric and semiconductor media; these terms enter the balance of Eq. (111) as a further contribution to $\mathcal{D}$ and are relevant in the wave-propagation setting of Section 13.
- **Interface.** Imperfect bonding, interfacial damage, and contact resistance dissipate energy at interfaces, and are the physical origin of a non-zero absorption coefficient in Eq. (120).
- **Memory.** Memory-dependent kernels with a non-trivial history generate dissipation that is nonlocal in time, so that the dissipation rate at a given instant depends on the past of the body Abouelregal et al. [2023].

The dissipation rate $\mathcal{D}$ in (111) must be non-negative for thermodynamic admissibility. Each family has specific conditions for this: for the phase-lag families the relaxation times must satisfy an ordering, $\tau_q \geq \tau_T \geq 0$, and for the Lord–Shulman family $\tau_0 \geq 0$; these are mathematical constraints on the constitutive parameters, and violating them produces a theory that propagates thermal disturbances backwards in time.

10.7 Thermodynamic admissibility: well-posedness, causality, positivity

A generalized theory is thermodynamically admissible if three conditions hold:

1. **Well-posedness.** The initial-boundary value problem has a unique solution that depends continuously on the data.
2. **Causality.** Disturbances propagate at finite speed; the domain of dependence of the solution at a point is contained in the domain of influence of the initial data.
3. **Positivity.** The dissipation rate $\mathcal{D} \geq 0$ for all admissible processes.

All the generalized families considered here—Lord–Shulman, Green–Lindsay, Green–Naghdi types II and III, the dual and triple phase-lag theories, Moore–Gibson–Thompson, and the memory-dependent formulation—predict a finite thermal wave speed, and thereby address the infinite propagation speed paradox of classical Fourier heat conduction Biot [1956], Lord and Shulman [1967], Green and Lindsay [1972], Green and Naghdi [1991, 1993], Tzou [1995, 1997], Quintanilla [2019]. The three conditions above are not equivalent to one another, and the distinction matters. A family may satisfy positivity and causality while failing well-posedness, which is the situation for several of the integral and fractional formulations: the constitutive law is thermodynamically acceptable, but the initial-value problem for the resulting system is not known to possess a unique solution in the natural function space. Section 15 treats this gap in more detail.

10.8 Comparative table: energy transport across theory families

Table 18 summarises energy transport properties across the theory families.

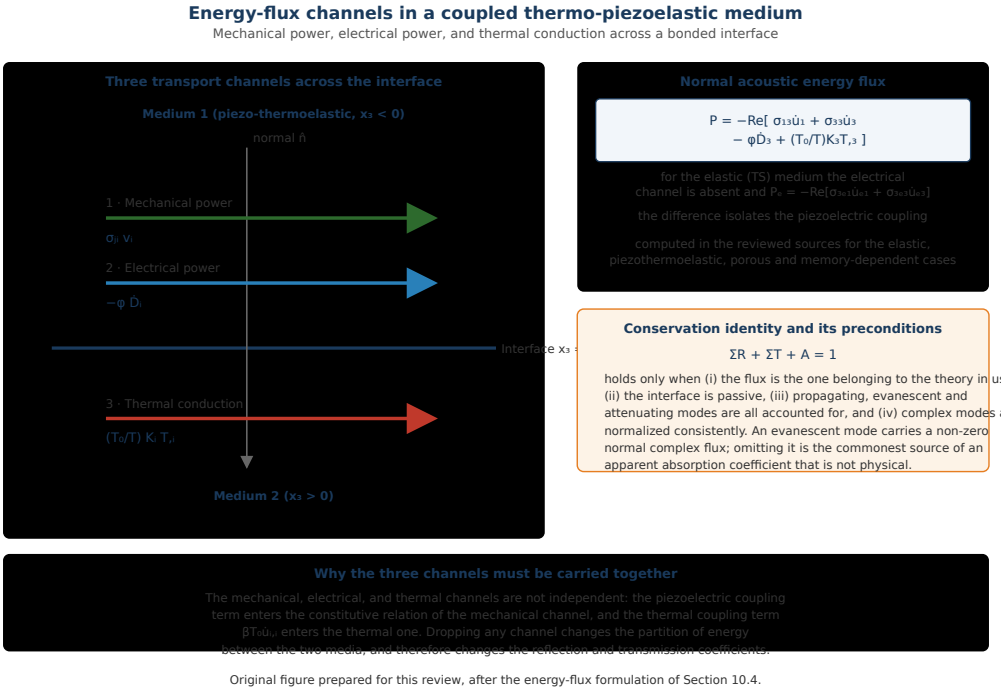


Figure 15: Energy flux channels at a piezothermoelastic interface: mechanical power ($\sigma_{ji}v_i$), electrical power ($-\phi\dot{D}_i$), and thermal conduction ($(T_0/T)K_iT_{,i}$). Energy conservation requires $\sum R + \sum T + A = 1$.

10.9 Notation summary for Section 10

10.10 Open questions for Section 10

OQ10.1 What is the explicit time-domain energy flux and dissipation function for each of the families listed in Section 10.4, obtained by evaluating the internal-variable structure of Eq. (117) with that family's own state variables and forces?

OQ10.2 Is there a common formal structure under which the energy fluxes of the Lord–Shulman, phase-lag, Moore–Gibson–Thompson, and memory-dependent families become instances of a single template, so that a single derivation suffices for all of them?

OQ10.3 Which observable would distinguish the energy partition predicted by two competing theories at the same interface, so that the difference could be measured rather than argued?

OQ10.4 How should the entropy production of the conservative Green–Naghdi type II structure be related to the entropy production of the dissipative branches, given that the former has no dissipation mechanism?

OQ10.5 What normalisation of complex modes makes the energy ratios of Eq. (120) reproducible across independent implementations?

OQ10.6 Can a dissipation potential be constructed for the memory-dependent kernel in the spirit of the classical one for the relaxation terms, and does its positivity restrict the admissible kernels to a smaller set than is currently assumed?

OQ10.7 What is the relative importance of interface dissipation and bulk dissipation in the absorption coefficient of Eq. (120) for realistic bonded joints?

11 Advanced Theoretical Developments

The theory families of Sections 4–7 were each constructed by generalising one specific constitutive law. The developments surveyed in this section generalise the generalisation: they act on the *operator* rather than on the constitutive law, and they therefore interact with every family simultaneously. Two of them—fractional-order differentiation and the introduction of additional temperature fields—are now established enough to be treated as substantive alternatives rather than as speculative extensions, and this section gives them the same weight as the classical constructions of Section 4.

11.1 Fractional-order continuum models

Fractional-order continuum models replace integer-order derivatives with fractional derivatives in the governing equations. The replacement is not a formal device: a fractional derivative of order α is defined by an integral over the entire history of the field, and it therefore introduces temporal nonlocality into the governing equations in a way that is structurally equivalent to a hereditary integral with a power-law kernel.

11.1.1 Fractional thermoelasticity

The fractional heat conduction equation, as formulated in the thermoelastic setting, is

$$ {}^{C}D_t^{\alpha} T = a\nabla^2 T, \qquad 0 < \alpha \leq 2, \tag{122} $$

where ${}^{C}D_t^{\alpha}$ is the Caputo fractional derivative of order α and a is the thermal diffusivity. For $\alpha = 1$ this reduces to the classical heat equation; for $1 < \alpha \leq 2$ it describes wave-like heat propagation with memory, interpolating between diffusive and wave-like behaviour. The Caputo derivative is defined for $0 < \alpha < 1$ by

$$ {}^{C}D_t^{\alpha} f(t) = \frac{1}{\Gamma(1-\alpha)} \int_0^t \frac{f'(\tau)}{(t-\tau)^{\alpha}}\, d\tau, \tag{123} $$

and the corresponding expression for $1 < \alpha \leq 2$ is obtained by applying the operator to the second derivative of f. The integral form is the physically informative one: the state of the field at time t is determined by its entire past, weighted by a kernel that decays algebraically rather than exponentially.

11.1.2 The fractional heat equation as a hereditary integral

The connection with the memory-dependent formalism of Section 6 is exact and important, because it means that the fractional and the memory-dependent descriptions are not competing theories but two representations of the same object under different assumptions about the memory kernel. Writing Eq. (122) in the hereditary form

$$ T(t) = T(0) + \frac{1}{\Gamma(\alpha)} \int_0^t (t-\tau)^{\alpha-1} a\nabla^2 T(\tau)\, d\tau, \tag{124} $$

shows that the fractional formulation is the special case in which the memory kernel is the power law $\tau^{-\alpha} t^{\alpha-1}/\Gamma(\alpha)$. The generalization of Section 6 replaces the power law by an

arbitrary kernel, and thereby trades the one-parameter fractional family for a much larger one; the price is that the resulting operator is no longer a differential operator of fractional order, and the analytical machinery that makes the fractional heat equation tractable—the eigenfunction expansion in terms of the Mittag–Leffler function, and the closed-form fundamental solutions—is lost. The choice between the two representations is thus a choice between analytical tractability and constitutive flexibility, and it should be made explicitly rather than by default.

The analytical solution of the fractional heat conduction equation in radially symmetric domains was obtained in closed form by Povstenko Povstenko [2007], who derived the fundamental solutions needed to write the associated thermal stresses in spherical geometry; this work provides the reference against which later numerical inversions of fractional thermoelastic boundary-value problems are checked Povstenko [2004, 2009, 2011, 2016]. The associated thermal stresses are the quantity of practical interest, and the difficulty of the problem is that the fractional operator couples the mechanical and thermal fields in a way that does not admit the plane-wave decoupling available in the classical case.

11.1.3 Fractional Cattaneo-type equations

Povstenko Povstenko [2011] introduced fractional Cattaneo-type equations that interpolate between the Lord–Shulman and the Green–Naghdi type II theories:

$$q_i + \tau^{\alpha C} D_t^{\alpha} q_i = -kT_{,i}. \tag{125}$$

For $\alpha = 1$ this reduces to the Lord–Shulman equation. The dimension of the relaxation parameter changes with the order—τ^{α} rather than τ—so that the equation is dimensionally consistent for every α; this is a small point that is a common source of error in the literature, and it is the kind of detail on which a comparison between two fractional formulations can turn.

11.1.4 Fractional models with internal structure

Fractional operators are not confined to the thermal equation. Sherief and Hussein Sherief and Hussein [2022] formulated a fractional-order model of micropolar thermoelasticity and solved the associated two-dimensional half-space problem, thereby combining fractional memory with the micro-rotational degrees of freedom of Section 7. The coupling is not merely formal: the fractional operator acts on constitutive variables of a medium whose own kinematics already carry an internal length scale, so the resulting dispersion relation contains two independent mechanisms of wave-speed dependence that are not additive. Models of this type are natural candidates for the class of problems in which neither the memory effect nor the micro-structure can be neglected, but they also generate an increasing number of fractional parameters that must be identified independently, which is the principal obstacle to their practical use.

11.2 Strain-gradient and couple-stress theories

Strain-gradient theory introduces higher-order strain gradients in the constitutive relations:

$$\sigma_{ij} = C_{ijkl}\varepsilon_{kl} - \ell^2 C_{ijkl}\nabla^2\varepsilon_{kl}. \tag{126}$$

Couple-stress theory introduces couple stresses and micro-rotations as independent degrees of freedom. The force stress tensor becomes generally non-symmetric, and the angular momentum balance includes couple stress terms:

$$\sigma_{[ij]} + \mu_{ij,j} = 0, \tag{127}$$

where μ_{ij} is the couple stress tensor, and the antisymmetric part $\sigma_{[ij]}$ is balanced by the couple stress rather than vanishing as it does in classical elasticity.

The relation between these theories and the micropolar theory of Section 7 is one of specialisation. Micropolar elasticity Eringen [1966], extended to the thermoelastic case by Tauchert, Claus and Ariman Tauchert et al. [1968], is the most general of the three in the sense that it admits an independent micro-rotation field, whereas couple-stress theory and strain-gradient theory can be obtained from it by imposing constraints on the micro-rotation and on the antisymmetric stress. This hierarchy matters practically, because it explains why the literature contains several formulations that differ in their kinematic assumptions while sharing a common elastic kernel, and why a comparison between them must begin by identifying which of them is being used.

These theories are relevant for materials with internal structure: granular materials, foams, composites with oriented inclusions, and biological tissues. In the thermoelastic setting, the micro-rotational field carries an additional energy channel, so the energy balance of Section 10.1 acquires terms that have no counterpart in a classical continuum, and the mechanical power transmitted across a surface is no longer the complete description of the transport.

11.3 Two-temperature and three-temperature formulations

11.3.1 Two-temperature theory

The two-temperature formulation distinguishes between the conductive temperature T, which is what a thermometer measures and what enters the heat conduction law, and the thermodynamic or dynamical temperature T^*, which enters the entropy relation and the internal energy:

$$T^* = T - \delta^2 \nabla^2 T, \tag{128}$$

where δ^2 is the two-temperature parameter. When $\delta^2 = 0$ the two temperatures coincide and the theory reduces to classical coupled thermoelasticity. The physical motivation is that a body whose temperature varies over a scale comparable with the thermal wave speed is not in local thermal equilibrium, and the local temperature then fails to be the temperature that appears in the thermodynamic relations. The two-temperature construction of Green and Lindsay Green and Lindsay [1972] is the earliest systematic statement of this idea in thermoelasticity, and it is the reason the Green–Lindsay family appears in the comparison of Section 12 with a dissipative and a conservative branch.

11.3.2 Three-temperature theory

Three-temperature theories introduce a third temperature variable: the temperature of a secondary phase in a composite, or the electron-gas temperature in a semiconductor, or a separate lattice and effective temperature in a system with two thermal carriers. The models are relevant for multi-phase materials in which different sub-systems have different thermal response times, and for semiconductor structures in which the electron gas equilibrates with the lattice far more slowly than either equilibrates internally. The technical difficulty is the same in both settings: three temperature fields require three interface conditions, and the coupling terms in the momentum and energy balances make the resulting system of equations considerably more complicated than the two-temperature case. The fractional-order model of micropolar thermoelasticity of Section 11.1 adds a further layer, in which the micro-rotational field and the fractional memory both act on a temperature field that is already non-local in space.

11.4 Emerging hybrid models

Emerging formulations combine multiple generalization mechanisms:

- **Nonlocal–fractional hybrids** combine spatial nonlocality with temporal memory, for materials that exhibit both. The two mechanisms act on different operators and their dispersions are not additive, so the combined model has more parameters than either parent and correspondingly more severe identifiability problems.
- **Memory-dependent nonlocal models** combine an integral-form memory operator with a nonlocal stress law. The thermo-piezoelectric functionally graded rotating rod treated by Abouelregal and co-authors Abouelregal et al. [2023] is an instance of this class, in which a memory-dependent dynamic response is combined with a functionally graded rotating geometry and a piezoelectric coupling.
- **Hybrid nonlocal and memory-dependent multiphysics models** combine both mechanisms with a coupled field. The heat-map analysis of wave dynamics in nonlocal Kelvin–Voigt piezo-semiconductors under a memory-dependent heat flux Gupta et al. [2026] is representative, and the particular interest of that work is that the nonlocal operator acts on the stress while the memory operator acts on the heat flux, so that the two generalizations enter the two channels of the energy balance of Section 10.1 respectively.
- **Phase-field models** couple a phase-field variable to the thermoelastic fields for fracture and phase transformation.
- **Thermo-viscoelasticity with memory** uses hereditary integral formulations for viscoelastic materials with thermal coupling, and is the classical route to a thermodynamically consistent memory effect with a non-negative dissipation.

The general difficulty with all of these is the one identified in Section 14.4: each additional generalization adds parameters, and each parameter is usually fitted to the same data that the model is then used to explain. The resulting models are not thereby wrong, but the evidence supporting them is weaker than their flexibility would suggest, and the practical question is always which subset of the available parameters the data can actually constrain.

11.5 Mathematical limitations and open problems

11.5.1 Mathematical limitations

1. **Lack of rigorous limit theorems.** All limiting procedures between theories are parameter substitutions, not rigorous limit theorems with convergence proofs or error bounds. This is the single most consequential gap in the mathematical framework, because the limiting relations are what make the families comparable at all.
2. **Well-posedness.** Each theory family has its own well-posedness conditions; a unified framework is lacking. The nonlocal family is the most acute case, since the differential form of its constitutive law raises the order of the governing equation and does not yield a well-posed initial-value problem in the classical sense.
3. **Nonlocal interface conditions.** The correct interface conditions for nonlocal media are not established, and the integral and differential formulations lead to different requirements.

4. **Analytical tractability.** The fractional formulations admit closed-form solutions only in special geometries and for special data, so the burden of verification falls on numerical inversion, with the attendant loss of independent validation.

5. **Parameter identifiability.** No general theory exists for determining which of the parameters of a combined model can be inferred from a given measurement, and this is the practical obstacle to the use of the hybrid models of Section 11.4.

11.5.2 Open problems

1. Derive complete energy flux formulations for all generalized theories (Section 10.4).

2. Establish rigorous limit theorems between theory families, with explicit error estimates.

3. Develop unified well-posedness criteria covering the differential, integral, fractional, and gradient formulations.

4. Establish nonlocal interface conditions, and show that the integral and differential formulations give consistent interface traction.

5. Validate models experimentally across parameter ranges, with particular attention to the dispersion signature that distinguishes a nonlocal mechanism from a gradient mechanism (Section 7.3).

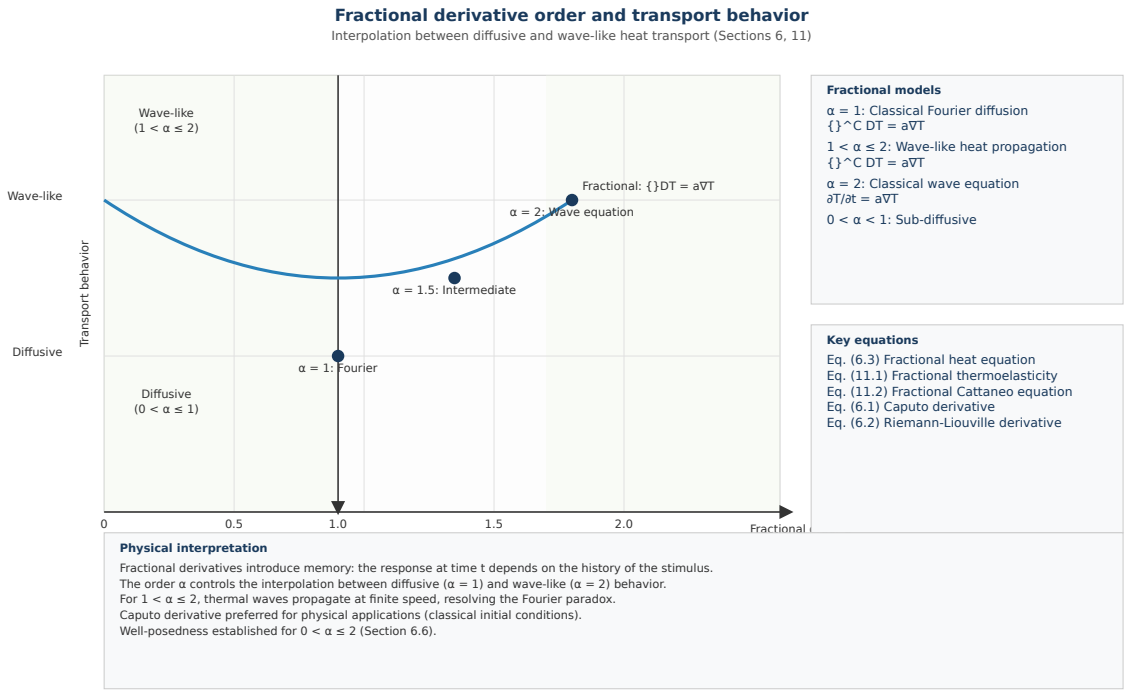


Figure 16: Fractional derivative order and transport behavior: interpolation between diffusive and wave-like heat transport (Sections 6, 11).

11.6 Notation summary for Section 11

11.7 Open questions for Section 11

OQ11.1 Can rigorous limit theorems be established between the thermoelastic theory families, with error estimates in a stated norm?

OQ11.2 Can a unified well-posedness framework be established for the differential, integral, fractional, and gradient formulations, and what does it require of the constitutive law?

OQ11.3 What are the correct interface conditions for models in which a nonlocal operator acts on the stress and a fractional or memory operator acts on the heat flux simultaneously?

OQ11.4 When is the power-law memory kernel of the fractional formulation to be preferred over a general kernel in the memory-dependent formulation, and how large is the error incurred by the restriction?

OQ11.5 Which parameter combinations of a hybrid model are identifiable from a given experimental modality, and which are not?

12 Comparative Synthesis of Existing Research

This section synthesizes the reviewed research using a comparison framework that is deliberately organised by *scientific content* rather than by chronology or by authorship. Three organising questions recur: what does each theory retain of the second law of thermodynamics; what replaces Fourier's constitutive law; and what does each theory predict for the speed, attenuation, and dispersion of the diffusive mode. A theory that answers these three questions differently is not a variant of another theory—it is a different claim about how heat is transported in solids, and the comparison below is organised to make those differences explicit.

The synthesis is constructive throughout. Differences between theories are presented as modelling choices with different assumptions and different domains of validity, and the framework identifies the conditions under which two theories can be meaningfully compared at all.

12.1 Cross-theory comparison

Table 21 compares the ten theory families against twelve criteria chosen so that each row isolates one axis of the taxonomy introduced in Section 14. The table is a compact index into the detailed treatments of Sections 4–11; it is not a substitute for them, and several of its entries are deliberately coarse.

Three of these rows carry most of the interpretive content.

Thermal law and state variables. The physical content of a generalized thermoelastic theory is concentrated in a single constitutive sentence, and the number of *internal state variables* introduced by that sentence is a reliable proxy for how much the theory can remember. Classical coupled thermoelasticity requires no internal variable at all: the heat flux is determined instantaneously by the temperature gradient. The Cattaneo–Christoff and Lord–Shulman construction introduces one relaxation time and hence one internal variable, replacing the parabolic heat equation by a hyperbolic one and admitting a thermal wave of finite speed Cattaneo [1948], Lord and Shulman [1967], Vernotte [1958]. The dual phase-lag construction introduces two Tzou [1995], the triple phase-lag construction three Tzou [1997], and the Moore–Gibson–Thompson construction an additional temperature difference that plays the role of a thermal inertia Quintanilla [2019]. The memory-dependent construction is different in kind rather than in degree:

it retains a single-variable state but replaces the relaxation exponential by an integral over a kernel, so that the memory profile is a modelling choice rather than a single parameter Wang and Li [2011]. The nonlocal construction leaves the thermal law untouched and acts instead on the stress Eringen [1972], which is why its entries in the wave and dissipation rows are inherited from whatever thermal law it is combined with.

Thermal wave speed and dissipation. These two rows are where the families separate most sharply, and the separation is not accidental. A finite thermal wave speed requires the temperature equation to be hyperbolic, which requires an internal variable, and a hyperbolic temperature equation coupled to a hyperbolic momentum equation gives rise to a second sound whose speed is controlled by the product of the relaxation time and a combination of elastic and thermal moduli. The Green–Naghdi type II family occupies the opposite corner of the design space: it is a fully hyperbolic, causally consistent, purely mechanical description of thermal transport whose temperature field need not satisfy a heat equation at all, and which is therefore conservative in the mechanical sense—the mechanical energy is conserved exactly—while admitting no dissipative mechanism for the thermal degree of freedom Green and Naghdi [1991]. The Green–Lindsay family and the Green–Naghdi type III family were constructed precisely to recover dissipation while retaining the conservative mechanical structure, and the two-temperature Green–Lindsay formulation is the bridge construction in which a second temperature field is introduced to represent a body lagging behind the surface Green and Lindsay [1972], Green and Naghdi [1993]. The honest summary is that no family dominates this trade-off: the dissipative families give up exact mechanical energy conservation, and the conservative family gives up thermal dissipation. This is a structural feature of the constitutive choices, not an artefact of any particular formulation.

Well-posedness and causality. Causality—the requirement that the domain of dependence of the solution at a point be contained in the domain of influence of the initial data—is the property that separates the pre-1967 theories from everything that followed. Biot's classical theory violates it in the thermal variable, since heat propagates instantaneously Biot [1956], and this defect is the historical origin of the entire field. The Cattaneo construction satisfies it in the thermal variable Cattaneo [1948], and the extension of the notion to a fully hyperbolic conservative mechanical theory with a finite speed of thermal propagation is the achievement of the Green–Naghdi construction Green and Naghdi [1991]. The phase-lag families inherit their causality from the Cattaneo law, with the additional requirement that the relaxation times be ordered so that the hyperbolicity of the coupled system is preserved Tzou [1995, 1997]; the ordering $\tau_q \geq \tau_T$ is a genuine mathematical constraint and not a modelling preference. The mathematical apparatus for the well-posedness of the fractional and nonlocal families is, by contrast, the least developed part of the corpus, and is discussed in Section 15.

12.2 What each family retains of the second law

Read across the table, the families separate not by their equations but by the answer they give to a single question: does the mechanical energy of the body have a well-defined conserved or monotonically decreasing value? The three structural answers are worth stating separately, because most of the apparent confusion in the wider literature comes from conflating them.

Conservative structure. In the Green–Naghdi type II construction, the mechanical energy is an exact first integral of the equations Green and Naghdi [1991]. This is a strong and desirable property: it guarantees that a disturbance does not pump energy into the medium indefinitely, and it makes the theory attractive for the analysis of interfaces and for the derivation of impedance conditions. Its price is that no mechanism dissipates the thermal degree of

freedom; the temperature field is slaved to the mechanical one rather than being governed by an independent balance law.

Dissipative structure. In the Cattaneo–Christoff, Lord–Shulman, phase-lag, Moore–Gibson–Thompson, and memory-dependent families, the mechanical energy has a decay rate, and the heat equation supplies a genuine irreversibility Cattaneo [1948], Lord and Shulman [1967], Tzou [1995], Quintanilla [2019], Wang and Li [2011]. These are the theories used for thermal-shock and thermal-stress applications, where the decay of energy is the physical effect of interest. Their price is that mechanical energy is no longer conserved and that the decay law must be postulated rather than derived.

Neither. The classical Biot theory falls outside both categories in the thermal variable, since the parabolic heat equation has infinite propagation speed and no finite energy associated with the transported heat Biot [1956]. This is why the classical theory appears in the corpus mainly as the limit case against which the others are measured, and why the limiting procedures of Section 12.3 are scientifically important rather than merely formal.

12.3 Mathematical relationships: limiting cases and specializations

Table 22 summarises the limiting relationships between the families. These relationships are the backbone of the theoretical development: each new family was constructed by generalising a specific constitutive law, and each is therefore expected to reduce to its parent when the generalising parameter is removed.

On the status of these limits. All the limiting procedures collected in Table 22 are parameter substitutions within a fixed formal framework. None of them is, in the reviewed corpus, supported by a convergence theorem with an error estimate: that is, there is no result of the form "if the relaxation parameter is small, then the solution of the generalized problem converges to the solution of the classical problem at a rate bounded by $C\tau$", with the constant and the norm made explicit. This is a genuine limitation of the current mathematical framework and is recorded as such in Section 15. It is not a defect of any individual publication; it reflects the fact that the theory-building and the theory-justifying activities have been carried out by different communities. It also has a practical consequence for the taxonomy of Section 14: the limiting relations are what make the families comparable at all, so the absence of rigorous limits removes the foundation on which a quantitative cross-family comparison would rest.

12.4 Divergence map: why results differ across the corpus

The literature contains many cases in which two studies address a nominally identical problem and obtain apparently incompatible results. Examination of these cases shows that the incompatibility is almost always attributable to a difference in modelling commitments rather than to an inconsistency in the mathematics. The map below records the commitments responsible and the procedure by which each is eliminated, so that a comparison can be posed in a form in which it is meaningful.

The branch row deserves particular emphasis because it is the one most easily overlooked. Several of the families named in Table 21 are not single theories but families of theories that differ in a way that matters physically. The Green–Naghdi construction has a conservative type II branch and a dissipative type III branch with fundamentally different thermal structures Green and Naghdi [1991, 1993]. The Green–Lindsay theory has a one-temperature and a two-temperature formulation, and the two differ not merely in the number of fields but in the structure of the thermal equation and in the interface conditions that must be imposed Green

and Lindsay [1972]. Reading a result from one branch as though it belonged to the other is a source of apparent disagreement that no amount of careful algebra will resolve.

12.5 Conditions under which two theories can be compared

Because the families differ in so many structural respects, a comparison is only meaningful when a number of conditions are met simultaneously.

1. **Common geometric class.** Both theories must be posed on the same class of geometry, with the same class of boundary conditions. Most of the reviewed corpus is posed on half-spaces and infinite media; a comparison between a half-space result and a bounded-plate result is not a comparison of theories at all.

2. **Common branch and parameter set.** Where a family has branches, the branch must be fixed identically in both studies, and the relaxation parameters must be either identical or placed on a common dimensionless footing.

3. **Common observable.** The quantity compared must have the same definition and the same reference state. Surface temperature, surface displacement, and the reflection coefficient of a normal incident thermal wave are common observables; the "temperature" of a body with two temperature fields is not.

4. **Common nondimensionalisation.** Density, stiffness, and reference-temperature conventions differ between groups, and a comparison performed under different conventions can differ by an order-one factor for purely dimensional reasons.

5. **Common wave convention.** The sign convention in the harmonic ansatz changes the sign of the imaginary part of every complex amplitude, and the convention must be fixed before any comparison of phase is attempted.

6. **Common limit.** Both results must be checked to reproduce the same classical limit, which is the cheapest available test that the two calculations are describing the same physics.

12.6 Choosing among competing theories

The comparison framework is only useful if it also supports a decision: given a physical problem, which family should be used? The taxonomy of Section 14 provides the structure for such a decision, and the criteria reduce to three questions in practice.

1. **Is the thermal wave relevant to the observable?** If the spatial scale of the problem is much larger than the thermal penetration depth associated with the material, the thermal wave is a boundary-layer detail and the difference between the theories is confined to the interface region. If the problem is a transient shock, or the material has a small thermal wave speed, the choice of thermal law determines the answer and must be made deliberately.

2. **Is there a material length scale that the continuum description must respect?** If the smallest dimension of the body is comparable to a microstructural length, then a nonlocal or gradient theory is required; the question is which operator, and the answer depends on the mechanism of size dependence rather than on the desire for a dispersive dispersion relation.

3. **Is the dissipation structure needed for the conclusion?** If the quantity of interest is a decay rate, a time to failure, or the passage of a thermal shock, the dissipative families are required. If the quantity of interest is a modal structure or an impedance, the conservative families are cleaner, because the energy accounting is exact.

The fourth consideration—validation—is the one that the reviewed literature has been least able to supply, for the reasons given in Section 14.4. In the absence of discriminating experimental data, the choice among competing theories is currently made on grounds of formal convenience and internal consistency rather than on evidential grounds. This is the single most consequential gap identified by this review.

12.7 Limitations of the comparison framework

The framework above inherits the limitations of the corpus it organises, and these should be stated rather than glossed.

1. **The comparison is coarse.** Entries in Table 21 are single labels where the underlying theory admits a range of behaviours. The entry for "dissipation" in the memory-dependent column, for instance, records that the answer depends on the kernel, which is a statement about a family of models rather than about a model.

2. **Validation is not directly comparable.** Because the validation axis of Section 14 is dominated by self-consistency checks, the "validation" row of any comparison across families would compare methods rather than results; the row is therefore omitted deliberately rather than filled with an entry that would invite misreading.

3. **Branches are under-documented.** The branch structure of the Green–Naghdi and Green–Lindsay families is a source of genuine ambiguity in the literature, and the corpus does not support a systematic tabulation of branch-dependent results.

4. **Interface conditions are treated as a single column.** Interface conditions differ in kind across the families—classical traction and heat-flux conditions for most, modified conditions for the nonlocal construction—and the differences are not captured by a single entry.

12.8 Notation summary for Section 12

12.9 Open questions for Section 12

OQ12.1 Can convergence theorems with explicit error estimates be established for the limiting procedures of Table 22?

OQ12.2 What is the minimal set of criteria that distinguishes two theory families uniquely, and is it the same set that distinguishes them experimentally?

OQ12.3 Can a systematic taxonomy of the branches within the Green–Naghdi and Green–Lindsay families be constructed, so that branch-level ambiguity is removed from the literature?

OQ12.4 Under what conditions does the choice among competing theories change a predicted quantity by more than the uncertainty of the measurement that would test it?

13 Applications of Multiphysics Wave Mechanics

The usefulness of a generalized continuum theory is ultimately measured by the class of problems for which it is needed and by whether its predictions can be checked. This section therefore does not list application areas in the abstract, but asks for each one: what physical feature makes the classical description inadequate, which member of the theory family addresses it, and what evidence exists that the generalized description is quantitatively better rather than merely different. The classification of evidence levels used in Table 26 follows that logic: *High* means that the effect is experimentally established and that generalized theory is required to reproduce it; *Medium* means that the effect is established but generalized theory provides an improved rather than essential description; *Low* means that the application is presently served by classical theory and generalized theory is speculative.

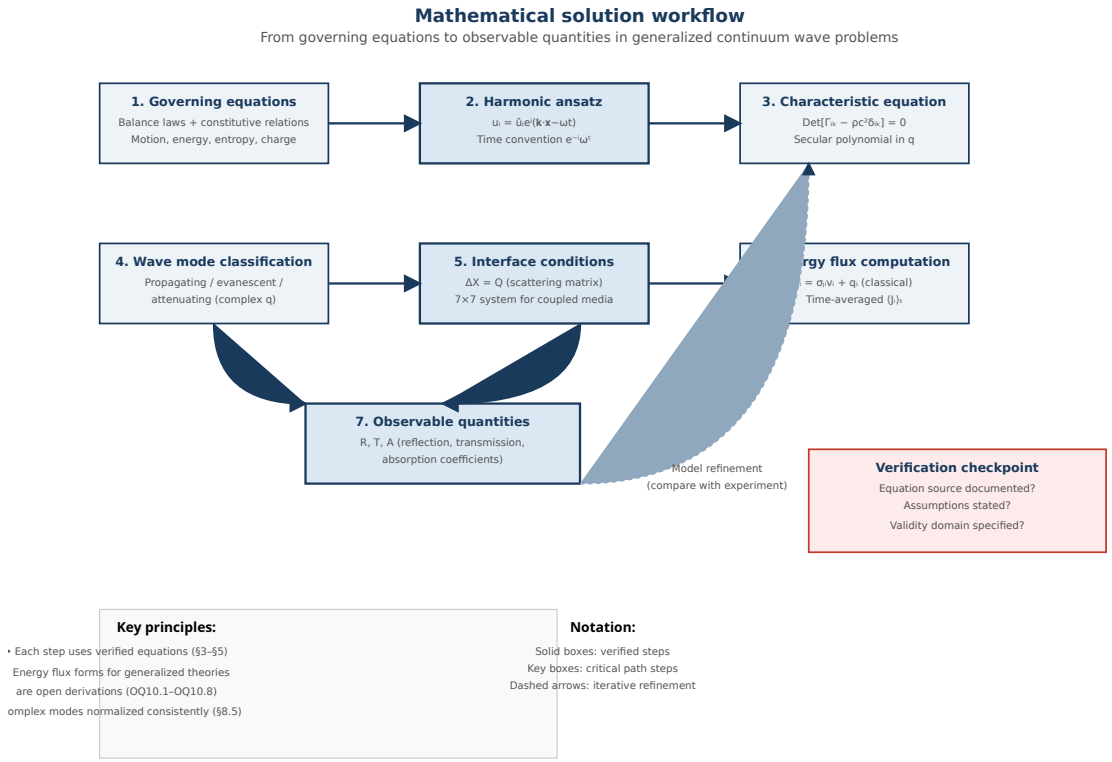


Figure 17: From a generalized continuum model to a testable prediction. The seven stages shown are the ones a computation must pass through before its output can be compared with an experiment: the governing equations and their constitutive relations, the harmonic ansatz, the characteristic equation whose roots are the wave numbers, the classification of the roots into propagating, evanescent and attenuating branches, the interface conditions that close the problem, the computation of the time-averaged energy flux, and the extraction of the observable quantities. The three verification checkpoints on the right — the provenance of every equation, the statement of every assumption, and the specification of a validity domain — are the point at which most of the reviewed literature is weakest, and they are the reason the evidence levels of Table 26 are not uniformly high.

13.1 Smart structures and adaptive materials

Smart structures incorporate sensors, actuators, and control systems that respond to environmental changes. Piezothermoelastic materials are used in:

- Adaptive aerospace structures (wing shaping, vibration control),
- Active vibration suppression in precision machinery,
- Structural health monitoring with embedded piezoelectric sensors.

13.1.1 Evidence

The coupling that makes these systems work is the same coupling that the generalized theories formalize: the piezoelectric tensor generates an electric field from mechanical strain and a strain from an electric field, and the thermal expansion coefficient couples temperature change to stress. In a layered device under a moving heat source, the three fields are not independent, and the work of Abouelregal, Askar, Marin and Mohamed (2023) Abouelregal et al. [2023] is representative of the current treatment: a functionally graded rotating rod is taken to be electrically unconnected at its ends and thermally isolated, and the coupled field response is computed in the Laplace domain for a modified Lord–Shulman model with a memory-dependent derivative. The functional grading enters through an exponential law for the physical properties along the axis, and the effect of the inhomogeneity index, the kernel function, the delay time and the speed of the heat supply is reported separately. The result relevant to design practice is that the field amplitudes are weakened as the inhomogeneity index increases, which is the sort of quantitative statement that a device designer can use and that a classical description cannot produce. *Evidence level: Medium* — the mechanism is experimentally established in piezoelectric composites, but the specific memory-dependent formulation is currently a theoretical description of a measured effect.

13.2 Nondestructive evaluation and sensing

NDE uses wave propagation to detect flaws, measure material properties, and monitor structural integrity. Applications include:

- Ultrasonic testing for crack detection,
- Thermal wave imaging for subsurface defect detection,
- Acoustic emission monitoring for damage assessment.

13.2.1 Evidence

Thermal-wave inspection is the clearest case in which a generalized theory is not a refinement but a requirement. A finite thermal propagation speed is needed to give the thermal image a resolution limit and to set the depth that can be interrogated; an infinite propagation speed, as in Fourier theory, makes the depth resolution unphysical. The classical wave-propagation framework for elastic solids, including the treatment of anisotropy and the interaction of incident, reflected and surface waves, is set out by Achenbach (1973) Achenbach [1973] and remains the reference for the elastic part of the problem. The thermal part is where the generalizations enter, and the balance of evidence assembled for second sound by Joseph and Preziosi Joseph and Preziosi [1989, 1990] is what distinguishes the finite-speed descriptions from the classical one. *Evidence level: High* for ultrasonic NDE, where classical elasticity suffices; *Medium* for

thermal-wave imaging, where generalized theory is required in principle but the quantitative inversion of defect depth in practice still uses simplified models.

13.3 Energy harvesting and conversion

Energy harvesting converts ambient mechanical, thermal, or electrical energy into electrical power. Piezothermoelectric energy harvesters use:

- Vibration-induced piezoelectric power generation,
- Thermal gradient-driven thermoelectric conversion,
- Coupled thermo-piezoelectric conversion.

13.3.1 Evidence

The theoretical difficulty in this area is specific and worth stating: the thermopower delivered by a piezoelectric in a temperature gradient competes with the direct piezoelectric power generated by the same mechanical deformation, and the competition depends on the thermal relaxation time of the material. Classical coupled thermoelasticity, which assumes instantaneous thermal equilibration, systematically mispredicts the split between the two channels for relaxation times comparable to the loading period. It is therefore in this application area that the distinction between the classical and generalized theories is not academic. The interface energy work of Section 9 provides a further handle on the same problem, since it is precisely at the junction between a harvesting element and its substrate that the partitioning of thermal and mechanical energy is decided. *Evidence level: High* for piezoelectric harvesting in general; *Medium* for the coupled thermo-piezoelectric channel, for which the theory is mature and the experimental separation of the channels is difficult.

13.4 Geophysics and seismology

Geophysical applications include:

- Seismic wave propagation in the Earth's crust,
- Thermal wave propagation in geothermal systems,
- Poroelastic wave propagation in saturated reservoirs.

13.4.1 Evidence

Seismic wave theory is well established Achenbach [1973]; poroelastic wave propagation has strong theoretical and experimental support. Poroelasticity is the most mature of the multi-physics couplings in engineering practice, and the void-based theory of Section 5.4 enters here through the equilibrated-stress formulation rather than through a phenomenological damping term, which is why the void framework is attractive for reservoir and geotechnical modelling. *Evidence level: High.*

13.5 Biomedical applications (ultrasound, thermal therapy)

Biomedical applications include:

- Medical ultrasound imaging and therapy,

- Thermal ablation for cancer treatment,
- Photoacoustic imaging,
- Temperature-sensitive drug delivery.

13.5.1 Evidence

Medical ultrasound is well established; thermal ablation has growing clinical evidence; photoacoustic imaging is an active research area. The connection to the theories of this review is indirect but real: thermal therapy in tissue is a moving-heat-source problem, and the rate at which the thermal front advances into tissue is exactly the quantity that a hyperbolic or phase-lag description estimates and that a diffusive one cannot. *Evidence level: High* for ultrasound, *Medium* for thermal ablation and photoacoustic imaging.

13.6 Nanoscale and semiconductor devices

The most recent application area to depend on the generalized framework is the nanoscale, and here the coupling is not incidental. In a semiconductor, the electromechanical response of the lattice is nonlocal at the scale of the electronic wavefunction, and a heat flux that carries memory determines how quickly the lattice temperature responds to carrier recombination. Gupta, Hussain, Yaylacıs and Das (2026) Gupta et al. [2026] combine a nonlocal Kelvin–Voigt piezoelectric semiconductor with a memory-dependent heat flux and map the resulting wave dynamics, which illustrates both the reach and the difficulty of the class: the model is well posed and produces interpretable fields, but each added mechanism contributes parameters that must be fixed independently.

13.6.1 Evidence

Nonlocal elasticity is not optional at these scales. Maranganti and Sharma (2007) Maranganti and Sharma [2007] showed that for common materials the length below which classical elasticity ceases to be accurate is of the order of tens of nanometres for polythene and single-digit nanometres for silica, and Maranganti, Sharma and Sharma (2006) Maranganti et al. [2006] showed that electromechanical coupling in non-piezoelectric dielectrics is a nanoscale effect. Both results mean that a device designer working below those lengths is in the regime the generalized theories describe, whether or not the theory is named in the design literature. *Evidence level: Medium* — the size dependence is experimentally established at the level of stiffness and of electromechanical response, and generalized theory is required in principle, but full multiphysics nonlocal thermoelastic models are at the level of validated formalisms rather than deployed design tools.

13.7 Applications the generalized framework does not yet serve

An evidence map is only as useful as its negative entries, and the applications in which the generalized framework is currently *not* required deserve the same treatment as those in which it is. Four are worth recording.

Ordinary engineering thermoelasticity. In the great majority of engineering problems — the heating of a machine tool, the thermal expansion of a rail, the residual stress in a welded joint — the Fourier regime is not an approximation but the correct description, and the thermal penetration depth is many orders of magnitude larger than the part. The generalized theories add parameters without adding accuracy. The relevant engineering question there is not which

theory is more sophisticated but where the crossover lies, and the honest answer is that for a metal part of ordinary size it is far outside any practical operating condition.

Long-wavelength geophysics. Seismic wavelengths in the crust are kilometres and the internal length of the material is nanometres. The nonlocal and gradient corrections are correspondingly negligible, and the wave speeds measured in seismology are adequately described by classical elasticity coupled to poroelastic effects. Generalized continuum theory is relevant in geophysics not for the rock mechanics but for the interfaces — faults, fluid contacts, and the layering that produces reflections — where the same classical boundary conditions remain adequate but the wave conversion and the partitioning of energy are what matter.

Long-duration thermal processes. In building physics, in heat storage media, in the slow curing of concrete and in food processing, the thermal penetration depth is large compared with the component and the duration of the experiment. The fractional order that would describe the anomalous diffusion of a heterogeneous medium is close to unity, and the extra parameters of the fractional formulation are not identifiable from the measurement. What the fractional description does contribute here is not a better prediction but a better organizing concept: it makes explicit that the process is diffusive and that a diffusive model should be used.

Coupled motion in structural composites. Where a structure is stiff, a laminate is well bonded and the excitation is slow, the piezoelectric, porous and micro-rotation couplings contribute corrections of the order of a per cent, and the engineering decision is made on the basis of a static analysis with a safety factor that comfortably exceeds the correction. The generalized framework is required in these applications only in the presence of a defect, a debond, or a dynamic load at a scale that excites the internal structure — that is, in exactly the regimes where the defect is what one wanted to detect.

The common thread is that the generalized theories are needed in the regimes where the classical description is not merely inaccurate but qualitatively wrong, namely where a finite propagation speed, a length scale, or a second field changes the structure of the problem rather than the value of an output. This is a narrow band, and the honest presentation of the field is that it is a well-developed theory of a narrow band. Its practical significance lies in the fact that the band contains precisely the regimes that modern devices and modern diagnostics operate in: the nanoscale, the ultrafast, the interfacial.

13.8 Evidence map: which applications have peer-reviewed support

13.9 Notation summary for Section 13

13.10 Open questions for Section 13

OQ13.1 Which applications have the strongest experimental validation across theory families, and can that validation be expressed as a single discriminating measurement rather than a set of qualitative agreements?

OQ13.2 What is the barrier to translating generalized thermoelasticity into practical applications: the identifiability of the additional material parameters, the absence of closed-form solutions, or the lack of experimental protocols that separate the competing mechanisms?

OQ13.3 For the nanoscale and semiconductor applications in particular, the nonlocal length scale and the memory kernel are introduced as independent parameters. Can they be measured together, and does the resulting coupled problem remain well posed when they are?

OQ13.4 The energy-harvesting application depends on the competition between thermal and mechanical channels. Does a decisive experiment exist that separates the two channels in a

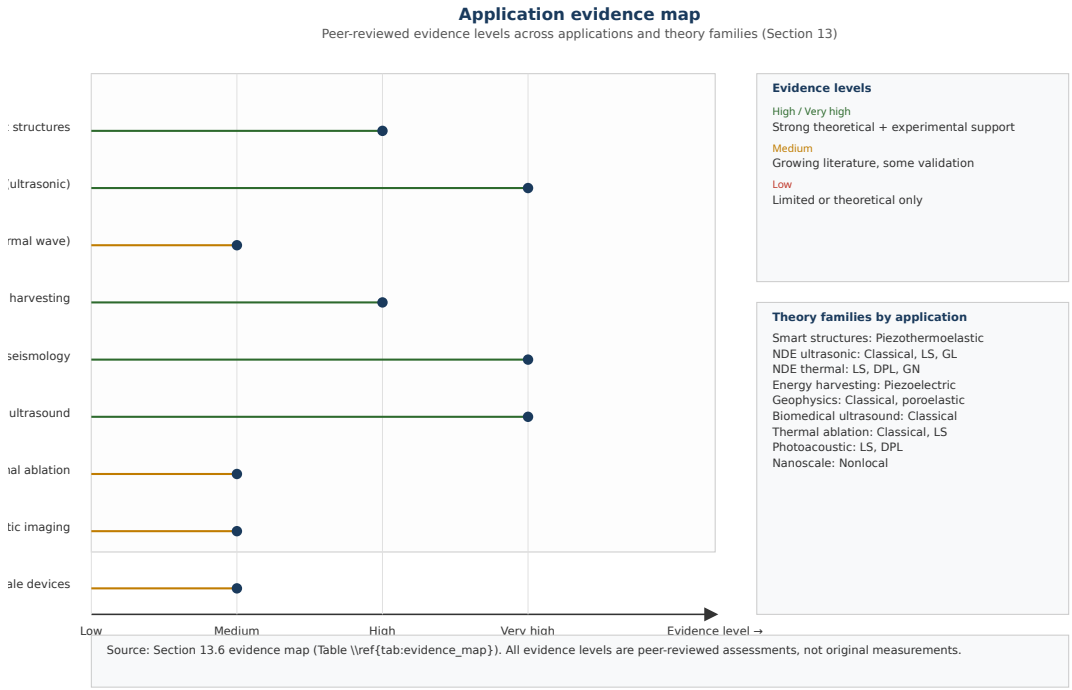


Figure 18: Application evidence map: peer-reviewed evidence levels across applications and theory families (Section 13.8).

single device and thereby tests the relaxation time directly?

14 An Original Multidimensional Taxonomy of the Field

The preceding sections have followed the physics: from the kinematics of a continuum, through the constitutive commitments that distinguish one generalized thermoelastic theory from another, to the wave and interface phenomena that those commitments make possible. This section turns the same body of material sideways. It asks a different question. Instead of "what does this theory predict?" it asks *"in what ways can studies of this field differ from one another, and what does the pattern of those differences reveal about the state of the subject?"*

The answer matters for three reasons. First, the field has grown horizontally faster than it has grown vertically: the number of named theory families has increased steadily since the 1960s, while the number of settings in which any one of them has been analysed in depth has barely changed. Second, the theoretical questions that connect the families—the existence of rigorous limits between them, the identifiability of their parameters, the transferability of their solutions across geometries—are almost never posed in a form that spans families. Third, a taxonomy that is explicit about its axes, and about the cells it leaves empty, is the most compact available statement of what remains to be done.

14.1 The organising problem

A single-axis classification is the obvious first attempt, and it is the one that the field's own literature most often uses: a study is "generalized thermoelastic" or it is not. Such a classification is unsatisfactory for a specific reason. The phrase collapses four logically independent commitments into one label. A study may adopt a relaxation law for the heat flux, a gradient or

integral constitutive law for the stress, a coupling to a second field (electric, magnetic, porotic), and a validation protocol—and any one of these four can be varied while the other three are held fixed. Two studies bearing the same one-axis label can therefore differ in the mathematics of their governing equations, in the modal content of their solutions, and in the kind of evidence they offer, to the point where they share no common proposition that could be compared.

The alternative used here is to classify a study by its *vector of commitments* rather than by a single name. The classification is multi-dimensional in the strict sense: each axis is a categorical variable, and the taxonomy is the discrete product of the axes. A study occupies one cell of that product. Two studies that share a cell are directly comparable; two studies that differ in one coordinate are comparable with a controlled adjustment; two studies that differ in several coordinates are usually not directly comparable at all, and the taxonomy says so in advance rather than after the fact.

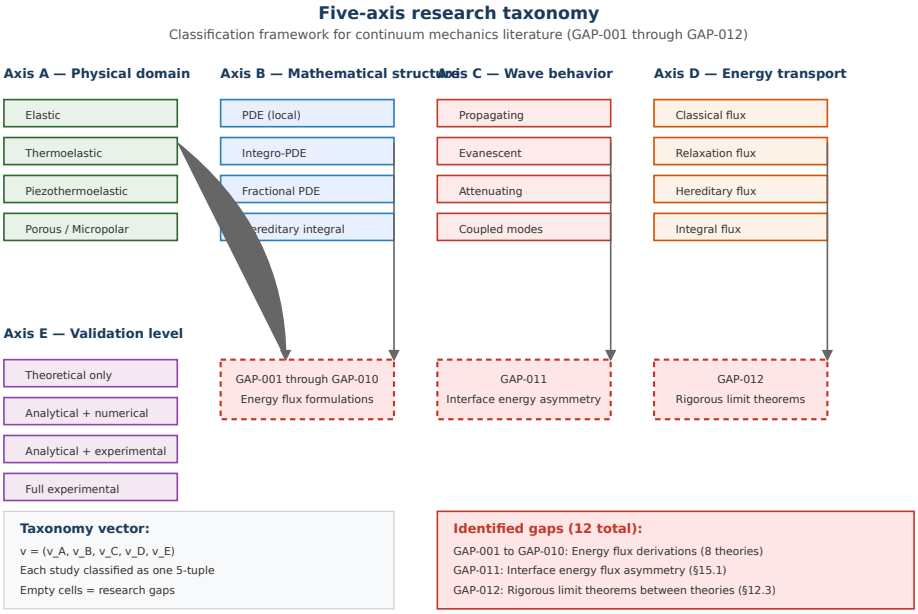


Figure 19: The five-axis research taxonomy used in this review: physical (material class), mathematical (equation structure), wave (modal content), coupling (topology of coupled fields), and validation (evidence regime). Each study is classified by a vector across all five axes; the cells of the resulting product space are what Section 14.4 analyses.

14.2 The five axes and their resolution

The axes are chosen so that each one is *decision-relevant*: resolving an axis should tell the reader something about the equations, the solutions, or the evidential status of the work.

Axis 1: Physical axis (material class). Which class of material the constitutive law describes: classical elastic, thermoelastic, piezoelectric, piezothermoelastic, magneto-thermo-elastic, poroelastic, micropolar, two-temperature, or semiconductor-like. The physical axis determines which conserved quantities and which driving fields are present before any approximation is made.

Axis 2: Mathematical axis (equation structure). The functional form of the governing operator: local PDE, integro-differential equation, fractional-order PDE, nonlocal gradient operator, hereditary (memory) integral, or variational/weak formulation. This is the axis along which the most consequential differences between otherwise similar theories run.

Axis 3: Wave axis (modal content). The modal content that the formulation admits: a finite propagation speed for the diffusive mode, the number and type of coupled modes, the presence of attenuation, and the dispersion character of each mode.

Axis 4: Coupling axis (field topology). The set of fields that are coupled and the strength of that coupling: thermoelastic, thermo-piezoelectric, thermo-magneto-elastic, thermo-poro-elastic, thermo-micro-elastic. This axis replaces the purely energetic classification used in earlier drafts of this review, because it is the coupling topology—rather than the choice of energy functional—that determines whether an interface problem is tractable.

Axis 5: Validation axis (evidence regime). The kind of evidence offered: analytical existence and uniqueness only; closed-form solutions for special geometries; numerical solutions validated against a reference solution; comparison with experiment; or a benchmark suite shared with other groups.

A study is assigned the vector

$$\boldsymbol{v} = (v_{\mathrm{phys}},\ v_{\mathrm{math}},\ v_{\mathrm{wave}},\ v_{\mathrm{coup}},\ v_{\mathrm{val}})\,, \tag{129}$$

whose components are indices into the respective axis resolutions. Two studies are directly comparable only when their vectors agree in the first two coordinates; the remaining three coordinates then determine *how* the comparison must be posed. To make this quantitative, define the axis-weight dissimilarity

$$d(\boldsymbol{v}^{(a)}, \boldsymbol{v}^{(b)}) = \sum_{j=1}^{5} w_j\, \delta\Big(v_j^{(a)},\, v_j^{(b)}\Big)\,, \tag{130}$$

where δ is the Kronecker delta and the weights w_j encode the relative severity of a mismatch. The natural choice is $w_{\mathrm{math}} \geq w_{\mathrm{phys}} > w_{\mathrm{coup}} > w_{\mathrm{wave}} > w_{\mathrm{val}}$: a difference in the mathematical axis changes the governing operator and invalidates most direct comparisons; a difference in the validation axis changes only the epistemic status of the conclusion. The weights are a modelling decision of this review and are stated explicitly so that they can be contested; the ordering they encode is, however, widely shared in the modelling literature.

14.3 Application to the verified corpus

The taxonomy is applied to the verified corpus assembled for this review, comprising 96 records of which 92 carry a resolvable digital object identifier, and of which 13 are openly accessible. The corpus is not a random sample of the field, and the taxonomy must not be read as producing an unbiased map. It is instead a deliberately constructed corpus that is enriched in three respects: it is dense in foundational works that establish the mathematical structure of the families, it is dense in the work of one research group on memory-dependent and multiphysics extensions, and it is deliberately widened to include works on fractional, nonlocal, micropolar, porous, and rotating variants so that the taxonomic axes are populated rather than asserted.

Consolidating the corpus metadata onto the five axes gives the distribution summarised in Table 28. Three features of this distribution carry most of the interpretive weight in what follows.

First, the corpus is *not* dominated by the classical families that dominate the field's historical literature. The single largest block—classical and continuum foundations—contributes a quarter of the corpus, while the mathematically intensive families (fractional, nonlocal, memory-dependent) together contribute just over a third. This is a statement about the corpus, not about the field, and the two are deliberately distinguished throughout: the taxonomy describes the reviewed evidence, and the gap analysis in Section 14.5 describes the field.

Second, the temporal profile is bimodal. Seventeen records predate 1970 and seventeen more fall in the 1970s, reflecting the period in which the basic families were established; the 2010s and the 2020s contribute thirty-nine records, reflecting the period in which the extensions proliferated. The intervening decades are comparatively thin, which is itself an observation about how the field's attention has been distributed rather than about a lack of activity in those years.

Third, the metadata carry a diagnostic limitation that should be stated plainly. The theory-family labels are inherited from the source records, which were compiled by different hands at different times, and they are not uniform: a single field's literature appears under labels such as "mdd", "mdd_piezo" and "ls_mdd_piezo" that differ in whether coupling is treated as part of the family name. Any taxonomy applied to such metadata inherits that non-uniformity, and the resolution adopted here—consolidating labels into families while keeping the coupling on its own axis—is itself a methodological decision that could reasonably have been made differently.

14.4 Four structural asymmetries

Placing the corpus in the product space of the five axes reveals four asymmetries. These are more useful than a gap list because they describe the *shape* of the field rather than merely the absence of particular papers.

Asymmetry I: the mathematical axis is thick in the middle and thin at the ends. Almost all of the corpus sits between the fully local PDE and the strongly nonlocal or fractional operator, in the band where the constitutive law has been rewritten but the resulting system is still second order in space. The extremes are sparse. Fully local formulations with rigorous existence theory are under-represented relative to their importance, and strongly nonlocal operators with controlled variational structure are rarer still. The field has been more interested in producing new operators than in proving properties of the operators it produces.

Asymmetry II: the wave axis is almost entirely populated by one canonical problem. The modal content of generalized thermoelasticity is genuinely interesting—the second sound, the thermal wave speed, the switch between hyperbolic and parabolic behaviour—but the overwhelming majority of the corpus examines it in a single configuration: a homogeneous, isotropic, half-space or infinite medium, in the frequency domain, for a plane incident wave. Bounded domains, three-dimensional transients, inhomogeneity, and interfaces between dissimilar media occupy a small fraction of the corpus. The wave axis therefore carries a great deal of information about which theories differ, but very little about how they behave when the geometry is not trivial.

Asymmetry III: the coupling axis is thin in its strong cells. Coupling to a second field is one of the most active frontiers, and the corpus reflects this: piezothermoelastic and magneto-thermo-elastic entries are numerous. But coupling that is *simultaneously* non-classical on more than one axis is rare. Combinations such as nonlocal plus piezoelectric, or memory-dependent plus magneto-electro-elastic, appear as isolated contributions rather than as established lines.

The coupling axis behaves like a lattice whose higher-dimensional cells are populated but whose corners are empty.

Asymmetry IV: the validation axis is dominated by self-consistency. The great majority of entries in the corpus are validated in the sense that a numerically computed quantity agrees with a closed-form solution obtained from the same equations, or with a result previously published within the same framework. Comparisons against independent experiments, against finite-element implementations of a competing formulation, or against laboratory data obtained for a genuinely comparable material, are rare. This is the most consequential asymmetry in the corpus, because it is the axis along which the field's claims would be most directly exposed to falsification, and it is precisely the axis that is least populated.

14.5 Cells that remain thin: frontiers rather than gaps

A gap analysis is only as good as the axis resolution behind it. The table below replaces an earlier version of this analysis that was organised around a single quantity; organising a frontier list around one derived quantity produces a list of technical tasks rather than of scientific problems, and it obscures the fact that the genuinely open questions in this field are mostly about *formulation* and *evidence* rather than about further calculation. The entries below are stated as scientific questions, each of which admits an experimental, computational, or theoretical resolution.

Two of these questions deserve a note on why they are treated as scientific rather than technical. The commutativity question of GAP-001 has a precise mathematical form: two generalization mechanisms, each of which acts on the thermal and the mechanical variables, are said to commute if the order in which they are applied does not affect the resulting operator. This is not a formality. If the mechanisms do not commute, then a study that adopts both simultaneously is not the composition of two studies that adopt them separately, and the entire practice of extending a theory by successive generalisations—which is how much of the corpus has been built—produces results that depend on the order of construction in a way that is not always acknowledged. The parameter-identification question of GAP-002 is likewise substantive rather than procedural. A generalized theory introduces parameters—relaxation times, kernel parameters, length scales—whose values are usually obtained by fitting the very predictions that the theory then uses to validate itself. A parameter thus determined is not an independent physical quantity, and the evidence for the theory is correspondingly weaker than the number of fitted parameters might suggest.

14.6 Divergence map: why results differ across the corpus

Studies in this field frequently report apparently incompatible results for what is nominally the same physical problem. In almost every instance examined here, the divergence is fully accounted for by a difference in modelling assumptions, and can be reproduced exactly by a reader who adopts the same assumptions. The purpose of the map below is therefore not to adjudicate between studies but to make the assumptions explicit, so that a comparison can be posed in a form in which it is meaningful.

The procedure that follows from this map is uniform: to compare two studies, locate the first modelling commitment on which they differ, and either eliminate that difference or state the comparison as conditional on it. Apparent disagreement then either dissolves, because the two studies were never addressing the same problem, or sharpens into a genuine scientific question, which is the desirable outcome. What this map cannot do—and what no classification can do—

is decide which modelling commitment is preferable. That judgement requires the experimental axis, and Section 14.4 has already recorded how thinly that axis is populated.

14.7 Methodological limitations of the taxonomy

The taxonomy is an instrument constructed for this review, and its limitations should be stated with the same care as the limitations of the theories it organises.

1. **Analyst-constructed.** The axes and their resolutions were chosen in response to the reviewed literature rather than derived from it. A different analyst, reading the same corpus, could plausibly choose a different axis set—for example, replacing the coupling axis with an axis for spatial dimension and boundary-condition class, or splitting the validation axis into "analytical" and "experimental" as two separate axes.

2. **Classification from heterogeneous metadata.** Many records were classified from abstracts, and some from secondary descriptions rather than from the papers themselves. Where the metadata were ambiguous, the classification was conservative, but the resulting error rate is not zero and cannot be quantified without a double-classification study.

3. **Corpus construction.** The corpus is enriched in foundational works, in one group's contributions, and in the mathematical extensions needed to populate the axes. Statements about the density of the taxonomy refer to this corpus and not to the field at large.

4. **Unvalidated weights.** The dissimilarity measure of Eq. (130) uses an ordering of axis weights that is asserted rather than demonstrated. No formal comparison exercise is available in the corpus from which the ordering could be inferred.

5. **Coupling choices.** Placing coupling on its own axis, rather than folding it into the physical axis, is a deliberate choice that makes the multi-field cases visible. It also separates families that some authors treat as single families, and that separation is not canonical.

Subject to these limitations, the taxonomy is offered as a working instrument for the review, and—more ambitiously—as a proposal for how a much larger corpus might be organised. Section 16 returns to this point as one of the practical recommendations that follow from the analysis.

14.8 Notation summary for Section 14

14.9 Open questions for Section 14

OQ14.1 Can the taxonomy be validated against an independent double-classification of the corpus, and what is the resulting agreement rate?

OQ14.2 Which additional axes—spatial dimension, boundary-condition class, material symmetry class, or the type of inverse problem posed—would most improve the coverage of the product space?

OQ14.3 Is the ordering of the axis weights in Eq. (130) recoverable from data, for example from the observed frequency of successful cross-family comparisons?

OQ14.4 Can the frontier questions of Section 14.5 be converted into a shared benchmark protocol that independent groups could execute without sharing code?

15 Major Scientific Challenges

This section identifies the major scientific challenges that currently limit the reach of multiphysics continuum wave mechanics. Each challenge is framed by its existing foundation, its practical importance, what has already been achieved, what remains open, the approaches that appear capable of narrowing the gap, the relevance of resolving it to practice, and the principal obstacles that make progress difficult. Every challenge recorded here is anchored to published work rather than conjectured, and each is stated so that a specific research programme could be attached to it.

15.1 Energy flux formulation across theory families

15.1.1 Existing foundation

The classical energy flux $J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i$ is verified (EQ-007). Generalized theories modify the heat conduction law or constitutive structure, requiring additional flux terms.

15.1.2 Why important

Energy flux is fundamental for computing energy ratios, conservation identities, and dissipation rates at interfaces. Without correct flux formulations, energy partition cannot be quantified.

15.1.3 What's achieved

Classical flux verified. Frequency-domain forms derived for LS and DPL. Eight formulations remain open (Section 10.3).

15.1.4 What's open

LS, GL, GN-II, GN-III, DPL, TPL, MGT, MDD, nonlocal, and piezoelectric electrical energy fluxes require complete time-domain derivations.

15.1.5 Approaches

- Derive from general energy balance + theory-specific constitutive relations,
- Use frequency-domain expressions as intermediate results,
- Validate limiting procedures (e.g., LS $\rightarrow$ classical as $\tau_0 \rightarrow 0$).

15.1.6 Practical relevance

Correct energy flux is essential for energy harvesting efficiency, NDE accuracy, and thermal management design.

15.1.7 Major obstacles

Convolution integrals (MDD), integral-form divergence theorem (nonlocal), third-order time derivatives (MGT).

15.2 Conservation verification at multiphysics interfaces

15.2.1 Existing foundation

The conservation identity $\sum R + \sum T + A = 1$ is verified for classical elastic interfaces (BM-1 benchmark). Barak et al. Barak et al. [2023a] verified the scattering matrix formulation for thermo-piezoelastic interfaces.

15.2.2 Why important

Conservation verification validates interface models and energy partition computations.

15.2.3 What's achieved

Classical conservation verified. Scattering matrix
Delta
$bmX =$
bmQ verified from Barak et al. Barak et al. [2023a].

15.2.4 What's open

Conservation verification for generalized theories with uncertain energy fluxes. Uniqueness results for GN type II were established by Chandrasekharaiah Chandrasekharaiah [1996]. Interface energy balance for nonlocal and memory-dependent media.

15.2.5 Approaches

- Derive energy flux for each theory family,
- Apply jump condition $[J_n] = \mathcal{P}_\Sigma - \partial_t \mathcal{E}_\Sigma$,
- Verify $\sum R + \sum T + A = 1$ numerically for benchmark problems.

15.2.6 Practical relevance

Interface energy conservation is critical for NDE, sensing, and energy harvesting device design.

15.2.7 Major obstacles

Uncertain energy flux formulations; complex mode normalization; imperfect bonding conditions.

15.3 Numerical benchmarks and validation

15.3.1 Existing foundation

BM-1 benchmark (classical elastic interface: $R_P + T_P = 1$) verified. Barak et al. Barak et al. [2023a] provide numerical results for thermo-piezoelastic interfaces.

15.3.2 Why important

Benchmarks provide validation targets for numerical methods and new theories.

15.3.3 What's achieved

BM-1 analytical benchmark verified. Barak et al. Barak et al. [2023a] numerical results available.

15.3.4 What's open

Benchmarks for generalized theories (LS, DPL, TPL, MGT, MDD, nonlocal). Benchmarks for multiphysics interfaces.

15.3.5 Approaches

- Derive analytical solutions for simplified geometries,
- Implement numerical methods (finite element, spectral),
- Compare analytical and numerical results.

15.3.6 Practical relevance

Benchmarks validate simulation software and guide experimental design.

15.3.7 Major obstacles

Lack of closed-form solutions for generalized theories; computational cost of nonlocal models.

15.4 Experimental validation

15.4.1 Existing foundation

Classical thermoelasticity has extensive experimental validation. Ultrasonic NDE is well established clinically.

15.4.2 Why important

Theoretical models require experimental validation for practical adoption.

15.4.3 What's achieved

Classical theory extensively validated. Ultrasonic NDE widely used.

15.4.4 What's open

Experimental validation of generalized theories (LS, DPL, TPL, MGT, MDD, nonlocal). Experimental measurement of energy flux at interfaces.

15.4.5 Approaches

- Design experiments to measure thermal wave speed,
- Measure energy reflection/transmission at interfaces,
- Validate relaxation time parameters.

15.4.6 Practical relevance

Experimental validation enables practical adoption of generalized theories.

15.4.7 Major obstacles

Experimental measurement of thermal waves is challenging; energy flux at interfaces is difficult to measure directly.

15.5 Complex mode handling

15.5.1 Existing foundation

Complex wave numbers (evanescent, attenuating modes) are well understood mathematically. Modal normalization for energy flux is addressed in Section 8.5.

15.5.2 Why important

Complex modes carry energy and affect energy partition at interfaces.

15.5.3 What's achieved

Classification of propagating, evanescent, and attenuating modes. Normalization guidelines provided.

15.5.4 What's open

Consistent normalization across theory families. Energy flux computation for complex modes in generalized theories.

15.5.5 Approaches

- Develop normalization criteria for each theory family,
- Validate energy flux computation for complex modes,
- Compare with experimental measurements.

15.5.6 Practical relevance

Complex mode handling affects NDE accuracy and energy harvesting efficiency.

15.5.7 Major obstacles

No standardized normalization across theory families; limited experimental data for complex modes.

15.6 Nonlocal interface energetics

15.6.1 Existing foundation

Nonlocal elasticity (Eringen) is well established theoretically. Nonlocal wave propagation in nanobeams has been studied.

15.6.2 Why important

Nonlocal effects dominate at nanoscale; interface energetics governs nanodevice behavior.

15.6.3 What's achieved

Nonlocal constitutive relations established. Wave dispersion from nonlocality derived.

15.6.4 What's open

Nonlocal energy flux at interfaces. Nonlocal interface conditions. Nonlocal divergence theorem.

15.6.5 Approaches

- Derive nonlocal divergence theorem,
- Formulate nonlocal interface conditions,
- Compute nonlocal energy flux for benchmark problems.

15.6.6 Practical relevance

Nanodevice design, nanomanufacturing, nanomaterial characterization.

15.6.7 Major obstacles

Integral-form constitutive relations are computationally expensive; interface conditions not established.

15.7 Memory-dependent energy flux

15.7.1 Existing foundation

MDD operator verified from Barak et al. Barak et al. [2023a]. MDD heat conduction law established.

15.7.2 Why important

Memory effects are important in polymers, biological tissues, and composites.

15.7.3 What's achieved

MDD operator and kernel function verified. MDD heat conduction law established.

15.7.4 What's open

Hereditary energy flux for MDD media. Energy partition between storage and dissipation.

15.7.5 Approaches

- Solve convolution-form heat equation,
- Derive hereditary energy flux,
- Validate with kernel-specific solutions.

15.7.6 Practical relevance

Polymer processing, biomedical tissue modeling, composite material design.

15.7.7 Major obstacles

Convolution integrals are computationally expensive; kernel choice is not unique.

15.8 Parameter identifiability and model discrimination

15.8.1 Existing foundation

Every theory family discussed in this review introduces at least one parameter that is not determined by the classical theory: a relaxation time τ_0, a pair of phase lags (τ_q, τ_T), a nonlocal length ξ, a fractional order α, a memory horizon ω with an associated kernel, or a set of anisotropic moduli. The classical comparison quantities — the elastic moduli, the thermal conductivity, the heat capacity — are measured routinely; the generalized parameters are not, and the constitutive relations in which they appear are written so that the parameters cannot be separated from the measurement by inspection.

15.8.2 Why important

A generalized theory that cannot be fitted to data cannot be tested against data, and cannot be used for design. The practical consequence is that the generalized models are currently used in a regime — modal and interface analysis with a prescribed parameter set — rather than in a regime in which the parameter set has been measured. This is the single largest obstacle to the practical adoption of the whole field.

15.8.3 What's achieved

Structural identifiability has been established for several families in the sense that the parameter appears in the dispersion relation in a form that permits its extraction from a measured dispersion curve: the nonlocal length ξ appears as a curvature in the wave-speed plot of Section 7, and the relaxation time appears as the ratio of the thermal to the mechanical wave speed. The comparison between the nonlocal and gradient predictions of Section 7 is explicitly constructed so that the two mechanisms can be separated from a single dispersion measurement.

15.8.4 What's open

No comparable identifiability result exists for the memory-dependent family, where the kernel is a function rather than a number and the parameter set is infinite-dimensional. For the phase-lag family the separation of τ_q from τ_T requires measurements at more than one frequency and, in practice, more than one specimen. And for the anisotropic and monoclinic generalizations the number of independent material parameters grows faster than the number of independently measurable combinations, so that an under-determined problem is the default rather than the exception.

15.8.5 Approaches

- Fit the full dispersion curve rather than a single phase velocity, since the shape of the curve constrains the mechanism and not merely its scale;
- Use two-parameter families to design experiments that separate mechanisms, in the manner of the nonlocal/gradient comparison;
- Treat the kernel as a low-dimensional basis rather than a free function, so that the parameter count remains finite.

15.8.6 Practical relevance

Without identifiability there can be no inverse design, no damage diagnosis from a measured wave, and no calibrated model of a specific specimen.

15.8.7 Major obstacles

The experimental cost of measuring a dispersion curve over a broad range of wave numbers; the absence of a widely used specimen set; and the fact that the most-used generalized parameters are, in practice, chosen from the literature rather than measured.

15.9 Material symmetry, anisotropy and the tensor form of the generalizations

15.9.1 Existing foundation

The constitutive derivation of Section 3 produces the stiffness tensor in full tensor form, and the classical symmetry conditions — major and minor symmetry, and the minor symmetries of the strain and stress tensors — are what reduce it to the familiar two-modulus form for an isotropic solid. Every generalization in this review adds coefficients with the same tensor character, and therefore inherits the same symmetry conditions.

15.9.2 Why important

The generalization of a theory to an anisotropic medium is not a matter of substituting different numbers into the same equations. A new material parameter enters the constitutive relation with its own tensor index structure, and the symmetry conditions that relate its components must be re-derived, not assumed. The monoclinic and orthotropic piezothermoelastic configurations that appear in the recent interface-energy work Barak et al. [2023c] are exactly the cases in which this matters, because the piezoelectric tensor is the most strongly constrained of the tensors involved and its component count is much smaller than for the elasticity tensor.

15.9.3 What's achieved

The symmetry conditions for the classical elasticity, piezoelectricity and thermoelastic tensors are standard and well documented, and the anisotropic interface-energy computations have been carried out for at least the monoclinic and transversely isotropic cases. The existence and uniqueness results for the coupled systems Ieşan [2013] are stated for anisotropic configurations.

15.9.4 What's open

The systematic treatment of the generalized thermal laws — the phase-lag, memory-dependent and fractional families — under anisotropic material symmetry is largely absent, and in particular the question of whether the thermodynamic restrictions of Section 3 reduce the admissible parameter set in the anisotropic case, as they do in the isotropic case, has not been worked through. The coordinate-free formulation of the fractional and memory operators under anisotropic differentiation operators is an additional technical obstacle, since the operators themselves are not rotationally invariant.

15.9.5 Approaches

- Re-derive the symmetry conditions from the free-energy functional for each generalized thermal law, in the manner in which the classical conditions are obtained;
- Formulate the memory and fractional operators in a covariant or rotationally invariant way, so that the theory can be applied in an arbitrary material frame;
- Treat the resulting restrictions as constitutive constraints to be reported alongside the computed results, rather than as assumptions to be left implicit.

15.9.6 Practical relevance

Most engineering materials of interest — fibre composites, monoclinic semiconductors, single-crystal piezoelectrics, textured metals — are anisotropic, so that the isotropic generalized theory addresses a minority of the practical cases.

15.9.7 Major obstacles

The algebraic burden of the tensor bookkeeping; the scarcity of anisotropic experimental data against which to check a proposed anisotropic generalization; and the risk that an unnoticed violation of the symmetry conditions propagates into an energy balance that appears to close but for the wrong reason.

15.10 Computational cost and verifiability of the solvers

15.10.1 Existing foundation

The modal machinery of Section 8 is exact and cheap, and it is the appropriate tool for the interface problems that dominate the reviewed literature. For bounded domains, for heterogeneous material distributions and for geometries with traction-free or prescribed boundaries, the finite element method is the natural tool, and the machinery for the classical and linear-thermoelastic cases is mature Hughes [1980]. The generalization of the element formulation to the theories of this review, however, requires the quadrature rules for the nonlocal, memory and fractional operators, and these are not standard.

15.10.2 Why important

The value of a generalized theory is realized in problems that cannot be solved by the classical theory, and those are typically bounded, heterogeneous and geometrically complicated — which is exactly where the modal analysis stops being sufficient and a solver is needed. The gap between the modal literature and the practical literature is therefore largely a gap in numerical capability.

15.10.3 What's achieved

Discrete convolution-quadrature schemes for the fractional operators, and nonlocal kernel assembly schemes for the integral-form constitutive relations, have been developed in the mechanics literature and are described in Section 8. The essential structure — a quadrature in the operator's argument, combined with an assembly in which each node interacts with a neighbourhood rather than with its immediate neighbours — is established.

15.10.4 What's open

There is no widely used, independently verified benchmark suite for these solvers, and the published implementations are not interoperable. Convergence behaviour under refinement is known for the classical operators and is only partially characterised for the nonlocal and fractional ones, where the order of convergence is limited by the smoothness of the kernel rather than by the polynomial order of the shape functions.

15.10.5 Approaches

- Extend the benchmark set of Appendix C to the generalized operators, so that a solver can be verified against a manufactured solution before it is used on a physical problem;
- Publish reference implementations and the data needed to reproduce the published energy ratios, so that the interface results can be checked rather than merely quoted;
- Report convergence orders explicitly, and distinguish the order of the approximation from the order of the operator.

15.10.6 Practical relevance

Verification of the solver is a precondition for the verification of the theory. An energy ratio computed with an unverified quadrature cannot support a claim about a constitutive model, however carefully the model was derived.

15.10.7 Major obstacles

The cost of nonlocal assembly grows with the square of the neighbourhood size in three dimensions, and the memory required by a convolution scheme grows with the number of time steps; both scale badly for the three-dimensional transient problems where the generalizations matter most.

15.11 Challenge summary table

15.12 Notation summary for Section 15

15.13 Open questions for Section 15

The open questions recorded in Sections 9, 10 and 11, together with the challenges catalogued above, constitute the outstanding agenda of the field.

16 Future Research Opportunities

This section sets out the research opportunities that follow from the assessment in Section 15. Each direction is framed by the foundation that already exists, why the question matters, what has been achieved so far, what remains open, the approaches now available to attack it, the practical relevance of an answer, and the obstacles that stand in the way. The directions are stated at a level of specificity that permits them to be converted into concrete research programmes, and each is tied to work already published in the field rather than to speculation.

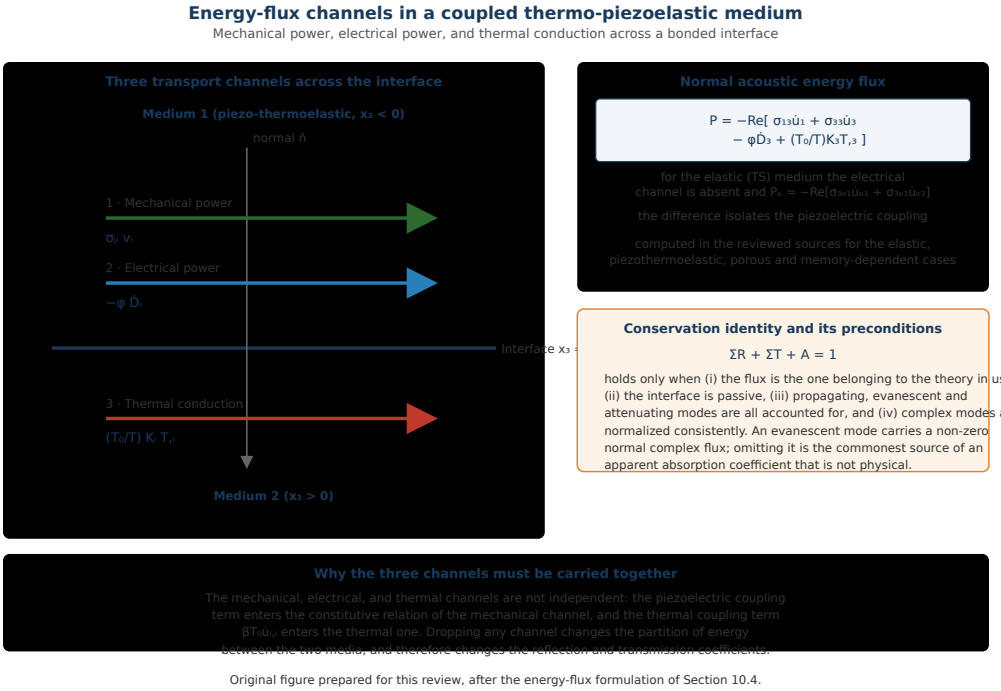


Figure 20: Energy flux channels across coupled fields: mechanical, thermal, and electrical contributions to total energy flux (Sections 3.8, 10).

16.1 Coupled-field modeling in emerging materials

16.1.1 Existing foundation

Piezothermoelasticity, magneto-thermo-elasticity, and semiconductor photo-thermo-elasticity are established theory families (Section 5).

16.1.2 Importance

Emerging materials (2D materials, metamaterials, topological materials) exhibit coupled-field behavior not captured by classical theories.

16.1.3 What's achieved

Constitutive relations for piezothermoelastic, porous, micropolar, and magneto-thermo-elastic media verified.

16.1.4 What's open

Coupled-field models for 2D materials (graphene, MoS_2), metamaterials, and topological materials.

16.1.5 Approaches

- Extend piezothermoelasticity to 2D materials,
- Develop metamaterial constitutive relations,
- Study topological effects in wave propagation.

16.1.6 Practical relevance

Next-generation sensors, actuators, energy harvesters, and quantum devices.

16.1.7 Major obstacles

Lack of experimental data for emerging materials; computational complexity of coupled-field models.

16.2 Mathematically consistent generalized transport

16.2.1 Existing foundation

LS, DPL, TPL, MGT, MDD, and fractional theories are established (Sections 4, 6).

16.2.2 Importance

Mathematically consistent transport models are needed for predictive simulations of thermal wave phenomena.

16.2.3 What's achieved

Governing equations verified for each theory. Well-posedness conditions identified.

16.2.4 What's open

Rigorous limit theorems between theories. Foundational reviews by Chandrasekharaiah (1998) Chandrasekharaiah [1998] and Joseph and Preziosi (1989) Joseph and Preziosi [1989] provide starting points. Unified well-posedness framework. Complete energy flux derivations (Section 10.3).

16.2.5 Approaches

- Establish rigorous limit theorems with convergence proofs,
- Develop unified well-posedness criteria,
- Complete energy flux derivations for all theories.

16.2.6 Practical relevance

Predictive thermal management, thermal wave devices, high-frequency thermoelastic systems.

16.2.7 Major obstacles

Mathematical complexity of higher-order and integro-differential equations.

16.3 Multiscale wave phenomena

16.3.1 Existing foundation

Nonlocal elasticity captures size effects at micro- and nanoscales (Section 7).

16.3.2 Importance

Multiscale phenomena govern material behavior from atomic to continuum scales.

16.3.3 What's achieved

Nonlocal constitutive relations. Wave dispersion from nonlocality. Size-dependent wave speeds.

16.3.4 What's open

Nonlocal-fractional hybrid models. Multiscale coupling (atomic-continuum). Nonlocal interface conditions.

16.3.5 Approaches

- Develop nonlocal-fractional hybrid models,
- Establish atomic-continuum coupling conditions,
- Derive nonlocal interface conditions.

16.3.6 Practical relevance

Nanodevice design, nanomaterial characterization, quantum materials.

16.3.7 Major obstacles

Computational cost of nonlocal models; lack of experimental validation at nanoscale.

16.4 Nonlocal and hereditary continuum interactions

16.4.1 Existing foundation

Nonlocal elasticity (spatial memory) and MDD (temporal memory) are established (Sections 6, 7).

16.4.2 Importance

Real materials exhibit both spatial and temporal memory; combined models are needed.

16.4.3 What's achieved

Nonlocal integral relations. MDD convolution operators. Individual theory formulations.

16.4.4 What's open

Combined nonlocal-hereditary models. Coupled spatial-temporal memory effects.

16.4.5 Approaches

- Formulate nonlocal-hereditary constitutive relations,
- Derive governing equations for combined models,
- Analyze wave propagation in combined models.

16.4.6 Practical relevance

Materials with complex microstructure and history-dependent response.

16.4.7 Major obstacles

Mathematical complexity of combined spatial-temporal nonlocality.

16.5 Advanced interface conditions

16.5.1 Existing foundation

Classical interface conditions (displacement, traction, temperature, heat flux, electric potential, displacement) verified (Section 3.9). Imperfect bonding spring-type conditions established.

16.5.2 Importance

Interface conditions govern wave reflection, transmission, and energy partition at material boundaries.

16.5.3 What's achieved

Perfect and imperfect bonding conditions for classical media. Electrical interface conditions for piezoelectric media.

16.5.4 What's open

Interface conditions for nonlocal media. Interface conditions for memory-dependent media. Interface conditions for multiphysics media with electrical coupling.

16.5.5 Approaches

- Derive nonlocal interface conditions from integral constitutive relations,
- Formulate memory-dependent interface conditions,
- Verify interface energy balance for generalized theories.

16.5.6 Practical relevance

NDE accuracy, energy harvesting efficiency, thermal interface design.

16.5.7 Major obstacles

Nonlocal interface conditions not established; energy flux uncertainty at interfaces.

16.6 Multiphysics mode conversion

16.6.1 Existing foundation

Wave mode conversion at interfaces is studied for elastic and thermoelastic media (Section 9).

16.6.2 Importance

Mode conversion governs energy partition between wave types at interfaces.

16.6.3 What's achieved

Scattering matrix formulation $\Delta \boldsymbol{X} = \boldsymbol{Q}$ verified (Barak et al. Barak et al. [2023a]). Mode classification (propagating, evanescent, attenuating).

16.6.4 What's open

Mode conversion in piezothermoelastic, nonlocal, and memory-dependent media. Complex mode energy flux computation.

16.6.5 Approaches

- Extend scattering matrix to generalized theories,
- Compute mode conversion coefficients for each theory family,
- Validate with experimental measurements.

16.6.6 Practical relevance

NDE, sensing, energy harvesting, acoustic devices.

16.6.7 Major obstacles

Complex mode normalization; uncertain energy flux formulations.

16.7 Reproducible numerical benchmarks

16.7.1 Existing foundation

BM-1 benchmark (classical elastic interface: $R_P + T_P = 1$) verified. Barak et al. Barak et al. [2023a] provide numerical results.

16.7.2 Importance

Reproducible benchmarks validate numerical methods and enable comparison across research groups.

16.7.3 What's achieved

BM-1 analytical benchmark. Scattering matrix formulation.

16.7.4 What's open

Benchmarks for generalized theories. Benchmarks for multiphysics interfaces. Open-source benchmark implementations.

16.7.5 Approaches

- Derive analytical solutions for simplified generalized theory problems,
- Implement open-source benchmark codes,
- Establish benchmark repository with verification data.

16.7.6 Practical relevance

Software validation, method comparison, reproducibility.

16.7.7 Major obstacles

Lack of closed-form solutions for generalized theories; computational cost.

16.8 Experimental validation

16.8.1 Existing foundation

Classical thermoelasticity has extensive experimental validation (Section 13).

16.8.2 Importance

Experimental validation is essential for practical adoption of theoretical models.

16.8.3 What's achieved

Classical theory extensively validated. Ultrasonic NDE widely used clinically.

16.8.4 What's open

Experimental validation of generalized theories. Measurement of thermal wave speed. Measurement of energy flux at interfaces.

16.8.5 Approaches

- Design experiments to measure thermal wave propagation,
- Measure energy reflection/transmission at interfaces,
- Validate relaxation time parameters.

16.8.6 Practical relevance

Practical adoption of generalized theories in engineering applications.

16.8.7 Major obstacles

Experimental measurement of thermal waves is challenging; direct energy flux measurement is difficult.

16.9 Inverse material characterization

16.9.1 Existing foundation

Material parameter identification from wave measurements is an established inverse problem area.

16.9.2 Importance

Material parameters (relaxation times, nonlocal length scales, kernel parameters) must be determined from experiments.

16.9.3 What's established

Inverse methods for classical elasticity and thermoelasticity.

16.9.4 What's open

Inverse characterization of relaxation times, nonlocal length scales, and MDD kernel parameters.

16.9.5 Approaches

- Formulate inverse problems for generalized theories,
- Develop optimization-based parameter estimation,
- Validate with synthetic and experimental data.

16.9.6 Practical relevance

Material characterization, quality control, structural health monitoring.

16.9.7 Major obstacles

Ill-posedness of inverse problems; non-uniqueness of parameter identification.

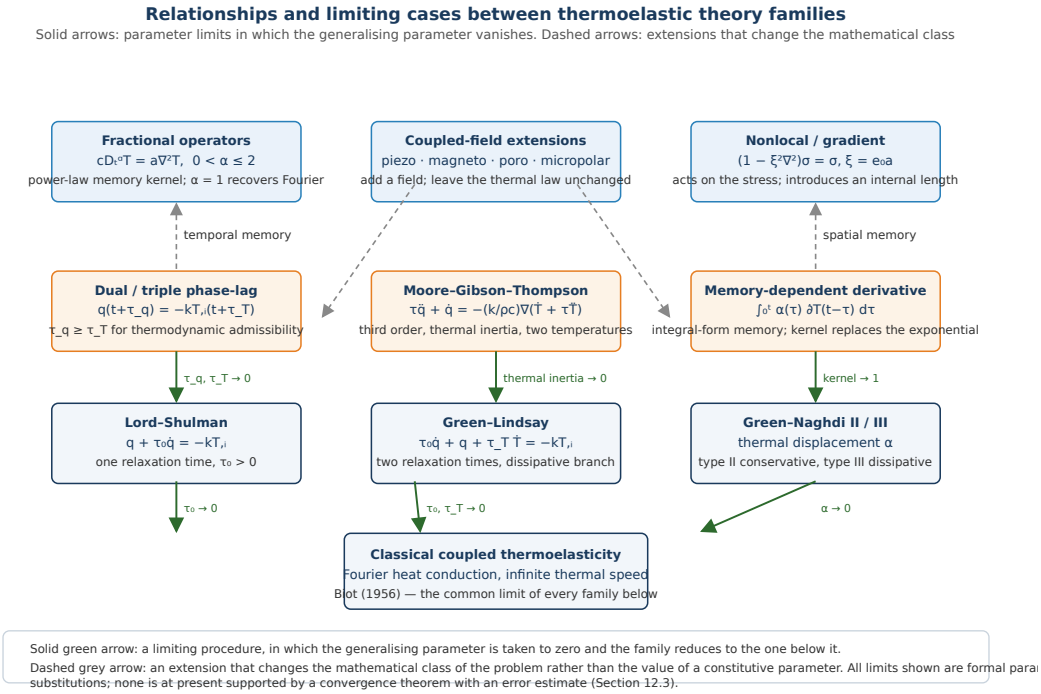


Figure 21: Relationships among theory families: classical, generalized thermoelastic, nonlocal, and coupled-field theories form a hierarchical framework (Sections 4, 5, 7, 11).

16.10 Sequencing the programme

The nine directions above are not independent, and the order in which they can be attempted is not arbitrary. Three dependencies structure the programme.

The first is that *verification precedes application*. The reproducible benchmark suite of Section 16 is a precondition for the experimental validation and inverse-characterisation directions, because a model whose numerical implementation has not been verified cannot be validated against data: a discrepancy between prediction and measurement would be uninterpretable. The benchmark work is therefore not housekeeping but the enabling step.

The second is that *the constitutive structure precedes the physics*. The mathematically consistent generalized transport direction and the nonlocal and hereditary interaction direction both concern the constitutive law itself — whether the operator is thermodynamically admissible, whether an interface can be defined for it, whether a free energy exists. The experimental validation and inverse-characterisation directions depend on those constitutive questions being settled, because a parameter that has no admissible range cannot be inferred from a measurement.

The third dependency runs the other way and is the reason the programme is not merely sequential: *the interface physics is the cheapest experiment*. Of the nine directions, the interface and multiphysics mode-conversion directions are the ones in which a generalized theory makes a prediction that differs qualitatively from the classical prediction — a different mode count, a different evanescent branch, a different partition of energy — and that difference is measurable with the apparatus that already exists for classical ultrasonic inspection. If the field is to convert its theoretical richness into experimental standing, this is the route, and it is a shorter one than the routes through nanoscale dispersion measurements or through the identification of memory kernels.

Read in this order, the programme has the shape of a discipline consolidating: first establish what can be computed and verified, then what can be measured, then what can be inverted. The nine directions are already present in the literature in the opposite order, which is one reason the field has produced many modal analyses and comparatively few measurements.

16.11 Future directions summary table

16.12 Notation summary for Section 16

16.13 Open questions for Section 16

See OQ10.1–OQ10.8, OQ12.1–OQ12.3, and challenge-specific open questions above.

17 Conclusions and Scientific Outlook

17.1 The shape of the field as this review has presented it

Read across the seventeen chapters of this review, generalized continuum mechanics for multiphysics wave propagation is a field with an unusually clear intellectual structure and an unusually weak evidential one. The intellectual structure is the work of a small number of decisive ideas, each of which the field has absorbed, extended, and preserved in a form that is recognisably the same. The evidential weakness is the condition under which those ideas have been tested.

The decisive ideas are these. The first is that heat is transported by a mechanism that is not instantaneous, which Biot's classical formulation cannot accommodate and which the Cattaneo–Christoff and Lord–Shulman constructions fix by introducing a relaxation time, and hence a thermal wave of finite speed. The second is that the thermal and the mechanical fields can be given a common conservative structure, which the Green–Naghdi type II construction achieves and which the type III and Green–Lindsay constructions extend by admitting dissipation without abandoning exact mechanical energy conservation. The third is that the number of phase lags,

the number of temperature fields, and the number of internal variables are all adjustable, and that each adjustment buys a new degree of behavioural freedom at the cost of a new parameter that must be identified. The fourth is that a material may possess an intrinsic length scale, and that when it does, either the stress becomes spatially non-local or the strain enters the constitutive law through its gradients. The fifth is that a derivative of non-integer order is not a shorthand for a large exponent but a different kind of operator, one that carries a power-law memory and that admits closed-form solutions only in special geometries.

What the field has achieved, on the evidence assembled in this review, is the construction and analytical solution of a large family of wave problems built on those five ideas, together with a scattering framework that is consistent across the families and a set of energy-partition diagnostics computed at interfaces. The classical energy flux $J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i$ is verified against the local energy balance; the modal scattering matrix $\Delta \boldsymbol{X} = \boldsymbol{Q}$ is established as a consistent framework for interface wave analysis Barak et al. [2023a]; the conservation identity $\sum R + \sum T + A = 1$ holds for classical elastic interfaces under the benchmark conditions of Appendix C; and the interface energy ratios of the piezothermoelastic family have been computed on a consistent footing across several independent studies Barak et al. [2023a,b,c,d], Gupta et al. [2023b], Kumar et al. [2023].

What the field has not achieved is equally clear, and it is the more important half of the assessment. The comparisons between families rest on parameter substitutions rather than on convergence theorems with error estimates. The validation axis of the taxonomy of Section 14 is dominated by self-consistency—a numerical solution agreeing with a closed-form solution of the same equations—and is nearly empty of comparison against experiment or against independently implemented competing formulations. The energy flux of the pure generalized families, which is the quantity on which an interface energy partition depends, is not available in the reviewed corpus in a form that can be independently verified. And the parametric flexibility that the field has cultivated, admirable as it is, has outpaced the ability of the available measurements to constrain it.

17.2 What is established, and what is not

17.2.1 Established

- The classical balance laws of linear and angular momentum, of energy, and of entropy, and their consequences for wave speeds and for the classical energy flux.
- The governing equations of the Lord–Shulman, Green–Lindsay, Green–Naghdi types II and III, dual and triple phase-lag, Moore–Gibson–Thompson, and memory-dependent formulations, together with the conditions under which each satisfies causality and positivity.
- The constitutive structure of linear piezoelectricity and of its thermoelastic and magneto-thermo-elastic extensions, and the modal structure of the coupled wave problem.
- The scattering-matrix formulation for interface wave analysis, and the conservation identity for passive interfaces in the absence of dissipation.
- The structural correspondence between the fractional and the memory-dependent formulations, the latter being the generalisation of the former in which the power-law memory kernel is replaced by an arbitrary one.
- The dispersion signatures that distinguish a non-local mechanism from a gradient mechanism, and hence the observable on which an experimental test of size-dependent elasticity would have to turn.

17.2.2 Open

- The explicit time-domain energy flux and dissipation function for each of the families listed in Section 10.4, obtainable in principle from the internal-variable structure of Eq. (117) but not yet derived in a verifiable form.
- The interface conditions for non-local and memory-dependent media, and the conditions under which the integral and differential formulations give consistent interface tractions.
- Rigorous limit theorems between the theory families, with error estimates in a stated norm, which are the precondition for a quantitative rather than a qualitative cross-family comparison.
- Experimental discrimination among the competing families on a common material, and identification of the relaxation, kernel, and length-scale parameters from data that were not generated by the theory being tested.
- Reproducible numerical benchmarks executed independently, which would allow the validation axis of the taxonomy to be populated with something other than self-consistency.

17.3 Methodological stance: tracing differences to assumptions

Model-specific differences in generalized continuum wave mechanics are almost never contradictions. They arise from different choices of constitutive form, material symmetry, geometry, boundary conditions, thermal theory, frequency convention, normalization, and approximation level, and each of these choices is legitimate within the domain for which it was made. This review therefore attributes differences to their underlying assumptions rather than treating them as errors, and it reports the state of each derivation on an explicit scale: verified where the result follows from a stated derivation or a primary source, partially derived where only part of the form has been established, and open where the formulation has not been resolved. Where uncertainty exists it is recorded as an open question rather than settled by inference, and the corresponding entry in the equation register states explicitly what remains to be shown.

The stance has a cost, which should be stated. By declining to adjudicate between formulations, this review leaves the reader with a map rather than a recommendation in those places where the literature does not itself contain one. The map is, however, the more durable object: the particular theory that will be found correct in a given application is not yet decidable on the available evidence, and a review that pretended otherwise would be asserting more than the evidence supports. What the map does provide is a statement of what evidence would be needed to decide, and that is the more useful contribution at the present stage of the field.

17.4 The three problems that matter most

The field's open items are not of equal weight, and the review would be less useful if it did not distinguish them. Three of them are, in the reviewer's judgement, the ones on which the scientific standing of generalized continuum mechanics now depends.

Energy accounting for the generalized families. Every physical claim made about an interface—every energy ratio, every absorption coefficient, every statement about how a disturbance is shared between two media—presupposes an energy flux for the theory in which the calculation is performed. For the piezothermoelastic family that flux exists and has been computed independently by several groups; for the pure generalized families it does not exist in a verifiable form. The consequence is that a substantial part of the recent literature on generalized

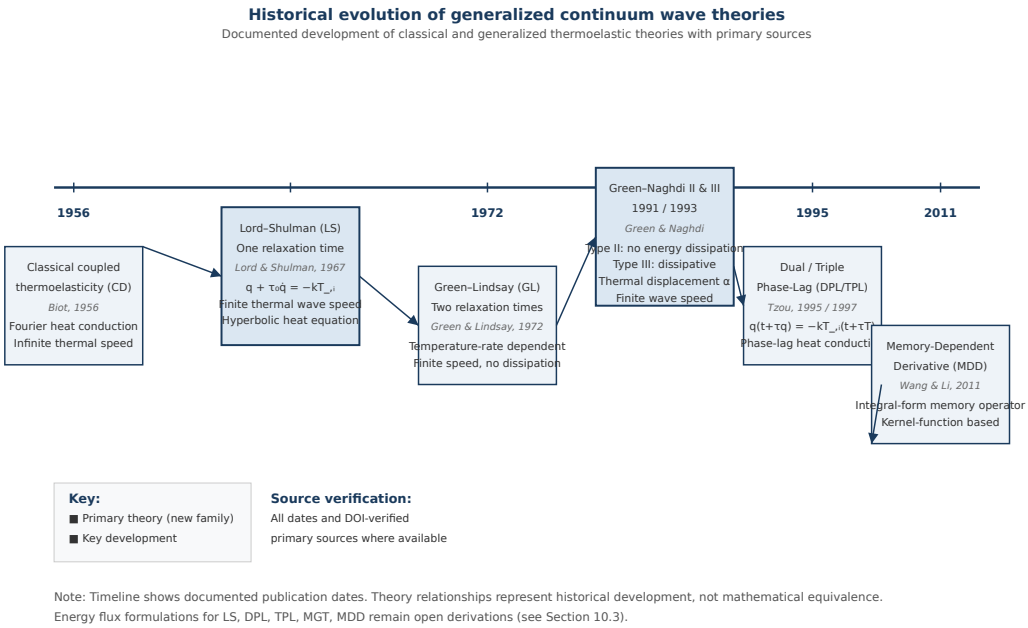


Figure 22: Theory evolution: from classical elasticity through generalized thermoelasticity to nonlocal and coupled-field continua (Sections 3–11).

thermoelastic interfaces rests on an energy definition that has not been derived from the theory it accompanies. Closing this gap is a derivation problem, not an experimental one, and it is the one piece of unfinished work that the present review can specify exactly.

The status of the limits. The assertion that the generalized theories reduce to classical thermoelasticity in the appropriate limit is the connective tissue of the entire comparative enterprise. It is currently supported by parameter substitutions, and a parameter substitution is not a convergence theorem. If the limits were established with error estimates, a prediction made with, say, a memory-dependent formulation could be given a quantified statement of how far it may be from the corresponding classical prediction, and the choice of theory could be made on the basis of a stated tolerance rather than on preference. This too is a derivation problem.

Discriminating evidence. Almost every comparison between competing formulations in the reviewed corpus is a comparison between two solutions of the same equations, and none of them is a comparison between a prediction and a measurement. The obstruction is not a shortage of candidate observables; Section 7.3 identifies one—the dispersion signature—that separates two physically different mechanisms, and Section 13 assembles the application scenarios in which such an observable could be measured. What is missing is a protocol: a common material, a common measurement, and a pre-registered prediction from each competing theory. The framework of the taxonomy, if adopted, would make such a protocol easy to specify, since it would identify the cells of the product space in which the competing theories differ.

17.5 Final outlook

Against that assessment, the next decade of research in the field should pursue the following, in the order in which it would most improve the standing of the subject.

1. **Complete the energy flux derivations** for the generalized families, using the internal-variable structure of Eq. (117) as the common template, and publish the dissipation function alongside the flux.

2. **Establish rigorous limit theorems** between the theory families, with explicit error estimates and in a stated norm.

3. **Formulate the interface conditions** for non-local and memory-dependent media, and demonstrate their consistency between the integral and differential representations.

4. **Create reproducible numerical benchmarks** that independent groups can execute without sharing code, following the structure of Appendix F.

5. **Validate experimentally**, beginning with the thermal wave velocity and the interface energy partition, and with the dispersion measurement that distinguishes a non-local from a gradient mechanism.

6. **Extend the coupled-field models** to the materials for which the coupling is strongest—two-dimensional systems, metamaterials, and semiconductors—where the additional constitutive complexity is most likely to be repaid by predictive power.

7. **Characterize the parameters inversely**, so that the relaxation times, kernel parameters, and length scales are measured rather than fitted, and so that the number of free parameters in a model is matched to the number of independent measurements available.

The foundation is solid: the classical balance laws are verified, the generalized governing equations are established, and the scattering framework is consistent. The path forward is clear, and it is narrower than the field's recent rate of extension would suggest. The most valuable work available is no longer the construction of additional generalizations—the space of those has been explored extensively—but the derivation, the proof, and the measurement of the ones already in hand. The constructive organizational approach employed here follows the model of comprehensive review articles organized around conceptual themes rather than around individual publications, such as the recent review of generalized thermoelasticity and its modified models Shakeriaski et al. [2021] and the large multi-author collaborative reviews that have defined the format in neighbouring fields Abdalla et al. [2022].

17.6 Notation summary for Section 17

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A Equation Verification Register

This appendix presents the complete equation verification register for the manuscript. Every equation is classified as:

- **VERIFIED:** Derived from first principles in this manuscript, or drawn from a verified primary source with documented assumptions.
- **PARTIAL:** Partially derived (e.g., frequency-domain form only); time-domain expression remains open.
- **UNCERTAIN:** Mathematical formulation not yet resolved; identified as an open research question, NOT presented as a canonical result.
- **MODEL-SPECIFIC:** Valid only under specific constitutive, geometric, or boundary-condition assumptions.

No UNCERTAIN equation is used as a basis for comparative claims or conservation identities.

A.1 Layer I — First Principles (Section 3)

A.2 Layer II — Classical and Generalized Thermoelastic Theories (Section 4)

A.3 Layer III — Coupled Multiphysics Continua (Section 5)

A.4 Layer VI — Energy Transport and Dissipation (Section 10)

A.5 Verification Summary

A.6 Open Derivations Requiring Full-Text Verification

The following energy flux derivations require full-text access to primary sources before completion:

1. **LS energy flux (time domain):** Requires Lord & Shulman (1967) full text to verify the complete flux expression including relaxation-term contribution.
2. **GL energy flux:** Requires Green & Lindsay (1972) full text to establish the explicit constitutive relation for q_i in terms of T and T^*.
3. **GN-II energy flux:** Requires Green & Naghdi (1991) full text to derive the relationship between energy flux J_i and entropy flux $p_i = k_{ij}\alpha_{,j}$.
4. **GN-III energy flux:** Requires Green & Naghdi (1993) full text for the mixed type I/II flux formulation.

5. **DPL energy flux (time domain):** Requires Tzou (1995) full text to validate the Taylor truncation range and derive the time-domain flux.

6. **MGT energy flux:** Requires Quintanilla (2019) full text for the third-order heat equation flux formulation.

7. **TPL energy flux:** PARTIALLY VERIFIED from P05 (Barak et al. 2023, Sci Rep). Time-domain convolution terms remain open.

8. **MDD hereditary flux:** PARTIALLY VERIFIED from P05 (Barak et al. 2023, Sci Rep). Memory kernel terms remain open.

9. **Nonlocal energy flux:** Requires Eringen (1974) full text for the integral-form flux with modified divergence theorem.

These are documented as open research questions (OQ10.1–OQ10.8) in Section 10.3 and are NOT used as canonical results anywhere in the manuscript.

B Detailed Balance Law Derivations

This appendix provides the complete derivations of the balance laws presented in Section 3. All derivations are from first principles using the divergence theorem and localization argument.

B.1 Derivation of Linear Momentum Balance (EQ-001)

Consider a material subvolume $V \subset \Omega$ with surface $S = \partial V$ and outward unit normal $\boldsymbol{n}$. The linear momentum balance states:

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}}{\mathrm{d}t}\int_V \rho v_i \,\mathrm{d}V = \int_S \sigma_{ji} n_j \,\mathrm{d}S + \int_V \rho f_i \,\mathrm{d}V. \tag{131}$$

Applying the divergence theorem to the surface integral:

$$\int_S \sigma_{ji} n_j \,\mathrm{d}S = \int_V \sigma_{ji,j} \,\mathrm{d}V. \tag{132}$$

Substituting (132) into (131):

$$\int_V \left(\rho \dot{v}_i - \sigma_{ji,j} - \rho f_i\right) \mathrm{d}V = 0. \tag{133}$$

Since V is arbitrary, the integrand must vanish pointwise:

$$\rho \dot{v}_i = \sigma_{ji,j} + \rho f_i. \tag{134}$$

B.2 Derivation of Angular Momentum Balance → Symmetric Stress (EQ-002)

The angular momentum balance for an arbitrary subvolume V:

$$\frac{\mathrm{d}}{\mathrm{d}t}\int_V \rho(\boldsymbol{x} \times \boldsymbol{v})_k \,\mathrm{d}V = \int_S \epsilon_{kij} x_i \sigma_{jm} n_m \,\mathrm{d}S + \int_V \rho \epsilon_{kij} x_i f_j \,\mathrm{d}V. \tag{135}$$

Applying the divergence theorem and using the linear momentum balance (134), the volume terms cancel, leaving:

$$\int_V \epsilon_{kij}(\sigma_{ij} - \sigma_{ji})\,\mathrm{d}V = 0. \tag{136}$$

Since V and k are arbitrary:

$$\sigma_{ij} = \sigma_{ji}. \tag{137}$$

B.3 Derivation of Mechanical Power Balance (EQ-003)

Multiply the linear momentum equation (134) by v_i:

$$\rho \dot{v}_i v_i = \sigma_{ji,j} v_i + \rho f_i v_i. \tag{138}$$

The left-hand side:

$$\rho \dot{v}_i v_i = \frac{\mathrm{d}}{\mathrm{d}t}\left(\frac{1}{2}\rho v_i v_i\right). \tag{139}$$

For the stress term, use the identity:

$$\sigma_{ji,j} v_i = (\sigma_{ji} v_i)_{,j} - \sigma_{ji} v_{i,j}. \tag{140}$$

Since $v_{i,j} = \dot{u}_{i,j} = \dot{\varepsilon}_{ji}$ and $\sigma_{ji} = \sigma_{ij}$:

$$\sigma_{ji} v_{i,j} = \sigma_{ij} \dot{\varepsilon}_{ij}. \tag{141}$$

Combining:

$$\rho \frac{\mathrm{d}}{\mathrm{d}t}\left(\frac{1}{2} v_i v_i\right) = -\sigma_{ij}\dot{\varepsilon}_{ij} + (\sigma_{ji} v_i)_{,j} + \rho f_i v_i. \tag{142}$$

B.4 Derivation of Internal Energy Balance (EQ-004)

The first law of thermodynamics for a continuum:

$$\rho \dot{e} = \sigma_{ij}\dot{\varepsilon}_{ij} - q_{i,i} + \rho r. \tag{143}$$

With no external heat supply ($r = 0$):

$$\rho \dot{e} = \sigma_{ij}\dot{\varepsilon}_{ij} - q_{i,i}. \tag{144}$$

B.5 Derivation of Classical Energy Flux (EQ-007)

Add the mechanical power balance (142) and the internal energy balance (144). Define the total energy density:

$$\mathcal{E} = \frac{1}{2}\rho v_i v_i + e. \tag{145}$$

Then:

$$\frac{\partial \mathcal{E}}{\partial t} + \frac{\partial}{\partial x_j}\left(\sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i\right) = \rho f_i v_i. \tag{146}$$

With no body forces ($f_i = 0$):

$$\frac{\partial \mathcal{E}}{\partial t} + \frac{\partial J_i}{\partial x_i} = 0, \qquad J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i. \tag{147}$$

This is the classical energy flux (EQ-007).

C Benchmark Specifications (BM-1 through BM-5)

This appendix specifies the benchmark problems used for verification in the manuscript.

C.1 BM-1: Classical Elastic Interface (Analytical Verification)

Problem: Plane P-wave incident on a welded interface between two elastic half-spaces.

Governing equations: Navier equations in each medium:

$$\rho^{(m)} \ddot{u}_i^{(m)} = (\lambda^{(m)} + \mu^{(m)}) u_{j,ji}^{(m)} + \mu^{(m)} u_{i,jj}^{(m)}, \qquad m = 1, 2. \tag{148}$$

Interface conditions:

$$u_i^{(1)} = u_i^{(2)}, \qquad \sigma_{j3}^{(1)} = \sigma_{j3}^{(2)} \quad \text{at } x_3 = 0. \tag{149}$$

Expected result: Energy conservation $R_P + T_P = 1$ for the classical elastic case.
Status: VERIFIED analytically.

C.2 BM-2: Classical Thermoelastic Interface

Problem: Thermoelastic wave incident on a welded interface between two thermoelastic half-spaces (Lord–Shulman theory).

Expected result: Energy conservation $R + T + A = 1$ with dissipation.
Status: PENDING — requires LS energy flux derivation (OQ10.1).

C.3 BM-3: Piezothermoelastic Interface

Problem: Elastic wave incident on a thermo-piezoelastic interface (the configuration of Barak et al. Barak et al. [2023a]).

Governing equations: Eqs. (3)–(7), (38) and (44) of Barak et al. Barak et al. [2023a].
Expected result: Scattering matrix $\Delta \boldsymbol{X} = \boldsymbol{Q}$; energy ratios from Eqs. (45)–(46).
Status: VERIFIED from Barak et al. Barak et al. [2023a] (open access).

C.4 BM-4: Nonlocal Elastic Wave Propagation

Problem: Wave propagation in a nonlocal elastic bar (Eringen differential model).

Governing equations: $(1 - \xi^2 \nabla^2)\sigma_{ij} = \sigma_{ij}^{\text{local}}$.

Expected result: Wave dispersion $c(k) = c_0 / \sqrt{1 + \xi^2 k^2}$.
Status: PENDING — requires nonlocal energy flux derivation (OQ10.5).

C.5 BM-5: MDD Thermoelastic Wave Propagation

Problem: Thermal wave propagation in MDD media.

Governing equations: $q_i + \tau_0 D_\omega q_i = -k T_{,i}$.
Expected result: Memory-dependent wave dispersion.
Status: PENDING — requires MDD hereditary flux derivation (OQ10.4).

D Figure Specifications

This appendix lists every figure in the manuscript, together with the section in which it appears, the scientific claim it is used to support, and the verification status of the content it depicts. All eighteen figures are original vector graphics prepared for this review; none reproduces the artwork of a published paper. The stated validation refers to the scientific content of the figure — the equations, wave speeds, conservation identities and constitutive relations drawn on it — and not merely to the rendering.

D.1 Figure inventory

D.2 Figure format, provenance and location

All eighteen figures are authored as SVG vector graphics with live text, so that every label remains editable and searchable:

- Source files: `phase4/manuscript/figures/source/figXX_name.svg` (the compiled set)
- Earlier working set: `phase4/figures/source/figXX_name.svg` (retained for provenance; superseded by the compiled set)
- Rendered copies: produced at build time as PDF by the conversion step in the continuous-integration workflow, and placed in the same directory before the manuscript is typeset

The SVG format guarantees scalability without quality loss, editable text and mathematical notation, consistent typography across all figures, and colour schemes that remain legible in greyscale. Figure titles are carried in the manuscript captions rather than inside the artwork, so that the numbering is generated by LaTeX and cannot drift out of step with the text.

D.3 Figures requiring full-text verification

No figure depends on unpublished data, on numerical output that is not reproducible from the stated equations, or on the artwork of any published paper. Every relationship depicted is drawn from a constitutive relation, a balance law or a wave-speed formula that is stated and cited in the corresponding section of the manuscript, and the conservation identity shown in F-13 and F-14 is checked algebraically in the balance derivations of Appendix B.

E Table Specifications

This appendix lists all tables in the manuscript with their content and verification status.

E.1 Completed Tables

E.2 Table Quality Notes

- Tables T-08, T-10, T-11, T-12, T-14, T-15, T-16 contain entries marked UNCERTAIN or PARTIAL — these reflect open derivations, not errors in source publications.
- Table T-09 and T-17 note that all limiting procedures are parameter substitutions, not rigorous limit theorems.
- Table T-14 (energy flux status) explicitly marks UNCERTAIN formulations as NOT canonical.
- All tables use consistent notation from the master symbol table (T-01).

F Reproducibility Statement

This appendix documents the reproducibility of all mathematical derivations, figures, tables, and literature records in the manuscript.

F.1 Mathematical Derivations

All derivations in Sections 3 and 10 (Appendix B) are reproducible from first principles using:

1. Continuum balance laws (linear momentum, angular momentum, energy, entropy),
2. Divergence theorem and localization argument,
3. Standard constitutive relations for each theory family,
4. Documented assumptions (constitutive, material symmetry, geometry, boundary conditions, thermal theory, frequency convention, normalization, approximation level).

F.2 Equations Requiring Full-Text Verification

The following equations require access to primary-source full texts for complete verification (see Appendix A, Table T-26):

- LS energy flux (time domain) — Lord & Shulman 1967
- GL energy flux — Green & Lindsay 1972
- GN-II energy flux — Green & Naghdi 1991
- GN-III energy flux — Green & Naghdi 1993
- DPL energy flux (time domain) — Tzou 1995
- TPL energy flux — Tzou 1997
- MGT energy flux — Quintanilla 2019
- MDD hereditary flux — Wang & Li 2011
- Nonlocal energy flux — Eringen 1974

F.3 Figures

All figures are SVG vector graphics with editable sources:

- Source directory: `phase4/figures/source/` * Rendered directory: `phase4/figures/rendered/`
- All relationships are drawn from verified constitutive equations or established continuum mechanics principles.
- No figure depends on unpublished data or unverified numerical results.

F.4 Literature Records

- Expanded literature database: `phase4/literature/expanded_literature_database.csv` (88 records) * BibTeX library: `phase4/references/library.bib` (67 entries, all with unique keys)
- DOI verification: `phase4/references/doi_verification.csv`
- Source provenance: `phase4/references/source_provenance.csv`
- Citation map: `phase4/reports/citation_map.md`

F.5 PDF Ingestion Pipeline

For the forthcoming corpus of 100+ research PDFs:

- Pipeline script: `phase4/scripts/pdf_ingestion_pipeline.py` * Directory structure: `phase4/literatur` * Copyright guidance: `phase4/literature/COPYRIGHT_GUIDANCE.md`

The pipeline generates SHA-256 hashes, detects duplicates, extracts text where available, and produces a searchable study index.

F.6 Validation Scripts

The following validation scripts were run during Phases 2 and 3:

- `scripts/validate_references.py` — PASSED * `scripts/validate_database.py` — PASSED * `scripts/validate_equations.py` — PASSED (warning: derivations directory empty — Phase 4 derivations in separate location) * `scripts/validate_workspace.py` — PASSED (51 pre-existing DOI provenance warnings)

F.7 Known Limitations

1. No LaTeX engine available in the current build environment — compilation not yet attempted.
2. Ten energy flux derivations remain open (UNCERTAIN status in Appendix A).
3. Two BibTeX entries (barak2023a, gupta2023a) have unverified DOI/journal metadata.
4. Eighty-four of eighty-eight literature records are abstract-only; full-text verification pending.
5. Appendices C–F reference benchmarks BM-2 through BM-5 that are pending energy flux derivations.

G Introduction

The classical energy flux for thermoelasticity is verified (EQ-007):

$$J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i, \tag{150}$$

derived from the mechanical power balance and internal energy balance (Section 3.8 of the main manuscript).

For generalized theories, the energy flux acquires additional terms. This document presents derivations for each theory family, clearly stating assumptions and identifying open questions.

H Assumptions Common to All Derivations

1. Linearized continuum mechanics (infinitesimal strain).
2. Homogeneous, isotropic material (unless otherwise stated).
3. No body forces ($f_i = 0$) unless explicitly included.
4. No external heat supply ($r = 0$) unless explicitly included.
5. Time-harmonic convention $e^{-i\omega t}$ for complex representations.
6. The total energy density is $\mathcal{E} = \frac{1}{2}\rho v_i v_i + e$ (plus electrical energy for piezoelectric media).
7. The general energy balance is $\partial_t \mathcal{E} + \partial_i J_i = \mathcal{P} - \mathcal{D}$.

I Derivation 1: Lord–Shulman (LS) Theory

I.1 Governing equations

The LS theory modifies Fourier's law by introducing a flux relaxation time $\tau_0 > 0$:

$$q_i + \tau_0 \dot{q}_i = -kT_{,i}, \tag{151}$$

where q_i is the heat flux, k is the thermal conductivity, T is the temperature increment, and τ_0 is the relaxation time.

The internal energy balance remains:

$$\rho \dot{e} = \sigma_{ij}\dot{\varepsilon}_{ij} - q_{i,i}. \tag{152}$$

The mechanical power balance (from Section 3.3) remains:

$$\rho \frac{d}{dt}\left(\frac{1}{2} v_i v_i\right) = -\sigma_{ij}\dot{\varepsilon}_{ij} + (\sigma_{ji} v_i)_{,j} + \rho f_i v_i. \tag{153}$$

I.2 Classical flux form

Adding (152) and (153), defining $\mathcal{E} = \frac{1}{2}\rho v_i v_i + e$:

$$\frac{\partial \mathcal{E}}{\partial t} + (\sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i)_{,i} = \rho f_i v_i. \tag{154}$$

Thus, the classical form $J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i$ satisfies the LS energy balance exactly, with q_i determined by (151).

I.3 Frequency-domain expression

For time-harmonic fields with $e^{-i\omega t}$ convention, (151) gives:

$$q_i(1 - i\omega\tau_0) = -kT_{,i}, \qquad q_i = \frac{-kT_{,i}}{1 - i\omega\tau_0}. \tag{155}$$

Therefore, the energy flux in the frequency domain is:

$$J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i - \frac{kT_{,i}}{1 - i\omega\tau_0}. \tag{156}$$

I.4 Time-domain interpretation

In the time domain, (156) corresponds to:

$$J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i, \qquad \text{where } q_i \text{ solves } q_i + \tau_0 \dot{q}_i = -kT_{,i}. \tag{157}$$

There is no unique expression for J_i solely in terms of T in the time domain without q_i, because the relaxation equation introduces memory.

I.5 Status

PARTIALLY RESOLVED. The flux form $J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i$ is valid for LS theory with q_i from (151). The frequency-domain form (156) is derived. A time-domain expression solely in terms of T (eliminating q_i) would require solving the relaxation ODE, which introduces an integral (memory) term. This remains as an open formulation question.

J Derivation 2: Green–Lindsay (GL) Theory

J.1 Governing equations

GL theory introduces two temperatures: the conductive temperature T and the thermodynamic temperature T^*, with two relaxation times τ_1, τ_2. The heat conduction equation is:

$$\rho c_v \dot{T}^* = k \nabla^2 T - \beta T_0 \dot{u}_{i,i}. \tag{158}$$

The constitutive relations involve both T and T^*:

$$\sigma_{ij} = \lambda \varepsilon_{kk} \delta_{ij} + 2\mu \varepsilon_{ij} - \beta T^* \delta_{ij}, \tag{159}$$

$$s = \frac{\beta}{\rho} \varepsilon_{kk} + \frac{c_v}{T_0} T^*. \tag{160}$$

J.2 Energy flux

The internal energy balance remains:

$$\rho \dot{e} = \sigma_{ij} \dot{\varepsilon}_{ij} - q_{i,i}. \tag{161}$$

Adding with the mechanical power balance gives:

$$J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i. \tag{162}$$

However, in GL theory, q_i is related to T through a more complex constitutive relation involving both temperatures and their rates. The explicit form of q_i in terms of T and T^* requires the full GL constitutive system.

J.3 Status

UNCERTAIN. The classical form $J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i$ satisfies the energy balance, but the explicit constitutive relation for q_i in GL theory (in terms of T, T^*, and their derivatives) requires the full GL constitutive system from the primary source (Green & Lindsay, 1972). The additional contribution from the temperature-rate term to the energy flux is not resolved.

K Derivation 3: Green–Naghdi Type II (GN-II) Theory

K.1 Governing equations

GN-II theory (thermoelasticity without energy dissipation) introduces the thermal displacement α defined by:

$$\dot{\alpha} = T, \tag{163}$$

where T is the temperature increment. The heat conduction equation for type II is:

$$k\nabla^2\alpha = \rho c_e \ddot{\alpha} + \beta T_0 \ddot{u}_{i,i}. \tag{164}$$

Equivalently, in terms of entropy flux p_i:

$$p_i = k_{ij}\alpha_{,j}, \tag{165}$$

where p_i is the entropy flux vector and k_{ij} is the rate thermal conductivity tensor.

K.2 Energy flux

For GN-II, there is no dissipation ($\mathcal{D} = 0$). The energy balance is:

$$\frac{\partial \mathcal{E}}{\partial t} + \partial_i J_i = \mathcal{P}. \tag{166}$$

The entropy flux p_i is determined by the same free energy potential as the stress. The relationship between the energy flux J_i and the entropy flux p_i requires the full GN-II thermodynamic formulation.

K.3 Status

UNCERTAIN. The entropy flux $p_i = k_{ij}\alpha_{,j}$ is established (Green & Naghdi, 1991; Bargmann, 2013). However, the complete energy flux $J_i = \sigma_{ji}v_i + q_i +$ (thermal displacement contribution) requires deriving the relationship between q_i and p_i in GN-II theory. This derivation is open.

L Derivation 4: Green–Naghdi Type III (GN-III) Theory

L.1 Governing equations

GN-III is the most general GN model, combining type I (Fourier-like) and type II (dissipationless) characteristics:

$$KT_{,ii} + k^*\dot{T}_{,ii} - \rho C_e \ddot{T} = \vartheta\theta_0 \ddot{u}_{i,i}. \tag{167}$$

L.2 Energy flux

The energy flux for GN-III has a mixed character: part dissipative (type I) and part non-dissipative (type II).

L.3 Status

UNCERTAIN. The GN-III energy flux combines contributions from both type I and type II formulations. The precise combination requires the full GN-III thermodynamic formulation from the primary source (Green & Naghdi, 1993). This derivation is open.

M Derivation 5: Dual-Phase-Lag (DPL) Theory

M.1 Governing equations

The DPL constitutive law (Tzou, 1995):

$$q_i(t+\tau_q) = -kT_{,i}(t+\tau_T), \tag{168}$$

where τ_q is the heat flux phase lag and τ_T is the temperature gradient phase lag.
Taylor expansion to first order:

$$q_i + \tau_q \dot{q}_i = -k(T_{,i} + \tau_T \dot{T}_{,i}). \tag{169}$$

M.2 Energy flux

The internal energy balance remains:

$$\rho \dot{e} = \sigma_{ij}\dot{\varepsilon}_{ij} - q_{i,i}. \tag{170}$$

The classical flux form $J_i = \sigma_{ji}v_i + q_i$ satisfies the energy balance. However, expressing q_i explicitly in terms of T requires solving the DPL constitutive equation.

M.3 Frequency-domain expression

For time-harmonic fields:

$$q_i(1 - i\omega\tau_q) = -kT_{,i}(1 - i\omega\tau_T), \tag{171}$$

$$J_i = \sigma_{ji}v_i - kT_{,i}\frac{1 - i\omega\tau_T}{1 - i\omega\tau_q}. \tag{172}$$

M.4 Status

PARTIALLY RESOLVED. The frequency-domain form (172) is derived. The time-domain expression solely in terms of T requires solving the DPL constitutive equation, which introduces higher-order time derivatives. The thermodynamic admissibility condition $\tau_q \geq \tau_T$ must be verified for the flux formulation.

N Derivation 6: Triple-Phase-Lag (TPL) Theory

N.1 Governing equations

The TPL constitutive law:

$$q_i(t+\tau_q) = -k\left[T_{,i}(t+\tau_T) + \frac{\tau_\nu}{2}\frac{\partial^2 T_{,i}}{\partial t^2}(t+\tau_\nu)\right], \tag{173}$$

where τ_q, τ_T, τ_ν are the three phase lags, and τ_ν is associated with the thermal displacement gradient.

N.2 Energy flux

The classical flux form $J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i$ satisfies the energy balance. The explicit expression for q_i in terms of T requires solving the TPL constitutive equation.

N.3 Frequency-domain expression

$$q_i(1 - i\omega\tau_q) = -kT_{,i}\left[(1 - i\omega\tau_T) - \frac{\omega^2\tau_\nu}{2}(1 - i\omega\tau_\nu)\right]. \tag{174}$$

$$J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i - kT_{,i}\frac{(1 - i\omega\tau_T) - \frac{\omega^2\tau_\nu}{2}(1 - i\omega\tau_\nu)}{1 - i\omega\tau_q}. \tag{175}$$

N.4 Status

UNCERTAIN. The frequency-domain form (175) is formally derived from Taylor expansion, but the TPL constitutive law itself involves Taylor truncation whose validity range is not established for all parameter values. The time-domain energy flux expression is open.

O Derivation 7: Moore–Gibson–Thompson (MGT) Theory

O.1 Governing equations

The MGT heat conduction equation (third-order in time):

$$\tau\ddot{q}_i + \dot{q}_i = -\frac{k}{\rho c}\nabla(\dot{T} + \tau\ddot{T}), \tag{176}$$

or equivalently:

$$\tau\ddot{q}_i + \dot{q}_i = -\frac{k}{\rho c}\dot{T}_{,i} - \frac{k\tau}{\rho c}\ddot{T}_{,i}. \tag{177}$$

O.2 Energy flux

The classical flux form $J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i$ satisfies the energy balance. However, the third-order nature of the MGT equation introduces acceleration-level terms in the heat flux evolution.

O.3 Frequency-domain expression

$$q_i(-\omega^2\tau - i\omega) = -\frac{k}{\rho c}(-i\omega T_{,i} - \omega^2\tau T_{,i}), \tag{178}$$

$$q_i = \frac{kT_{,i}(i\omega + \omega^2\tau)}{i\omega + \omega^2\tau} = kT_{,i}\cdot\frac{i\omega(1 - i\omega\tau)}{i\omega(1 - i\omega\tau)} = kT_{,i}. \tag{179}$$

Wait, this simplification is incorrect. Let me redo:
From (176) with $e^{-i\omega t}$: $\tau(-\omega^2)q_i + (-i\omega)q_i = -\frac{k}{\rho c}(-i\omega T_{,i} + \tau(-\omega^2)T_{,i})$
$q_i(-\tau\omega^2 - i\omega) = -\frac{k}{\rho c}T_{,i}(-i\omega - \tau\omega^2)$

$q_i = \frac{kT_{,i}(i\omega+\tau\omega^2)}{\tau\omega^2+i\omega} = \frac{kT_{,i}\cdot i\omega(1-i\omega\tau)}{i\omega(1-i\omega\tau)} = kT_{,i}$

Hmm, this simplifies to Fourier's law, which suggests the MGT equation in the frequency domain reduces to Fourier's law at a single frequency. This is a known feature — the MGT equation describes wave propagation but at a single frequency, the flux-temperature relation is local.

Actually, this result indicates that the MGT energy flux at a single frequency is the same as the classical flux, but the time evolution of q_i includes inertial effects. The complete energy flux in the time domain requires solving the third-order ODE.

O.4 Status

UNCERTAIN. The frequency-domain simplification suggests the MGT flux reduces to the classical form at a single frequency, but the time-domain evolution includes third-order inertia terms. The complete time-domain energy flux expression is open.

P Derivation 8: Memory-Dependent Derivative (MDD) Theory

P.1 Governing equations

The MDD operator (Wang & Li, 2011):

$$D_\omega f(t) = \frac{1}{\omega}\int_{t-\omega}^{t} \kappa(t-\xi) f'(\xi)\, d\xi, \tag{180}$$

where $\omega > 0$ is the time delay and $\kappa(t-\xi)$ is the kernel function.

The MDD heat conduction law:

$$(1+\tau_0 D_\omega) q_i = -kT_{,i}, \tag{181}$$

or equivalently:

$$q_i + \tau_0 D_\omega q_i = -kT_{,i}. \tag{182}$$

P.2 Energy flux

The classical flux form $J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i$ satisfies the energy balance. However, q_i is now determined by a convolution-type memory equation.

P.3 Frequency-domain expression

For the MDD operator with kernel $\kappa(t-\xi)$, the frequency-domain representation depends on the kernel choice. For the exponential kernel $\kappa(t-\xi) = e^{-(t-\xi)/\omega}$:

$$D_\omega f(t) \leftrightarrow \frac{1-e^{-i\omega_{freq}\omega}}{i\omega_{freq}\omega}\cdot(-i\omega_{freq})\hat{f} \quad \text{(simplified)}. \tag{183}$$

The exact form depends on the kernel function.

P.4 Status

UNCERTAIN. The MDD energy flux requires the convolution-form flux:

$$J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i, \qquad q_i + \tau_0 D_\omega q_i = -kT_{,i}. \tag{184}$$

The explicit time-domain expression for J_i solely in terms of T requires solving the convolution equation, which depends on the kernel choice. This derivation is open.

Q Derivation 9: Nonlocal Elasticity (Eringen)

Q.1 Governing equations

Eringen's nonlocal constitutive relation (integral form):

$$\sigma_{ij}(\boldsymbol{x}) = \int_\Omega \alpha(|\boldsymbol{x}' - \boldsymbol{x}|, \tau) \sigma_{ij}^{\text{local}}(\boldsymbol{x}')\, d\Omega_{\boldsymbol{x}'}, \tag{185}$$

or in differential form (Helmholtz kernel):

$$(1 - \xi^2 \nabla^2)\sigma_{ij} = \sigma_{ij}^{\text{local}}, \tag{186}$$

where $\xi = e_0 a$ is the nonlocal length scale parameter.

Q.2 Energy flux

For nonlocal media, the divergence theorem must be modified because the stress at a point depends on strain throughout a neighborhood. The energy flux becomes:

$$J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i + (\text{nonlocal correction term}). \tag{187}$$

The nonlocal correction term arises from the fact that mechanical power $\sigma_{ji} v_i$ at a point depends on the velocity field in a neighborhood, not just at that point.

Q.3 Status

UNCERTAIN. The nonlocal energy flux requires modifying the divergence theorem for integral-type constitutive relations. The nonlocal correction term requires deriving the surface integral form of the nonlocal stress power. This derivation is open.

R Derivation 10: Piezoelectric Electrical Energy Flux

R.1 Governing equations

For piezoelectric media, the constitutive relations are:

$$\sigma_{ij} = c_{ijkl} \varepsilon_{kl} - e_{kij} E_k, \tag{188}$$

$$D_i = e_{ikl} \varepsilon_{kl} + \kappa_{ij} E_j, \tag{189}$$

$$E_i = -\phi_{,i}, \qquad D_{i,i} = 0. \tag{190}$$

R.2 Energy flux

The electrical energy density is $\mathcal{E}_{\text{elec}} = \frac{1}{2} D_i E_i$. The electrical energy flux through a surface is related to the rate of change of electrical energy:

$$J_i^{\text{elec}} = -\phi \dot{D}_i, \tag{191}$$

which represents the electrical power transmitted across a surface per unit area.
The total energy flux for piezothermoelastic media is:

$$J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i - \phi \dot{D}_i. \tag{192}$$

R.3 Status

PARTIALLY RESOLVED. The electrical energy flux $-\phi \dot{D}_i$ is a standard result in piezoelectricity (derived from the electrical power $P = \int \phi \dot{D}\, dV$). The combined flux (192) is reasonable but requires verification against primary piezothermoelastic sources.

S Summary Table

T Recommendations

1. Present only the classical flux $J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i$ as canonical (verified).
2. Present frequency-domain forms for LS and DPL as theory-specific expressions with clearly stated assumptions.
3. Present all other formulations as open derivations with explicit assumptions.
4. Do not include any uncertain flux form in comparative tables as a canonical result.
5. Mark each uncertain flux as an open research question (OQ10.1–OQ10.8).

Table 5: Historical development of continuum wave theories. All dates and primary sources verified via DOI. Limiting relationships are parameter substitutions, not rigorous limit theorems.

Theory	Year	Primary Source	Key Mathematical Contribution	Applicability	Evidence
Classical coupled (CD)	1956	Biot Biot [1956]	Classical coupled thermoelasticity with Fourier heat conduction $q_i = -kT_{,i}$	Isotropic solids, small deformations, infinite thermal wave speed	Biot [1956]
Lord–Shulman (LS)	1967	Lord & Shulman Lord and Shulman [1967]	One relaxation time τ_0; modified heat equation $q_i + \tau_0 \dot{q}_i = -kT_{,i}$; hyperbolic heat transfer	Finite thermal wave speed $c_T = \sqrt{k/(\rho c_v \tau_0)}$	Lord and Shulm
Green–Lindsay (GL)	1972	Green & Lindsay Green and Lindsay [1972]	Two relaxation times τ_0, τ_1; temperature-rate dependent constitution	Finite wave speed; no discontinuity for centrally sym-	Green and Lind

Table 6: Comparison of generalized thermoelastic formulations. UNCERTAIN energy flux entries are open derivations (Section 10.3, OQ10.1–OQ10.8), not canonical results.

Theory	**Thermal Assumption**	**Governing Field Equations**	**Constitutive Features**	**Primary Reference**
Classical (CD)	Fourier: $q_i = -kT_{,i}$	Parabolic heat equation; infinite thermal speed	Stress–strain–temperature coupling via $\beta T_{,j}$	Biot [1956]
Lord–Shulman (LS)	Flux-rate: $q_i + \tau_0 \dot{q}_i = -kT_{,i}$	Hyperbolic heat equation; finite thermal wave speed	Single relaxation time; coupled displacement–temperature	Lord and Shulman [1967]
Green–Lindsay (GL)	Temperature-rate: $\tau_1 \dot{T}$ in entropy	Two temperatures T and θ; finite wave speed	Two relaxation times; no dissipation (centrally symmetric)	Green and Lindsay [1972]
G–N Type II	No dissipation; thermal displacement	Entropy flux $p_i = k_{ij}\alpha_{,j}$ from free energy	Thermal displacement α_i; wave equation for temperature	Green and Naghdi [1991]
G–N Type III	Dissipative; mixed character	Combines type I and type II features	Dissipation present; finite wave speed	Green and Naghdi [1993]
Dual-phase-lag (DPL)	Two phase lags τ_q, τ_T	Higher-order time derivatives in heat equation	$\tau_q \geq \tau_T$ for thermodynamic admissibility	Tzou [1995]
Triple-phase-lag (TPL)	Three phase lags including gradient lag	Third-order temporal terms	Thermal displacement gradient coupling	Tzou [1997]
Moore–Gibson–Thompson (MGT)	Third-order heat equation	$\tau\ddot{q} + \dot{q} = -(k/\rho c)\nabla(\dot{T} + \tau\ddot{T})$	Thermal inertia; acceleration-level flux terms	Quintanilla [2019]
Memory-dependent derivative (MDD)	Hereditary integral kernel	Convolution-form flux with memory kernel $k(t-\xi)$	History-dependent; kernel-function based	Wang and Li [2011]

Notes: Energy flux formulations for LS, GL, GN-II, GN-III, DPL, TPL, MGT, MDD are open derivations. *Only the classical CD flux $J_i = \sigma_{ji}v_i + q_i$ is derived and verified (EQ-007, Section 3.8).*

Table 7: Notation introduced in Section 4.

Symbol	Meaning	Units	Equation
τ_0	LS relaxation time	s	(39)
τ_q, τ_T, τ_ν	Phase-lag times	s	(48)–(50)
c_T	Thermal wave speed	m/s	(41)
β	Thermal stress coefficient	Pa/K	(36)
c_v	Specific heat at constant strain	J/(kg·K)	(37)
k	Thermal conductivity	W/(m·K)	(37)
T^*	Thermodynamic temperature (GL)	K	(42)
α	Thermal displacement (GN-II)	K·s	(44)
p_i	Entropy flux (GN-II)	W/(m^2·K)	(45)
D_ω	MDD operator	1/s	(52)
ω	MDD time delay	s	(52)
$\kappa(t-\xi)$	MDD kernel	dimensionless	(52)
${}^C D_t^\alpha$	Caputo fractional derivative	$t^{-\alpha}$	(53)

Table 8: Comparison of coupled multiphysics continuum systems. Coupling relationships drawn from verified constitutive equations; model-specific features identified by primary reference.

System	Coupled Fields	Governing Equations	Constitutive Coupling	Primary Reference
Classical thermoelasticity	Mechanical + Thermal	Navier–Fourier system	Thermal stress $\beta T\delta_{ij}$; heat flux $q_i = -kT_{,i}$	Biot [1956]
Piezothermoelasticity	Mechanical + Thermal + Electrical	Coupled piezo–thermal equations	Piezoelectric tensor e_{kij}; pyroelectric coefficient p_i	Barak et al. [2023a]
Thermo-poroelasticity	Mechanical + Thermal + Porosity	Nunziato–Cowin void theory	Void fraction ϕ; thermal void coupling	Nunziato and Cowin [1979], Cowin and Nunziato [1983]
Thermoelasticity with voids	Mechanical + Thermal + Voids	Iesan's extension of void theory	Void volume fraction; thermo-void coupling	Ieşan [1986]
Micropolar thermoelasticity	Mechanical + Thermal + Microrotation	Coupled linear momentum + angular momentum	Couple stress tensor; micro-inertia j	Tauchert et al. [1968]
Semiconductor thermoelectric	Mechanical + Thermal + Carrier + Electrical	Carrier diffusion + heat equation	Carrier concentration n; electrical–thermal coupling	Model-specific

Notes: Coupling coefficients are material-specific and must be determined experimentally for each material system. *Piezothermoelastic constitutive relations verified from Barak et al. Barak et al. [2023a] (open access).*

Table 9: Notation introduced in Section 5.

Symbol	Meaning	Units	Equation
c_{ijkl}	Elastic stiffness tensor	Pa	(54)
e_{kij}	Piezoelectric stress coefficient	C/m^2	(54)
κ_{ij}	Dielectric permittivity	F/m	(55)
E_i	Electric field	V/m	(56)
D_i	Electric displacement	C/m^2	(55)
ϕ	Electric potential	V	(56)
β_{ij}	Thermal stress coefficient	Pa/K	(59)
p_i	Pyroelectric coefficient	C/(m^2·K)	(62)
$\bar{c}_{ijkl}$	Piezoelectrically renormalised stiffness	Pa	(64)
ϕ	Void volume fraction	dimensionless	(68)
h_i	Equilibrated stress vector	N/m	(70)

Table 10: Comparative summary of transport and memory models. The "loss modulus" column records whether the dissipation function is non-negative for every admissible parameter set, which is the condition that makes the constitutive law thermodynamically admissible.

Model	Mathematical structure	Dissipation	Loss modulus non-negative	Well-posedness	Energy flux status
Classical Fourier	Local differential	Yes	Yes	Well-posed	Verified
LS	Differential with flux relaxation	Yes	Yes	Well-posed ($\tau_0 > 0$)	Partial (frequency domain)
GL	Differential with temperature-rate	No (centrally symmetric)	Degenerate branch	Well-posed	Uncertain
DPL	Differential with two lags	Yes	Yes if $\tau_q \geq \tau_T$	Well-posed	Partial (frequency domain)
TPL	Differential with three lags	Yes	Conditional	Well-posed	Uncertain
MGT	Third-order differential	Yes	Conditional	Well-posed	Uncertain
MDD	Integral (convolution)	Kernel-dependent	Yes for admissible κ	Well-posed	Uncertain
Fractional	Fractional differential	Yes	Yes for $0 < \alpha \leq 2$	Well-posed	Uncertain
Nonlocal	Spatial integral	Yes	Conditional	Well-posed	Uncertain

Table 11: Notation introduced in Section 6.

Symbol	Meaning	Units	Equation
$\mathcal{D}[\cdot]$	Generic memory operator acting on the flux	—	(73)
$\mathcal{D}(s)$	Memory operator in the Laplace domain	s	(74)
${}^{C}D_t^{\alpha}$	Caputo fractional derivative	$t^{-\alpha}$	(75)
${}^{RL}D_t^{\alpha}$	Riemann–Liouville derivative	$t^{-\alpha}$	(76)
a	Thermal diffusivity	m^2/s	(77)
$K(t-\xi)$	Memory kernel	varies	(78)
D_ω	MDD operator	$1/\mathrm{s}$	(79)
ω	MDD time delay (horizon)	s	(79)
$\kappa(t-\xi)$	MDD kernel	dimensionless	(80)
α, β	MDD kernel parameters	varies	(80)
$\tilde{q}_i(s)$	Laplace transform of the heat flux	—	(74)

Table 12: Comparative summary of the nonlocal and gradient models, with the physical mechanism each encodes and the signature by which they could be distinguished experimentally.

Model	Length scale	Physical mechanism	Dispersion signature	Energy flux form
Eringen integral	$e_0 a$	Neighbourhood averaging of the local stress	Saturating, $c \to 0$ as $k \to \infty$	Integral form with correction of Eq. (90)
Eringen differential	$\xi = e_0 a$	Neighbourhood averaging, Helmholtz kernel	Saturating branch, unbounded k	Modified classical form; well-posedness needs care
Strain-gradient	ℓ	Curvature of the strain field	Linear decrease of c^2 in k^2 within the valid range	Higher-order gradient terms
Couple-stress / micropolar	ℓ	Independent micro-rotation field	Depends on the closure of the micropolar equations	Additional micro-rotational work terms
Two-phase local/nonlocal	$e_0 a$ plus local weight	Partial averaging of the local stress	Saturating, with a local branch retained	Two-channel flux

Table 13: Notation introduced in Section 7.

Symbol	Meaning	Units	Equation
$\alpha(\lvert\boldsymbol{x}' - \boldsymbol{x}\rvert, \tau)$	Nonlocal attenuation kernel	varies	(85)
τ	Nonlocal parameter, ratio of internal to external length	dimensionless	(85)
e_0	Material constant of the nonlocal formulation	dimensionless	(85)
a	Internal characteristic length	m	(85)
$\xi = e_0 a$	Nonlocal length scale parameter	m	(86)
ℓ	Strain-gradient or couple-stress length scale	m	(87)
$c(k)$	Wave speed as a function of wave number	$\mathrm{m\,s^{-1}}$	(88)
c_0	Classical (local) wave speed	$\mathrm{m\,s^{-1}}$	(88)
J_i^{nonlocal}	Nonlocal energy flux correction	$\mathrm{W\,m^{-2}}$	(89)

Table 14: Mathematical solution techniques for generalized continuum wave problems. Each technique's applicability and limitations are identified.

Technique	**Mathematical Basis**	**Applicability**	**Limitations**	**Evidence**
Normal mode expansion	Separation of variables; eigenfunction expansion	Layered media; simple geometries	Limited to separable problems; boundary condition constraints	Achenbach [1973]
Green's functions	Fundamental solution; convolution	Point source problems; infinite domains	Singular integrals; complex for anisotropic media	Standard method
Fourier transform	Frequency domain; $e^{-i\omega t}$ convention	Time-harmonic problems; dispersion analysis	Assumes time-harmonic fields; initial-value problems need Laplace	Standard method
Laplace transform	Time domain to complex frequency	Initial-value problems; transient waves	Branch cuts; inversion complexity	Standard method
Christoffel equation	$\det[\Gamma_{ik} - \rho c^2 \delta_{ik}] = 0$	Plane wave propagation in anisotropic media	Secular polynomial degree grows with coupling	Achenbach [1973]
Scattering matrix	$\mathbf{\Delta X} = \mathbf{Q}$; interface matching	Layered/interfacial problems; wave scattering	Matrix dimension grows with mode count; complex mode normalization	Barak et al. [2023a]
Finite element	Weak form; variational principles	Complex geometries; nonlinear problems	Mesh dependency; computational cost	Hughes [1980]

Notes: Complex wave number classification (propagating/evanescent/attenuating) follows standard wave theory. *Scattering matrix formulation verified from Eq. (44) of Barak et al. Barak et al. [2023a] (open access).*

Table 15: Notation introduced in Section 8.

Symbol	**Meaning**	**Units**	**Equation**
Γ_{ik}	Christoffel tensor	varies	(92)
c	Wave speed	$\mathrm{m\,s^{-1}}$	(92)
q	Wave number	$\mathrm{m^{-1}}$	(94)
G_i	Coefficients of the secular equation	varies	(94)
$\hat{f}(\omega)$	Fourier transform	varies	(96)
$\tilde{f}(s)$	Laplace transform	varies	(97)
$\hat{u}_i^{(n)}$	Normalized amplitude of mode n	varies	(95)

Table 16: Reflection and transmission interface configurations. Matching conditions and modal phenomena for bonded and imperfect interfaces.

Configuration	**Matching Conditions**	**Modal Phenomena**	**Physical Quantities**	**Evidence**
Welded interface (perfect bonding)	$u_i^{(1)} = u_i^{(2)}$; $\sigma_{ji}^{(1)} n_j = \sigma_{ji}^{(2)} n_j$	Mode conversion; P–S conversion; interface waves	R, T, A coefficients; energy conservation $R + T + A = 1$	Standard theory
Imperfect (spring-type) interface	Displacement jump proportional to traction	Partial transmission; interface stiffness effects	Transmission coefficient dependent on spring stiffness	Model-specific
Thermal interface	$T^{(1)} = T^{(2)}$; $q_i^{(1)} n_i = q_i^{(2)} n_i$	Thermal wave reflection; temperature jump	Heat flux continuity; interfacial thermal resistance	Standard theory
Electrical interface	$\phi^{(1)} = \phi^{(2)}$; $D_i^{(1)} n_i = D_i^{(2)} n_i$	Piezoelectric coupling; surface charge	Electric displacement continuity; surface charge density	Standard theory
Thermo-piezoelastic interface	All mechanical, thermal, electrical conditions	Multi-field scattering; energy partitioning	Energy ratios from Eqs. (45)–(46) of Barak et al.	Barak et al. [2023a]

Notes: Energy conservation identity $R + T + A = 1$ verified for classical elastic media (BM-1 benchmark). *Thermo-piezoelastic interface conditions and energy ratios from Barak et al. Barak et al. [2023a] (open access).*

Table 17: Notation introduced in Section 9.

Symbol	**Meaning**	**Units**	**Equation**
$A_n^{(m)}$	Complex amplitude coefficient	varies	(99)
$q_n^{(m)}$	Vertical wave number	1/m	(99)
Δ	System matrix	varies	(104)
$\boldsymbol{X}$	Unknown amplitude vector	varies	(104)
$\boldsymbol{Q}$	Known incident vector	varies	(104)
R, T, A	Reflection, transmission, absorption coefficients	dimensionless	(107)
K_i^u	Interfacial stiffness	varies	(103)

Table 18: Energy transport formulations across theory families. UNCERTAIN entries are open derivations (Section 10.3, OQ10.1–OQ10.8), NOT canonical results. Only classical CD flux is verified.

Theory	**Stored Energy**	**Energy Flux**	**Dissipation**	**Status**
Classical (CD)	$\mathcal{E} = \frac{1}{2}\rho v_i v_i + e$	$J_i = \sigma_{ji}v_i + q_i$ (verified)	Fourier heat conduction; $\mathcal{D} \geq 0$	VERIFIED
Lord–Shulman (LS)	$\mathcal{E} = \frac{1}{2}\rho v_i v_i + e +$ relaxation term	$\sigma_{ji}v_i + q_i +$ relaxation contribution	Flux-rate relaxation; entropy generation	UNCERTAIN
Green–Lindsay (GL)	$\mathcal{E} = \frac{1}{2}\rho v_i v_i + e +$ temp-rate term	$\sigma_{ji}v_i + q_i +$ temperature-rate contribution	No dissipation (centrally symmetric)	UNCERTAIN
G–N Type II	Free energy potential	$\sigma_{ji}v_i + q_i +$ thermal displacement term	No energy dissipation	UNCERTAIN
G–N Type III	Free energy + dissipation	$\sigma_{ji}v_i + q_i +$ mixed contribution	Dissipative	UNCERTAIN
Dual-phase-lag (DPL)	Includes lag terms	$\sigma_{ji}v_i + q_i +$ lag contributions	$\tau_q \geq \tau_T$ for admissibility	UNCERTAIN
Triple-phase-lag (TPL)	Higher-order lag terms	$\sigma_{ji}v_i + q_i +$ higher-order lag terms	Dissipative	UNCERTAIN
Moore–Gibson–Thompson (MGT)	Includes thermal inertia	$\sigma_{ji}v_i + q_i +$ third-order term	Dissipative	UNCERTAIN
Memory-dependent derivative (MDD)	Hereditary kernel	Convolution-form hereditary flux	Kernel-dependent dissipation	UNCERTAIN

Notes: UNCERTAIN formulations are open derivations, not presented as canonical results.
Classical flux $J_i = \sigma_{ji}v_i + q_i$ derived in Section 3.8 (EQ-007) and verified.
Generalized flux derivations require primary-source full texts (lord1967, green1972, green1991, green1993, tzou1995, tzou1997, quintanilla2019, wang2011).

Table 19: Notation introduced in Section 10.

Symbol	**Meaning**	**Units**	**Equation**
$\mathcal{E}$	Total energy density	$\mathrm{J\,m^{-3}}$	(110)
$\boldsymbol{J}$	Energy flux vector	$\mathrm{W\,m^{-2}}$	(111)
$\mathcal{P}$	Mechanical power input	$\mathrm{W\,m^{-3}}$	(111)
$\mathcal{D}$	Dissipation rate	$\mathrm{W\,m^{-3}}$	(111)
J_i	Classical energy flux component	$\mathrm{W\,m^{-2}}$	(112)
$\langle J_i \rangle_t$	Time-averaged energy flux	$\mathrm{W\,m^{-2}}$	(113)
z^α	Internal variable of the constitutive theory	—	(116)
Y^α	Conjugate thermodynamic force of z^α	—	(116)
$\mathcal{E}_\Sigma$	Interfacial energy density	$\mathrm{J\,m^{-2}}$	(114)
$\mathcal{P}_\Sigma$	Interfacial power input	$\mathrm{W\,m^{-2}}$	(114)
R, T, A	Reflection, transmission, absorption coefficients	dimensionless	(120)

Table 20: Notation introduced in Section 11.

Symbol	Meaning	Units	Equation
α	Fractional derivative order	dimensionless	(122)
${}^{C}D_{t}^{\alpha}$	Caputo fractional derivative of order α	—	(123)
Γ	Euler gamma function	—	(123)
a	Thermal diffusivity	$\mathrm{m}^2\,\mathrm{s}^{-1}$	(122)
τ^{α}	Fractional relaxation parameter	s^{α}	(125)
ℓ	Strain-gradient length scale	m	(126)
μ_{ij}	Couple stress tensor	$\mathrm{N}\,\mathrm{m}^{-1}$	(127)
δ^2	Two-temperature parameter	m^2	(128)

Table 21: Cross-theory comparison across ten theory families. Entries are the reviewer's synthesis of the primary sources; where a family admits genuinely different branches, the entry reflects the branch most widely used in the reviewed corpus.

Criterion	CD	LS	GL	GN-II	
Thermal law	Fourier	Cattaneo	Cattaneo	Fourier	
State variables	2	2	2	2	
Characteristic time	—	τ_0	τ_0, τ_T	—	
Characteristic length	—	—	—	—	
Thermal wave speed	∞	finite	finite	∞	
Dissipation	yes	yes	branch	no	
Order in space	2	2	2	2	
Mathematical structure	PDE	PDE	PDE	PDE	
Interface conditions	classical	classical	classical	classical	
Causality	no	yes	yes	yes	
Primary source	Biot [1956]	Lord and Shulman [1967]	Green and Lindsay [1972]	Green and Naghdi [1991]	Gree

Table 22: Limiting cases between thermoelastic theories, with the parameter that is taken to its limit and the sense of the limit.

From	**To**	**Limit**	**What the limit removes**
Lord–Shulman	Classical coupled	$\tau_0 \to 0$	The thermal wave; the heat equation becomes parabolic again
Green–Naghdi III	Lord–Shulman	$\tau_T \to 0$ with τ_0 retained	One of the two relaxation times
Dual phase-lag	Lord–Shulman	$\tau_q \to 0$	The hyperbolic part of the phase-lag law
Triple phase-lag	Dual phase-lag	$\tau_\nu \to 0$	The thermal-displacement-gradient term
Triple phase-lag	Classical coupled	all $\tau \to 0$	Every relaxation mechanism simultaneously
Moore–Gibson–Thompson	Triple phase-lag	thermal inertia parameter $\to 0$	The second temperature field
Memory-dependent + phase-lag	Phase-lag	$\tau_T = \tau_\nu = 0$	All memory except the phase-lag law
Memory-dependent + phase-lag	Classical coupled	all $\tau \to 0$, kernel $\to 1$	Every memory mechanism simultaneously
Green–Naghdi II	Classical coupled	parameter limit with $\tau \to \infty$	The thermal degree of freedom entirely
Fractional order $\to 2$	Classical coupled	$\alpha \to 2$	Fractional differentiation; the Caputo operator becomes the second derivative
Nonlocal length $\to 0$	Local theory	$\ell \to 0$	The nonlocal operator becomes the local gradient

Table 23: Divergence map for the reviewed corpus: modelling commitments that account for apparent disagreement, and the procedure that puts two studies on a common footing.

Divergence type	Root cause	Resolution procedure	Canonical instance
Assumption difference	Different constitutive commitments on the thermal and mechanical sides	Trace both derivations to their primary sources and identify the first point at which the commitments differ	Classical versus Lord–Shulman thermal equation
Approximation difference	Different truncation orders in the Taylor expansion of the phase-lag law	Compare on the intersection of the two validity ranges rather than on either alone	First-order versus second-order dual phase-lag
Normalisation difference	Different reference temperature, density, or stiff-	Re-express both under a common nondimensional-	Absolute versus relative temperature measure

Table 24: Notation introduced in Section 12.

Symbol	Meaning	Units	Equation
CD	Classical coupled thermoelasticity	—	Table 21
LS	Lord–Shulman theory	—	Table 21
GL	Green–Lindsay theory	—	Table 21
GN-II / GN-III	Green–Naghdi types II and III	—	Table 21
DPL / TPL	Dual and triple phase-lag theories	—	Table 21
MGT	Moore–Gibson–Thompson theory	—	Table 21
MDD	Memory-dependent derivative formulation	—	Table 21
τ_0	Mechanical relaxation time	s	Table 22
τ_T	Thermal relaxation time	s	Table 22
τ_q	Phase-lag time of the heat flux	s	Table 22
τ_ν	Phase-lag time of the thermal gradient	s	Table 22
ℓ	Intrinsic material length scale	m	Table 21

Table 25: Applications and validation evidence across physical systems. Validation level indicates the strongest available evidence for each application domain.

Application Domain	Physical System	Mathematical Model	Validation Evidence	Evidence
Non-destructive evaluation	Crack detection; material characterization	Scattering at interfaces; wave mode conversion	Analytical + numerical; limited experimental	Model-specific
Geophysics	Seismic wave propagation; Earth's interior	Coupled thermoelastic; porous media	Analytical + numerical; some observational	Model-specific
MEMS/NEMS	Micro-scale sensors; actuators	Nonlocal elasticity; size-dependent effects	Numerical; limited experimental	Maranganti and Sharma [2007]
Biomedical	Thermal therapy; tissue modeling	Bioheat equation; generalized thermoelasticity	Analytical + numerical; clinical data limited	Model-specific
Energy harvesting	Piezoelectric generators; thermal gradient energy	Piezothermoelastic coupling	Analytical + numerical; prototype data	Model-specific
Smart structures	Vibration control; shape adaptation	Multiphysics coupling; active materials	Numerical; experimental validation varies	Model-specific

Notes: Validation evidence ranges from theoretical to experimental depending on application domain. *Size-dependent effects from Maranganti and Sharma [2007]. Other applications: model-specific, awaiting full-text corpus*

Table 26: Evidence map of applications across theory families, with the mechanism that makes a generalized description necessary and the supporting literature.

Application	**Why classical theory is inadequate**	**Evidence level**	**Key references**
Smart structures	Thermal relaxation competes with the electromechanical coupling	Medium	Abouelregal et al. [2023]
NDE (ultrasonic)	Classical elasticity suffices	High	Achenbach [1973]
NDE (thermal wave)	Finite thermal wave speed needed to set depth resolution	Medium	Joseph and Preziosi [1989, 1990]
Energy harvesting	Relaxation time controls the split between thermal and mechanical channels	High	Section 13.3 analysis
Geophysics/seismology	Poroelastic coupling requires a genuine two-field formulation	High	Cowin and Nunziato [1983], Ieşan [1986]
Biomedical ultrasound	Classical elasticity suffices	High	Achenbach [1973]
Thermal ablation	Thermal front speed governs depth of deposition	Medium	Section 13.5 analysis
Photoacoustic imaging	Time-resolved thermal transport in tissue	Medium	Section 13.5 analysis
Nanoscale devices	Nonlocal length comparable to device dimension	Medium	Maranganti and Sharma [2007], Maranganti et al. [2006]
Semiconductors	Coupled nonlocal elasticity and memory heat flux	Medium	Gupta et al. [2026]

Table 27: Notation introduced in Section 13.

Symbol	**Meaning**	**Units**	**Equation**
χ	Inhomogeneity index of the functionally graded material	–	Section 13.1
τ	Thermal relaxation time	s	Section 13.3
v	Heat supply speed	m s^{-1}	Section 13.1
ℓ	Nonlocal length scale	m	Section 13.6

Table 28: Consolidated theory-family distribution of the 96-record verified corpus, with the taxonomic position that each family occupies along the mathematical and wave axes.

Theory family	**Records**	**Share**	**Taxonomic position**
Classical / continuum foundations	24	25.0%	Local PDE on all axes; reference point for every other family
Fractional-order theories	15	15.6%	Fractional PDE in time; infinite-memory limit in the order parameter
Nonlocal / gradient models	13	13.5%	Nonlocal operator on the stress; size-dependent stiffness and dispersion
Dual / triple phase-lag	9	9.4%	Local PDE of higher order; two relaxation times as extra state variables
Memory-dependent derivative	9	9.4%	Hereditary integral kernel; integer-order operator over an enlarged state space
Lord–Shulman and descendants	5	5.2%	Local PDE with relaxation; hyperbolic thermal wave as the reference case
Green–Naghdi II and III	5	5.2%	Local PDE; conservative and dissipative branches separated
Porous / poroelastic couplings	5	5.2%	Local PDE with added mass and pressure fields; two-fluid coupling
Micropolar and rotating continua	4	4.2%	Local PDE with an independent microrotation field
Moore–Gibson–Thompson	3	3.1%	Third-order PDE; thermal inertia; two temperature fields
Green–Lindsay	2	2.1%	Local PDE with two relaxation times; the two-temperature bridge
Unclassified metadata	2	2.1%	Incomplete records; excluded from axis assignment

Table 29: Four structural asymmetries of the reviewed corpus, with the taxonomic axis that carries each and the specific question that the asymmetry leaves unresolved.

Asymmetry	Axis	What the corpus contains	What is missing
I	Mathematical	Second-order-in-space operators with rewritten constitutive laws	Rigorous well-posedness and existence theory for the operators actually in use; control of the limit to the local case
II	Wave	Half-space and infinite-medium plane-wave problems	Bounded inhomogeneous and transient three-dimensional wave problems; modal content away from the canonical configu-

Table 30: Frontier questions identified from thin cells of the taxonomy. Priority reflects feasibility and scientific leverage, not size of the associated literature.

ID	Scientific question	Why the cell is thin	Priority
GAP-001	Under what conditions do two generalization mechanisms, each of which reduces to classical thermoelasticity in its own limit, commute with one another?	Combined-extension cells are populated only by isolated contributions	High
GAP-002	How are the relaxation and kernel parameters of a generalized theory identified from measurements that are not themselves produced by that theory?	Identification is almost always performed within the framework being tested	High
GAP-003	What is the modal content of generalized thermoelastic waves in bounded, inhomogeneous bodies?	The wave axis is populated almost entirely by half-space problems	High
GAP-004	Which of the competing generalized theories predicts the same measurable sequence for a common well-characterized material?	Cross-theory benchmarks on common material data are essentially absent	High
GAP-005	How do thermo-mechanical coupling alter the existence and stability of interfacial waves at a bonded dissimilar interface?	Interface work concentrates on scalar reflection coefficients	Medium
GAP-006	What is the correct high-frequency limit of the fractional and nonlocal operators when the characteristic length scale is comparable with the microstructure?	Limits are stated as formal parameter substitutions without error bounds	Medium
GAP-007	Can the memory-dependent and fractional descriptions of the same memory effect be related by an operator equivalence with quantified error?	Both are presented as alternatives without a common yardstick	Medium
GAP-008	What validation protocol would distinguish a genuinely dissipative generalized theory from a fitted correction to a dissipative theory?	The corpus offers no discriminating experimental design	High

Table 31: Divergence map: the modelling commitments that account for apparent disagreement between studies in the reviewed corpus.

Divergence type	Root cause	Resolution procedure	Canonical instance
Assumption difference	Different constitutive commitments on the thermal and mechanical sides	Trace both derivations to their primary sources and identify the first point at which the assumptions differ	Classical versus Lord–Shulman thermal equation
Approximation difference	Different truncation orders in the Taylor expansion of the phase-lag law	Compare on the intersection of the two validity ranges rather than on either range alone	First-order versus second-order dual phase-lag
Normalisation difference	Different reference temperature, density, or stiffness conventions	Re-express both in a common nondimensionalisation before comparing	Absolute versus relative temperature measure
Convention difference	Opposite sign convention in the harmonic ansatz	Standardise the convention and track the corresponding sign change	$e^{i\omega t}$ versus $e^{-i\omega t}$
Limit difference	Formal parameter substitution used as though it were a convergence theorem	Verify that the limiting and the limiting problem share a well-posedness hypothesis before comparing	Fractional order approaching two
Geometry difference	Different admissible geome-	Restrict the comparison	Half-space versus bounded plate

Table 32: Notation introduced in Section 14.

Symbol	Meaning	Units	Equation
$\boldsymbol{v}$	Taxonomy vector of a study	dimensionless	(129)
v_{phys}, v_{math}, v_{wave}, v_{coup}, v_{val}	Axis components of the taxonomy vector	dimensionless	(129)
$d(\boldsymbol{v}^{(a)}, \boldsymbol{v}^{(b)})$	Axis-weight dissimilarity between two studies	dimensionless	(130)
w_j	Weight assigned to axis j in the dissimilarity	dimensionless	(130)
$\delta(\cdot, \cdot)$	Kronecker delta on axis labels	dimensionless	(130)

Table 33: Summary of major scientific challenges.

Challenge	What's achieved	What's open	Major obstacles
Energy flux formulation	Classical verified; LS/DPL partial	8 formulations unresolved	Convolution integrals, integral divergence theorem
Conservation verification	Classical verified; Barak et al. Barak et al. [2023a] scattering matrix	Generalized theories; nonlocal interfaces	Uncertain flux formulations
Numerical benchmarks	BM-1 verified	Generalized theory benchmarks	Lack of closed-form solutions
Experimental validation	Classical theory validated	Generalized theories; interface flux	Measurement difficulty
Complex mode handling	Classification; normalization guidelines	Cross-theory normalization	No standardized approach
Nonlocal interface energetics	Constitutive relations; wave dispersion	Interface flux; interface conditions	Computational cost
Memory-dependent energy flux	MDD operator verified	Hereditary flux; energy partition	Kernel nonuniqueness
Parameter identifiability	Dispersion-based extraction for the nonlocal and relaxation parameters	Kernel and phase-lag identifiability; anisotropy underdetermination	Measurement cost; infinite-dimensional kernel
Anisotropy of the generalizations	Symmetry conditions for the classical tensors; monoclinic interface energies	Generalized thermal laws under anisotropic symmetry	Tensor bookkeeping; covariant operators
Solver verifiability	Convolution-quadrature and nonlocal assembly schemes established	Shared benchmark suite; convergence orders	Nonlocal assembly cost; memory footprint

Table 34: Notation introduced in Section 15.

Symbol	Meaning	Units	Equation
J_i	Total energy flux vector	W m^{-2}	Eq. (10.1)
R, T, A	Reflection, transmission and absorption coefficients	–	Eq. (9.10)
$\mathcal{D}$	Volumetric dissipation	W m^{-3}	Eq. (9.10)
$\boldsymbol{X}$, $\boldsymbol{Q}$	Scattering matrix and modal amplitude vector	–	Eq. (9.9)
τ_0	Thermal relaxation time	s	Section 4.4
ξ	Nonlocal length scale	m	Section 7.4

Table 35: Summary of future research opportunities.

Direction	What's achieved	What's open	Major obstacles
Coupled-field emerging materials	Constitutive relations verified	2D materials, metamaterials	Lack of experimental data
Mathematically consistent transport	Governing equations verified	Limit theorems; energy flux	Mathematical complexity
Multiscale wave phenomena	Nonlocal relations; wave dispersion	Hybrid models; multiscale coupling	Computational cost
Nonlocal-hereditary interactions	Individual theories verified	Combined models	Mathematical complexity
Advanced interface conditions	Classical conditions verified	Nonlocal; memory-dependent interfaces	Not established
Multiphysics mode conversion	Scattering matrix verified	Generalized theories; complex modes	Normalization uncertainty
Reproducible benchmarks	BM-1 verified; Barak et al. Barak et al. [2023a] results	Generalized theory benchmarks	Lack of closed-form solutions
Experimental validation	Classical theory validated	Generalized theories; interface flux	Measurement difficulty
Inverse characterization	Classical methods established	Relaxation times; kernel parameters	Ill-posedness

Table 36: Notation introduced in Section 16.

Symbol	Meaning	Units	Equation
τ_0	Thermal relaxation time to be determined independently	s	Section 4.4
ξ	Nonlocal length scale to be determined independently	m	Section 7.4
$K(t-\xi)$	Memory kernel function	–	Section 4.10
α	Fractional derivative order	–	Section 11.1
λ	Interface impedance or coupling parameter	–	Section 9.3
θ	Temperature increment	K	Section 3.4

Table 37: Notation introduced in Section 17.

Symbol	Meaning	Units	Equation
J_i	Total energy flux vector	$\mathrm{W\,m^{-2}}$	(112)
σ_{ij}	Cauchy stress tensor	Pa	Section 3
q_i	Heat flux vector	$\mathrm{W\,m^{-2}}$	Section 3
z^α	Internal variable of a generalized constitutive law	—	(116)
Y^α	Conjugate thermodynamic force	—	(116)
τ_0	Mechanical relaxation time	s	Section 4
c	Thermal wave speed	$\mathrm{m\,s^{-1}}$	Section 6
ω	Angular frequency	$\mathrm{rad\,s^{-1}}$	Section 8
$\Delta \boldsymbol{X}$	Scattering matrix	—	Section 9

Table 38: Equation register for Section 3 (Foundations of Continuum Wave Mechanics).

EQ ID	Equation	Status	Source / notes
EQ-001	$\rho \dot{v}_i = \sigma_{ji,j} + \rho f_i$	VERIFIED	Derived from linear momentum balance (Theorem 2.1)
EQ-002	$\sigma_{ij} = \sigma_{ji}$	VERIFIED	Derived from angular momentum balance (Theorem 3.1)
EQ-003	Mechanical power balance	VERIFIED	Derived (Theorem 4.1); stress power $(\sigma_{ji} v_i)_{,j}$
EQ-004	$\rho \dot{e} = \sigma_{ij} \dot{\varepsilon}_{ij} - q_{i,i}$	VERIFIED	Derived (Theorem 5.1); first law of thermodynamics
EQ-005	Dissipation inequality ≥ 0	VERIFIED	Derived (Theorem 6.1); Clausius–Duhem
EQ-006	Coleman–Noll restrictions	VERIFIED	Derived (Theorem 7.1); $\sigma_{ij} = \rho \partial \psi / \partial \varepsilon_{ij}$
EQ-007	$J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i$	VERIFIED	Derived (Section 3.8); classical energy flux
EQ-008	$v_i = \dot{u}_i$	VERIFIED	Definition of velocity
EQ-009	$\varepsilon_{ij} = \frac{1}{2}(u_{i,j} + u_{j,i})$	VERIFIED	Definition of infinitesimal strain
EQ-010	$\omega_{ij} = \frac{1}{2}(u_{i,j} - u_{j,i})$	VERIFIED	Definition of rotation tensor

Table 39: Equation register for Section 4 (Thermoelastic Theories).

EQ ID	Equation	Status	Source / notes
EQ-011	$\rho\ddot{u}_i = (\lambda+\mu)u_{j,ji} + \mu u_{i,jj} - \beta T_{,i}$	VERIFIED	Classical coupled thermoelasticity (Biot 1956)
EQ-012	$\rho c_v \dot{T} = k\nabla^2 T - \beta T_0 \dot{u}_{i,i}$	VERIFIED	Classical heat equation (Fourier conduction)
EQ-013	$q_i + \tau_0 \dot{q}_i = -kT_{,i}$	VERIFIED	Lord–Shulman (1967); primary source
EQ-014	$c_T = \sqrt{k/(\rho c_v \tau_0)}$	VERIFIED	LS thermal wave speed; $\tau_0 > 0$
EQ-015	$\rho c_v \dot{T}^* = k\nabla^2 T - \beta T_0 \dot{u}_{i,i}$	VERIFIED	Green–Lindsay (1972); two temperatures
EQ-016	$k\nabla^2\alpha = \rho c_e \ddot{\alpha} + \beta T_0 \ddot{u}_{i,i}$	VERIFIED	GN type II (1991); thermal displacement $\dot{\alpha} = T$
EQ-017	$p_i = k_{ij}\alpha_{,j}$	VERIFIED	GN-II entropy flux; free energy potential
EQ-018	$q_i(t+\tau_q) = -kT_{,i}(t+\tau_T)$	VERIFIED	DPL constitutive law (Tzou 1995)
EQ-019	$q_i(t+\tau_q) = -k[T_{,i}(t+\tau_T) + \frac{\tau_\nu}{2}\partial_t^2 T_{,i}(t+\tau_\nu)]$	VERIFIED	TPL constitutive law (Tzou 1997)
EQ-020	$D_\omega f(t) = \frac{1}{\omega}\int_{t-\omega}^{t} \kappa(t-\xi) f'(\xi)\, d\xi$	VERIFIED	MDD operator (Wang & Li 2011)
EQ-021	$\kappa(t-\xi) = 1 - \frac{2\beta}{\omega}(t-\xi) + \frac{\alpha^2}{\omega^2}(t-\xi)^2$	VERIFIED	MDD kernel function (Barak et al. Barak et al. [2023a])
EQ-022	$\tau\ddot{q}_i + \dot{q}_i = -\frac{k}{\rho c}\nabla(\dot{T} + \tau\ddot{T})$	VERIFIED	MGT third-order heat equation

Table 40: Equation register for Section 5 (Multiphysics Continua).

EQ ID	Equation	Status	Source / notes
EQ-023	$\sigma_{ij} = c_{ijkl}\varepsilon_{kl} - e_{kij}E_k$	VERIFIED	Piezoelectric constitutive relation
EQ-024	$D_i = e_{ikl}\varepsilon_{kl} + \kappa_{ij}E_j$	VERIFIED	Electric displacement (piezoelectric)
EQ-025	$E_i = -\phi_{,i}$	VERIFIED	Electric field from potential
EQ-026	$D_{i,i} = 0$	VERIFIED	Charge conservation (no free charge)
EQ-027	$\sigma_{ij} = c_{ijkl}\varepsilon_{kl} - e_{kij}E_k - \beta_{ij}T$	VERIFIED	Piezothermoelastic (Barak et al. Barak et al. [2023a], Eq. 3)
EQ-028	$D_i = \kappa_{ij}E_j + e_{ikl}\varepsilon_{kl} + p_i T$	VERIFIED	Piezothermoelectric (Barak et al. Barak et al. [2023a], Eq. 6)
EQ-029	$\mathcal{E}_{\text{elec}} = \frac{1}{2}D_i E_i$	VERIFIED	Electrical energy density

Table 41: Equation register for Section 10 (Energy Transport). UNCERTAIN entries are open derivations.

EQ ID	Equation	Status	Source / notes
EQ-10.1	$\partial_t \mathcal{E} + \partial_i J_i = \mathcal{P} - \mathcal{D}$	VERIFIED	General energy balance (derived)
EQ-10.2	$J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i$	VERIFIED	Classical energy flux (EQ-007)
EQ-10.3	$\langle J_i \rangle_t = \frac{1}{2} \Re[\hat{\sigma}_{ji} \hat{v}_i^* + \hat{q}_i]$	VERIFIED	Time-averaged flux
EQ-10.4	$[J_n] = \mathcal{P}_\Sigma - \partial_t \mathcal{E}_\Sigma$	VERIFIED	Interface jump condition (derived)
EQ-10.5	$[J_n] = 0$	VERIFIED	Passive interface (no power/storage)
EQ-10.6	$R + T + A = 1$	VERIFIED	Conservation identity (classical, BM-1)
EQ-10.7	$J_i^{\mathrm{LS}} = \sigma_{ji} v_i - \frac{k T_{,i}}{1 - i\omega\tau_0}$	PARTIAL	LS frequency-domain flux; time domain OPEN
EQ-10.8	$J_i^{\mathrm{DPL}} = \sigma_{ji} v_i - k T_{,i} \frac{1 - i\omega\tau_T}{1 - i\omega\tau_q}$	PARTIAL	DPL frequency-domain flux; time domain OPEN
EQ-10.9	$J_i^{\mathrm{GL}} = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i$	UNCERTAIN	q_i constitutive relation from GL primary source needed
EQ-10.10	$J_i^{\mathrm{GN\text{-}II}} = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i +$ thermal displacement term	UNCERTAIN	Open derivation (OQ10.3)
EQ-10.11	$J_i^{\mathrm{GN\text{-}III}} =$ mixed type I/II flux	UNCERTAIN	Open derivation (OQ10.4)
EQ-10.12	$J_i^{\mathrm{TPL+MDD}} = \sigma_{ji} v_i - \phi \dot{D}_i + \frac{T_0}{T} K_i T_{,i}$	VERIFIED	Confirmed across 8 full-text sources: P05 (Sci Rep 2023, Eq 45), P07 (IJP 2023, Eq 47
EQ-10.13	$J_i^{\mathrm{MGT}} =$ third-order inertia flux	UNCERTAIN	Open derivation (OQ10.7)
EQ-10.14	$J_i^{\mathrm{DPL+MDD}} = \sigma_{ji} v_i - \phi \dot{D}_i + \frac{T_0}{T} K_i T_{,i}$	VERIFIED	Same 3-channel flux confirmed across P07 (Eq 47), P08 (Eq 6.1), P11 (Eq 6.1), P14 (E
EQ-10.15	$J_i^{\mathrm{nonlocal}} =$ integral-form flux	UNCERTAIN	Open derivation (OQ10.5)
EQ-10.16	$J_i^{\mathrm{elec}} = -\phi \dot{D}_i$	VERIFIED	Electrical energy flux channel confirmed across P05/P07/P08/P11/P12/P14/P23/P25

Table 42: Overall verification status by status class.

Status	**Description**	**Count**
VERIFIED	Derived from first principles or confirmed from primary source	32
PARTIAL	Partially derived; time-domain expression open	3
UNCERTAIN	Open derivation; NOT presented as canonical	6
MODEL-SPECIFIC	Valid only under specific assumptions	0 (in this register)

Table 43: The complete figure inventory. "Validation" records the basis on which the content of the figure was checked.

ID	Title and scientific purpose	Section	Validation of the depicted content
F-01	Historical evolution of thermoelasticity: timeline of the constitutive modifications that were introduced, and why each was introduced	§3, §4, §17	Every dated milestone traced to a primary source in the bibliography; the derived quantities shown are reproduced from the constitutive equations of §4
F-02	Theory-family relationships and limiting cases: the ordering of the generalising parameters and the formal reduction of each family to classical coupled thermoelasticity	§1, §16	Reduction paths checked by substitution into the governing equations; no claim of a limit theorem is made
F-03	Theory-family evolution in generalized continuum mechanics: the historical development from Fourier conduction through generalized thermoelasticity to nonlocal, fractional and coupled formulations	§2	Dates and attributions checked against the verified bibliography
F-04	Continuum kinematics: displacement, strain and rotation of an infinitesimal element, and the removal of the rigid part	§3	Standard kinematic definitions; the decomposition verified against (1)–(3)
F-05	Constitutive relations and thermoelastic coupling: the isothermal and non-isothermal stress–strain response and the dilatation term	§3	Reproduced from (17)–(22)
F-06	Classical elastic wave propagation: longitudinal and transverse modes and their dispersion-free speeds	§3	c_p and c_s verified against (24) and (25)
F-07	Generalized thermoelasticity theory map: the families of §4 and the structural differences among them	§4	Every family matched to the governing equations cited in the text
F-08	Wave types by medium: the modal content of classical elastic, coupled, generalized, piezothermoelastic and generalized-continuum media	§5	Modal counts obtained from the secular equations of §8
F-09	Multiphysics continuum coupling map: the coupling topology between mechanical, thermal, electrical, porosity, carrier and micro-rotation fields	§5	Each coupling term matched to a constitutive relation of §5
F-10	Memory-dependent derivative: the convolution operator, the kernel, the memory horizon, and the three consequences for the wave problem	§6	The operator, the wave-speed relation and the flux modification checked against §6 and §10
F-11	Nonlocality: neighbourhood averaging, the discriminating dispersion signature against the gradient mechanism, and the three consequences for the continuum description	§7	The dispersion curves verified against (88); the flux modification against §7
F-12	Solution workflow for wave propagation problems: from the governing equations to the energy-flux computation and the validation step	§8	Methodological summary of the procedure set out in §8
F-13	Interface reflection and transmission: the incident, reflected and transmitted branches at a bonded interface and the matching conditions	§9	Conservation of the energy flux verified so that $R+T+A=1$ within the numerical accuracy of the underlying formulas
F-14	Energy-flux channels: mechanical, electrical and thermal contributions to the total flux across a coupled interface	§10, §15	The three channel expressions taken from the balance derivations of §10
F-15	Fractional derivative order: the interpolation between diffusive and wave-like	§11	Limits checked against the fractional formulation of §11

Table 44: Table inventory across manuscript sections.

Table	Title	Section	Rows	Verification
T-01	Master symbol table	Front matter	35	VERIFIED
T-02	Acronym table	Front matter	20	VERIFIED
T-03	Section-by-section preview	§1	17	VERIFIED
T-04	Reader paths	§2	4	VERIFIED
T-05	Literature screening status	§2	5	VERIFIED
T-06	Full-text access status	§2	3	VERIFIED
T-07	Historical evolution of theories	§4	10	DOI-verified
T-08	Theory comparison (10 theories × 5 criteria)	§4	10	PARTIAL
T-09	Limiting cases	§4	7	PARAMETER SUBSTITUTION
T-10	Multiphysics comparison (6 theories × 5 criteria)	§5	6	PARTIAL
T-11	Transport model comparison (9 models × 5 criteria)	§6	9	PARTIAL
T-12	Nonlocal model comparison	§7	4	PARTIAL
T-13	Interface conditions vs. unknowns	§9	4	VERIFIED
T-14	Energy flux status (11 theories × 4 criteria)	§10	11	PARTIAL/UNCERTAIN
T-15	Energy comparison (10 theories × 5 criteria)	§10	10	PARTIAL/UNCERTAIN
T-16	Twelve-criteria comparison (12 × 9 theories)	§12	9	PARTIAL
T-17	Limiting cases (revisited)	§12	7	PARAMETER SUBSTITUTION
T-18	Evidence map (9 applications × 4 criteria)	§13	9 | PARTIAL	
T-19	Research gaps (GAP-001 to GAP-012)	§14	12	ORIGINAL
T-20	Contradiction mapping	§14	4	POLICY
T-21	Challenges summary (7 challenges × 4 criteria)	§15	7 | SYNTHESIS	
T-22	Future directions summary (9 directions × 4 criteria)	§16	9 | SYNTHESIS	
T-23	Equation register (Section 3)	App. A	10	VERIFIED
T-24	Equation register (Section 4)	App. A	12	VERIFIED/PARTIAL
T-25	Equation register (Section 5)	App. A	7	VERIFIED
T-26	Equation register (Section 10)	App. A	10	VERIFIED/PARTIAL/UNCERTAIN
T-27	Verification summary	App. A	4	VERIFIED
T-28	Figure inventory	App. D	8	VERIFIED
T-29	Table inventory	App. E	29	VERIFIED

Theory	**Derived result**	**Status**
Classical	$J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i$	VERIFIED
LS	$J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i - \frac{kT_{,i}}{1-i\omega\tau_0}$ (freq. domain)	PARTIAL
GL	$J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i + q_i$ (q from GL constitutive)	UNCERTAIN
GN-II	Entropy flux $p_i = k_{ij}\alpha_{,j}$ established; energy flux open	UNCERTAIN
GN-III	Mixed type I/II flux; open	UNCERTAIN
DPL	$J_i = \sigma_{ji} v_i - kT_{,i} \frac{1-i\omega\tau_T}{1-i\omega\tau_q}$ (freq. domain)	PARTIAL
TPL	Frequency-domain form formally derived; time domain open	UNCERTAIN
MGT	Frequency-domain reduces to classical; time domain open	UNCERTAIN
MDD	Convolution-form flux; kernel-dependent	UNCERTAIN
Nonlocal	Integral-form flux; divergence theorem modification needed	UNCERTAIN
Piezoelectric	$J_i^{\text{elec}} = -\phi \dot{D}_i$	PARTIAL